Income Inequality and Intergenerational Mobility in Russia: Trends, Sources, and Measurement

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Abstract

This chapter documents trends in income and inequality in Russia from the collapse of the Soviet Union through 2025, drawing on official statistics, the existing literature, and household survey microdata. It also reviews evidence on intergenerational mobility. While there is a consensus that inequality dramatically increased during the 1990s, its post-2000 trajectory is contested. Initial household survey studies usually found a decline, whereas official statistics reported a comparatively stable Gini coefficient. Our analysis of Russia's major household surveys, harmonized using common measurement conventions, aligns with the survey-based literature, indicating that the Gini coefficient generally fell from approximately 0.45–0.48 in the early 2000s to 0.29–0.38 in the early 2020s. We further find that most inequality arises within rather than between regions, urban and rural areas, and education and occupation groups. Household labor-market attachment, region, and household composition account for the largest shares of the explained variance in log income. The large literature on inequality is complemented by a small literature on intergenerational mobility. Here, the various studies on intergenerational dynamics in education, occupation, and income across post-Soviet cohorts conclude that, even against the background of dramatic structural changes, family background remains strongly associated with children's outcomes.

Keywords: inequality, intergenerational mobility, Russia, regions

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1 Introduction

Russia's transition from central planning to a market economy during the 1990s was one of the most abrupt economic transformations of the late twentieth century. This chapter surveys the evidence on income, inequality, and intergenerational mobility in Russia from the collapse of the Soviet Union through 2025. This immediate transition was accompanied by a severe contraction in real incomes and, according to broad consensus, a sharp rise in income inequality (Milanovic 1999; Flemming and Micklewright 2000; Commander et al. 1999; Milanovic 1998; Jovanovic 2001; Kislitsyna 2003). After 2000, inequality dynamics are less clear. Studies based on household survey microdata generally document a gradual decline in inequality after 2000 (Gorodnichenko et al. 2010; Lukiyanova and Oshchepkov 2012; Dang et al. 2020; Lisina and Van Kerm 2022; Zasimova 2024), whereas the official series of Rosstat, Russia's government statistical agency,[1] instead shows inequality remaining comparatively stable over the last two decades. There is also evidence that income disparities across Russian regions narrowed during the 2000s (Kholodilin et al. 2012; Zubarevich and Safronov 2019; Oshchepkov et al. 2023), although this is sensitive to the measure used (Remington 2015). The period since 1991 has also exhibited substantial parental influence on offspring's educational, occupational, and economic outcomes across generations (Gerber and Hout 2004; Roshchina 2012; Borisov and Pissarides 2020).

Despite the large body of evidence and analysis, the magnitude of these developments remains difficult to establish. Estimates of the Gini coefficient for broadly comparable periods, for example, range from below 0.30 in studies based on equivalized RLMS-HSE income (Lisina and Van Kerm 2022; Bryukhanov and Hryshko 2024) to over 0.50 in studies incorporating tax and wealth data (Novokmet et al. 2018b). This sensitivity is not confined to the academic literature: Rosstat publishes several measures of income distribution based on different concepts of household resources that produce markedly different estimates for the same year and population—for 2025, for example, its traditional per capita monetary income Gini is 0.422, whereas its new indicator, defined on income after taxes and adjusted for regional price differences, is 0.375.[2] These discrepancies reflect differences in definitions of income, equivalence scales, the treatment of top incomes, the underlying data sources, and the statistical methods used to construct the estimates. Together, these discrepancies imply that assessing the evolution of inequality over the long run requires considering evidence across multiple sources

[1] Formerly Goskomstat in the Soviet period and formally the Federal State Statistics Service (FSSS) since 2004. We use "Rosstat" throughout to refer to the agency under its former and current names.

[2] Rosstat, https://rosstat.gov.ru/folder/13723#.

rather than relying on any single series.

In this chapter, we bring together official government statistics and independent sources of household and distributional data and both describe previous work and construct new inequality estimates. We start by providing an overview of the principal sources available for studying income and inequality in Russia, moving across aggregate statistics, administrative and tax data, and household surveys conducted by both Rosstat and independent researchers. We then compare the various inequality estimates that have emerged from different sources. This analysis reveals the extent to which inequality measurements depend on the underlying data source; even after applying consistent conventions, Gini estimates for the same year can differ by as much as 0.08, a magnitude comparable to a decade of measured change within a given data source. These comparisons distinguish features of the Russian income distribution that are common across data sources from those that depend on particular measurement choices.

The evidence that we assemble leads to several broad conclusions. First, the evolution of household income since the early 1990s exhibits four distinct phases: severe contraction during the transition, rapid growth after 2000, stagnation from 2014 through 2020, and renewed growth after 2022. Second, analysis of Russia's major household surveys under a common set of measurement conventions makes clear that income inequality experienced a general long-term decline after 2000, with the Gini coefficient falling from approximately 0.45–0.48 in the early 2000s to 0.29–0.38 by the early 2020s. Third, we show that interregional income dispersion narrowed substantially through the mid-2010s in both Rosstat's regional statistics and the Household Budget Survey (HBS; Russian acronym OBDH) microdata, but the two sources subsequently diverge: regional income differences begin to widen again in the Rosstat series, whereas the household-survey microdata show no comparable rebound. Fourth, most inequality arises within, rather than between, broad geographic and socioeconomic groups. Differences in mean income account for 15–23% of total inequality across regions, 5–10% across the urban–rural divide, and 7–15% across education and occupation groups. In a separate regression-based variance decomposition, household labor-market attachment, region fixed effects, and household composition account for the largest shares of explained variance, although their relative importance exhibits some variance across years.

Relative to the existing evidence, the chapter's result concerns the post-2000 trajectory of inequality. The decline in aggregate inequality documented here contrasts with the trajectory reported by Rosstat, whose official series lies below the survey-based estimates in the early 2000s but above the survey-based estimates from the mid-2010s onward: Gini index rises from approximately 0.40 in 2000 to 0.422 in 2007 and, even at its lowest point

in 2022, remains at 0.398, above the corresponding survey-based range. A decline of this kind is also reported in much of the literature based on individual surveys, most often the Russian Longitudinal Monitoring Survey of the Higher School of Economics (RLMS-HSE) (Gorodnichenko et al. 2010; Lukiyanova and Oshchepkov 2012; Dang et al. 2020; Lisina and Van Kerm 2022; Zasimova 2024); our comparison shows that it holds in most of the surveys under a common set of measurement conventions, rather than being specific to any one source. The discrepancies between official statistics and survey-based estimates may reflect differences in methodology, coverage, or both, with Rosstat's calibration procedure and the potential underrepresentation of high-income households in surveys being plausible explanations (Kapeliushnikov 2020; Kuzin and Surinov 2025). Estimates that incorporate tax, national accounts, and wealth data diverge even further from both the official statistics and the survey-based estimates (Novokmet et al. 2018b).

The chapter makes three related contributions. First, this is, to our knowledge, the first synthesis within a single framework of the principal data sources available for studying income distribution and intergenerational mobility in Russia (Section 2), characterizing what each source can and cannot measure. Second, we apply a consistent decomposition framework to regional, urban–rural, education, and occupation groups over an extended period, and illustrate how these factors explain observed inequalities. Third, by extending analyses through 2025, we cover the pandemic expansion of social transfers and the subsequent post-2022 labor-market adjustment, periods that lie beyond previous panel-based work, as the panels used in major studies such as Dang et al. (2020) and Lisina and Van Kerm (2022) end in 2015, and that used by Bryukhanov and Hryshko (2024) ends in 2018.

We complement our cross-sectional evidence with evidence on intergenerational mobility by reviewing the literature on educational, occupational, and income mobility among post-Soviet cohorts and relating these findings to the chapter's evidence on inequality. This literature shows that parental background remains significantly associated with children's outcomes despite Russia's profound institutional and economic changes (Gerber and Hout 2004; Roshchina 2012; Borisov and Pissarides 2020). Whether the transition changed the strength of this association is less settled, with studies finding tightening, stability, or weakening depending on the outcome and the data (Gerber and Hout 2004; Roshchina 2012; Yastrebov 2016; Bessudnov 2016). For recent cohorts, a large share of measured educational mobility and of father-to-child occupational mobility reflects differences between parents' and children's marginal distributions of schooling and jobs, whereas mother-to-child occupational mobility is mostly exchange mobility (Butaeva et al. 2026). The chapter thus pairs evidence on the distribution of income with

evidence on how advantage is transmitted across generations.

The remainder of this chapter proceeds as follows. Section 2 catalogs the available data sources and identifies those used in the chapter. Section 3 documents the evolution of household income since 1991, together with its regional and education- and occupation-based dimensions. Section 4 turns to income inequality, comparing estimates across sources and decomposing it by region, urban–rural residence, the household head's education and occupation, and household characteristics and income source. Section 5 reviews the existing literature on intergenerational mobility in Russia. Section 6 concludes.

2 Data Availability, Sources, and Measurement

A researcher studying income inequality or intergenerational mobility in Russia can draw on two broad classes of data sources. The first consists of aggregate income, price, and population statistics published by Rosstat, Russia's government statistical agency. These data combine survey data with macroeconomic and administrative aggregates. The second consists of household-level microdata from sample surveys, which allow distributional parameters to be estimated directly from individual- or household-level observations.

The various surveys available for Russia are almost entirely repeated cross-sections. They are therefore informative about the level of inequality and its evolution over time but cannot, for example, be used to study how an individual's economic position changes over time or how it is related to that of their parents. The Russian Longitudinal Monitoring Survey (RLMS-HSE) is the only long-running exception, since it repeatedly interviews the same households and individuals over time (CSLCP and VODPF have limited longitudinal or split-panel components, described below). It is also the only panel survey sufficiently long and extensive to support the study of intergenerational mobility in Russia, allowing researchers to observe members of at least two generations and yielding a sufficiently large sample of parent–child pairs for intergenerational mobility analysis.

This section reviews the available sources in both categories and then identifies the data sources used in the present chapter.

Aggregate Statistics and Administrative Data

Aggregate information on per capita monetary income, consumer prices, and population, at both the national and regional levels, is available from Russia's government

statistical agency Rosstat.[1] These income series are not direct observations of household income but estimates derived using the Balance of Monetary Incomes and Expenditures of the Population, which reconciles household survey distributions with macroeconomic income aggregates drawn from enterprise records, banking statistics, and retail trade data. This implies that aggregate series and measures estimated directly from survey microdata are not directly comparable, since they may be reconciled to different totals. This does not preclude the use of the aggregate series for analyzing interregional disparities, for which Rosstat remains the most comprehensive and consistent source. Regional income series are officially published from 1995 onward, and national series on incomes, wages, pensions, and the income distribution extend back to the beginning of the transition (1991), giving considerably broader coverage than any publicly available household survey can offer. Rosstat also maintains regional accounts of consumer price index, subsistence minimum, and the cost of a fixed basket of consumer goods and services for inter-regional comparisons,[2] all of which allow nominal regional incomes to be placed on a comparable purchasing-power basis.

Administrative records held outside Rosstat form an additional, more specialized source, available at multiple levels of aggregation. The Federal Tax Service has published annual grouped tabulations of the personal income tax base by income bracket since 2008; these tabulations are publicly available online.[3] In this published, aggregated form, they have been used to correct the upper tail of survey-based income distributions through Pareto interpolation (Butaeva 2017; Novokmet et al. 2018b). The individual tax records that are linked to individual survey respondents are not publicly available, as in Kuzin and Surinov (2025), who matched PIS[4] respondents only to aggregated administrative tax records to assess how much top-income correction changes measured inequality.

Pension and social-insurance administrative data also involve a combination of publicly available aggregates and restricted microdata. Until 2023, retirement pensions were administered by the Pension Fund of the Russian Federation (PFR) and social-insurance benefits by the Social Insurance Fund (FSS). After 1 January 2023, the agencies have been consolidated into the Social Fund of Russia (SFR).[5] All these agencies publish open data

[1] Rosstat, https://rosstat.gov.ru/folder/10705.

[2] The cost-of-basket price index measures the cost, in each region and year, of purchasing an identical, fixed basket of goods and services at region-specific average consumer prices.

[3] Federal Tax Service, https://www.nalog.gov.ru.

[4] The Sample Survey of Population Income and Participation in Social Programs (PIS; Russian acronym VNDN).

[5] Federal Law No. 236-FZ of 14 July 2022; Social Fund of Russia, https://sfr.gov.ru/opendata/, which also archives the pre-2023 open data of the PFR and FSS separately.

on the number of pensioners or benefit recipients and average payment amounts, by region and by benefit type, but do not provide individual- or household-level records. Because administrative sources cover only taxpayers, the insured and pensioner populations, exclude informal and non-labor income, and are released in aggregated form, they cannot be used to construct representative income distributions. Their role in the inequality literature has been to provide checks or to supplement the pension and benefit totals that feed into Rosstat's own aggregate income series.

Household Surveys Fielded by Rosstat

Three Rosstat household surveys currently support the direct estimation of inequality measures from microdata; all three are primarily repeated cross-sections. The oldest of the three is the Household Budget Survey (HBS; Russian acronym *OBDH*),[1] a continuous survey administered by Rosstat's territorial offices in all constituent regions of the Russian Federation. It has been conducted quarterly since 1952 and was substantially redesigned in 1997, with microdata publicly available annually from 2003 (Yemtsov 2008). Each sampled household stays in the survey for one year and is interviewed five times, once in each quarter plus an annual interview, and the national sample has historically been on the order of 45,000 to 50,000 households. HBS (OBDH) was Rosstat's own source for official poverty and inequality statistics before 2018, and among the available microdata sources it offers the longest continuous window with extensive regional coverage, although several autonomous okrugs (autonomous districts)[2] are not represented as separate statistical domains.

Since 2012, Rosstat has also fielded the Sample Survey of Population Income and Participation in Social Programs (PIS; Russian acronym *VNDN*),[3] an annual repeated cross-section that is representative both nationally and within every constituent region of the Russian Federation. Its sample has grown substantially since inception: from 10,000 households in the first round (2012) to 45,000 in 2014–2015, to roughly 60,000 households in most rounds from 2016 onward. PIS (VNDN) replaced HBS (OBDH) as the survey component underlying Rosstat's official income-distribution and inequality

[1] Rosstat, https://obdx.rosstat.gov.ru.

[2] Russia's constituent regions (federal subjects) include oblasts (provinces) and krais (territories), which are administratively equivalent; republics, established for non-Russian ethnic groups; the federal cities of Moscow and St. Petersburg; and autonomous okrugs, designated for small northern peoples, most of which lie within a larger oblast. We use "region" for all of these units.

[3] Rosstat, https://rosstat.gov.ru/free_doc/new_site/VNDN-2026/index.html. Sample sizes are set out in Rosstat Order No. 383 of 20 June 2018, "On approval of the principal methodological and organizational provisions of the Sample Survey of Population Income and Participation in Social Programs."

statistics in 2018, with the revised series backdated to 2013. It also records a richer set of pre-calculated household-level variables, including employment, education, and disability of household members.

The third Rosstat survey is the Comprehensive Survey of Living Conditions of the Population (CSLCP; Russian acronym *KNUZH*),[1] first fielded in 2011 and repeated biennially since 2014. CSLCP (KNUZH) samples approximately 60,000 households in every constituent region, drawn through a multi-stage design based on the enumeration areas of the 2010 Population Census, and is representative nationally, regionally, by urban and rural settlement type, and by socio-demographic group. From 2016 onward, a subset of previously interviewed households is revisited two years later, giving the survey a limited longitudinal component alongside its main cross-section. Its questionnaire is much broader than that of a budget survey, covering housing, transport, access to public and medical services, education, and use of information technology, and it includes a dedicated module on household finances recording income by source. The full regional coverage and large sample make CSLCP (KNUZH) a useful complement to HBS (OBDH) and PIS (VNDN) for regional and settlement-level comparisons.

Construction of Official Inequality Statistics

Rosstat publishes several standard measures of income inequality alongside the aggregate income series described above: the Gini coefficient, the decile ratio, the "fund coefficient" (the ratio of average monetary income of the richest decile to that of the poorest decile), and income shares by decile and quintile group.[2] These estimates are not estimated directly from microdata, but calibrated against the Balance of Monetary Incomes and Expenditures aggregates described above, in three steps: (i) the relevant household survey (HBS (OBDH) before 2018 and PIS (VNDN) after) supplies the shape of the income distribution; (ii) the macroeconomic aggregate fixes its mean; and (iii) the resulting distribution is used to estimate the published indicators of income, poverty, and inequality.

Specifically, Rosstat models per capita income as lognormally distributed and recovers this distribution's two parameters, the mean and standard deviation of log income (μ and σ), by combining the household survey (HBS (OBDH) before 2018, PIS (VNDN)

[1] Rosstat, https://rosstat.gov.ru/free_doc/new_site/kouz/survey0/index.html. See also Rosstat Order No. 47 of 24 January 2014 and Order No. 415 of 29 May 2014, issued pursuant to Government of the Russian Federation Resolution No. 946 of 27 November 2010.

[2] Rosstat, https://rosstat.gov.ru/storage/mediabank/Raspred_i_difference.pdf. Other commonly used inequality indices, such as the generalized entropy class or the Atkinson index, have never been part of this official reporting (Yemtsov 2008).

since) with the aggregate income total recorded in the Balance of Monetary Incomes and Expenditures. The standard deviation of log income, $\sigma_{\ln x}$, is estimated directly from the survey microdata as the sample standard deviation of $\ln X_i$ across the surveyed individuals, where X_i is the per capita income of the household to which surveyed individual i belongs.[1] Because each household's per capita income is counted once for every household member, this is equivalent to weighting households by size; we adopt this convention throughout this chapter (Section 4.1.2). The published methodology does not indicate whether the calculation additionally incorporates the survey's design weights or corrects for stratification and non-response. The scale parameter μ_0 of the fitted lognormal is then recovered from the population's average per capita income, μ, taken from the macroeconomic Balance of Monetary Incomes and Expenditures,

$$\ln \mu_0 = \ln \mu - \frac{1}{2}\sigma^2_{\ln x}. \tag{1}$$

The fitted distribution, $F(U) = \Phi(U)$ with $U = (\ln X - \ln \mu_0)/\sigma_{\ln x}$, is used to construct a distribution series over a fixed table of income brackets denominated in rubles: each bracket is assigned a population share from $F(U)$ and an income total obtained by multiplying its midpoint by that population share. The published Gini coefficient is calculated from the resulting discrete Lorenz curve, $K_L = 1 - \sum_i (F_i - F_{i-1})(S_{i-1} + S_i)$, and the decile ratio from the fitted quantile function, $K_d = d_9/d_1$ with $d_{1,9} = \exp\left(U_{d_{1,9}}\,\sigma_{\ln x} + \ln \mu_0\right)$.

The continuous lognormal Gini and the decile ratio depend only on $\sigma_{\ln x}$ and are invariant to μ_0. This does not hold for Rosstat's procedure, which evaluates the fitted distribution over a fixed table of ruble brackets: there μ_0 determines how much mass falls in each bracket, including the open-ended top one, so the published Gini also depends on the macro-calibrated mean; we do not establish the magnitude or direction of this effect. The persistent gap between Rosstat's published Gini and the survey-based estimates in this chapter may therefore stem from the estimation of $\sigma_{\ln x}$, the lognormal assumption, the ruble-bracket discretization, or undocumented construction details.

The per capita monetary-income Gini is Rosstat's primary inequality series, and it is the only one with a long, internally consistent history. Rosstat also reports a Gini based on equivalized disposable income, that is, income after taxes and mandatory contributions, adjusted for household size and composition. This is closer to the concept used in international databases than the traditional series. In 2026 Rosstat added a further index

[1] Federal State Statistics Service (Rosstat), "Methodology for Calculating Indicators of the Distribution and Differentiation of the Population by Income Level," https://rosstat.gov.ru/bgd/free/b99_10/isswww.exe/stg/d000/i000150r.htm. See Butaeva (2017) for a detailed treatment of this procedure and its limitations.

based on post-tax income adjusted for regional price differences.[1] We return to the comparison between these series, and to the broader question of how estimated inequality depends on data source and methodology, in Section 4.

Independent Household Surveys

To our knowledge, three surveys of substantial size are conducted independently of Rosstat. The first, and the most important one for this chapter, is the Russian Longitudinal Monitoring Survey (*RLMS-HSE*),[2] conducted by the National Research University Higher School of Economics and the survey enterprise ZAO "Demoscope", together with the Carolina Population Center at the University of North Carolina at Chapel Hill and the Institute of Sociology of the Russian Academy of Sciences. Established in 1992 and following the same design since 1994, RLMS-HSE is a multistage, nationally representative annual panel. The initial sample was around 4,000 households at the start and reached approximately 6,700 to 8,000 households in recent rounds (Kozyreva and Sabirianova Peter 2015). The sample is built to be representative of the eight broad geographic strata, and covers roughly 38 constituent regions. The same 1994 Demoscope territorial sample underlies all of the firm's face-to-face household surveys, including the Consumer Finance survey described below. A key feature of the RLMS-HSE is that it aims to re-interview the same households and, where possible, the same individuals each year, collecting detailed information on the education, occupation, and earnings. For this reason, it is the only source of linked parent–child income and earnings data and provides the basis for the post-Soviet income-mobility findings summarized in Section 5.

The second survey is the All-Russian Household Survey on Consumer Finances (Russian acronym *VODPF*), commissioned by the Ministry of Finance of the Russian Federation for its first four waves (2013, 2015, 2018, 2020) and by the Bank of Russia thereafter (2022, 2024), with fieldwork carried out by ZAO "Demoscope".[3] It uses the same territorial address sample as RLMS-HSE: 38 strata, of which the three self-representing units are Moscow city, Moscow Oblast, and St. Petersburg, and 35 non-self-representing strata, from each of which an administrative-territorial unit is selected with probability proportional to population size. Territories accounting for about 4% of the Russian population are excluded in advance due to remoteness and low population density. The initial sample is around 6,000 households per wave. The survey is not a pure cross-section: most

[1] Rosstat, https://rosstat.gov.ru/folder/13723#.

[2] RLMS-HSE, https://www.hse.ru/en/rlms/.

[3] Bank of Russia, https://www.cbr.ru/eng/ec_research/vserossiyskoe-obsledovanie-domokhozyaystv-po-potrebitel-skim-finansam/.

households are interviewed repeatedly, with a re-interview rate of 85.9% among households interviewed in 2022 and 2024. Households lost to follow-up are replaced by newly sampled addresses in the same sampling areas. Two features limit its utility: its documentation states explicitly that the sample is not representative at the regional level, and that households in the top income quintile are effectively absent from the realized sample.

A third data source is the HSE Survey on Economic Behavior of Households (*EBHR*),[1] a repeated cross-section run by the Higher School of Economics from 2023–2025 with roughly 6,700 observations per round. The survey was designed to oversample affluent households and is representative only at the Federal Districts (*federal'nye okruga*) level.[2] Its short time span and limited regional coverage constrain trend and regional analyses, but its oversampling of high-income households is particularly valuable for studying income inequality in Russia.

Data Used in This Chapter

This chapter uses different combinations of these data sources based on empirical objects of interest. The long-run regional analysis in Section 3.2 is built on Rosstat's aggregate regional series for income, prices, population, and gross regional product, complemented by HBS (OBDH) microdata as a check on regional income patterns;[3] although official regional data begin in 1995, we restrict attention to 2000 through 2025, since several regions have missing or inconsistent observations before 2000 owing to administrative-territorial changes and gaps in regional reporting. The comparison of national Gini coefficients across surveys in Section 4 draws on all four large household surveys, namely HBS (OBDH), PIS (VNDN), CSLCP (KNUZH), and RLMS-HSE. For the urban-rural income comparison in Appendix A.3 and the urban-rural and regional inequality decompositions in Appendix B.3 and Section 4.2, we rely on HBS (OBDH) microdata, which uniquely combine a two-decade span, stable methodology, broad regional coverage and representativeness, and samples large enough to support sub-national decomposition. For education- and occupation-based heterogeneity analyses in Sections 3.3 and 4.3, as

[1] HSE, https://www.hse.ru/hheb/.

[2] The Federal Districts are the eight macro-regions: Central, Northwestern, Southern, North Caucasian, Volga, Ural, Siberian, and Far Eastern Federal Districts.

[3] Our analysis uses a balanced panel of 82 regions for the Rosstat regional statistics, excluding Chechnya and all reclaimed territories, whereas the comparable HBS (OBDH) analysis covers only 79 regions because Arkhangelsk and Tyumen oblasts incorporate autonomous okrugs (Nenets, Khanty-Mansi, and Yamalo-Nenets) that are not separately represented in the HBS microdata. We use the finest territorial classification available in each source.

well as the variance decompositions in Sections 4.4 and 4.5, we rely on PIS (VNDN) microdata due to more complete demographic and income-source coverage.

3 Income Dynamics

This section traces the evolution of household income in Russia from the collapse of the Soviet Union to the present, before turning to its regional dimension and to differences by household head education and occupation.

3.1 National-level Income Dynamics

The transition to a market economy brought a severe contraction in real income between 1991 and 1996 (Figure 1, Panel (b)). The decline is widely attributed to the rapid implementation of price liberalization and privatization, the so-called "shock therapy" reforms, which produced an extraordinary spike in inflation over 1992–1993. Real wages fell by roughly a third over this period, even as nominal wages rose sharply: the average wage, expressed in post-1998 rubles for comparability, climbed from roughly half a ruble per month in 1991 to nearly 60 rubles ($\approx$ \$63) by 1993 (Figure 1, Panels (a) and (b)). The government responded with a series of social-protection measures: in 1991–1992 alone, close to two dozen laws were passed to raise the minimum wage and index social benefits (Maleva et al. 2007; Akhinov and Kalashnikov 2008; Nemashkalova 2015).[1] These measures helped ease some of the immediate hardships of the transition, but the state had fewer resources to meet its social commitments, limiting the broader recovery.

Real disposable income and pensions recovered part of their initial losses by 1993–1994, only to fall sharply again in 1995. A 1994 reform introduced formal pension indexation mechanisms,[2] but indexation failed to keep pace with continued price increases and mounting pension arrears, and the modest recovery of 1996 proved short-lived for pensions in particular, which resumed their decline in 1997 even as wages and disposable income continued to improve. The shares of wages and pensions in national income never returned to their late-Soviet levels, and the broader recovery in household income remained slow and volatile throughout the period. This prolonged stagnation

[1] These included, among others, Law of the Russian Federation No. 2704-1 of 21 April 1992, "On Increasing the Minimum Wage," and Decree of the President of the Russian Federation No. 515 of 21 May 1992, "On Increasing the Amounts of Social Benefits and Compensation Payments in 1992."

[2] Federal Law No. 2-FZ of 5 May 1994, "On the Procedure for the Indexation and Recalculation of Pensions Established in Accordance with the Law of the RSFSR 'On State Pensions in the RSFSR,'" and Decree of the President of the Russian Federation No. 1695 of 17 August 1994, "On the Indexation of State Pensions in the Russian Federation in September and October 1994 and the Sources of Its Financing."

was marked by continued output decline, widespread wage arrears, and delayed social transfers. The inherited Soviet institutions, including sectoral hierarchies, soft budget constraints, and broad but often limited social guarantees, also made the transition to a market economy more difficult.

The 1998 financial crisis inflicted a further sharp decline in real income across all series. In 1999, real GDP began to recover, while real wages, pensions, and disposable income continued to fall, reaching their lowest levels in the period before increasing in 2000. Pensions experienced the sharpest immediate decline, falling by nearly 40% in 1999 alone. The subsequent ruble depreciation was followed by a recovery in domestic production and a decade of sustained economic expansion.

The recovery that began in 1999–2000 became a prolonged period of economic expansion. Between 2000 and 2008, real GDP grew at an average annual rate of roughly 6.5%, accompanied by substantial gains in all major income components. Real wages rose particularly rapidly, outpacing both pensions and per capita disposable income, and by the mid-2000s wages and disposable income had surpassed their late-Soviet levels. In nominal terms, the average wage rose nearly eightfold over the same period, from 2,223 ($\approx$ \$79) to 17,290 ($\approx$ \$696) rubles per month (Figure 1, Panel (a)). Pension adjustments were much slower, not regaining their late-Soviet level until 2010, immediately after the 2009 valorization reform. This expansion coincided with the introduction of a new Labor Code in 2002, replacing the 1971 Soviet-era code. At the same time, the pension system began shifting from a mainly pay-as-you-go model toward an insurance-based system that included a funded component.[1] Then the 2008–2009 global financial crisis happened, during which Russian GDP dropped by nearly 8% in 2009. The impact on household income was much smaller: real wages fell only slightly and temporarily, while substantial fiscal support helped sustain growth in disposable income despite falling output and wages. The government's response also included a major pension reform in 2009: a one-off revaluation, or "valorization,"[2] of accumulated pension rights that credited retirees for Soviet-era work experience, which raised pensions for existing pensioners by up to 46% and contributed to the largest sustained increase in real pensions of the post-Soviet period, concentrated in 2008-2010 (Figure 1, Panel (b)).

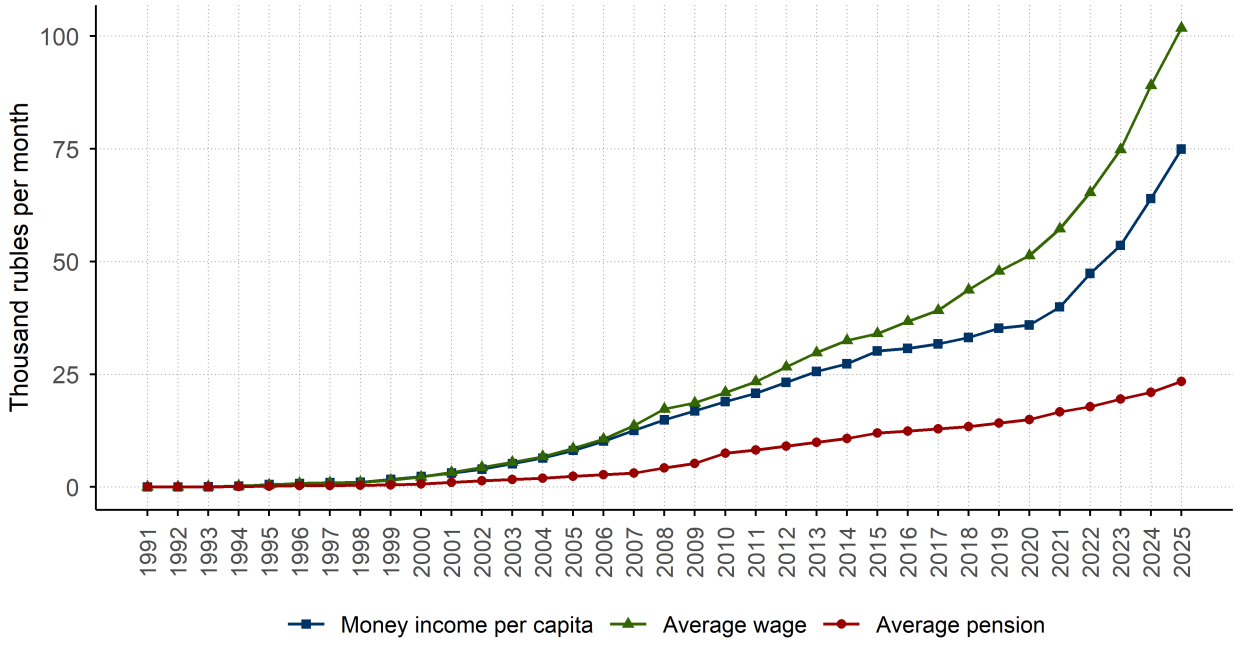
The dynamics of household income changed markedly after 2014. The sharp decline in global oil prices, accompanied by the ruble depreciation, as well as the imposition of international sanctions led to a prolonged period of stagnation, the most persistent

[1] Federal Law No. 173-FZ of 17 December 2001, "On Labor Pensions in the Russian Federation," and Federal Law No. 167-FZ of 15 December 2001, "On Compulsory Pension Insurance in the Russian Federation."

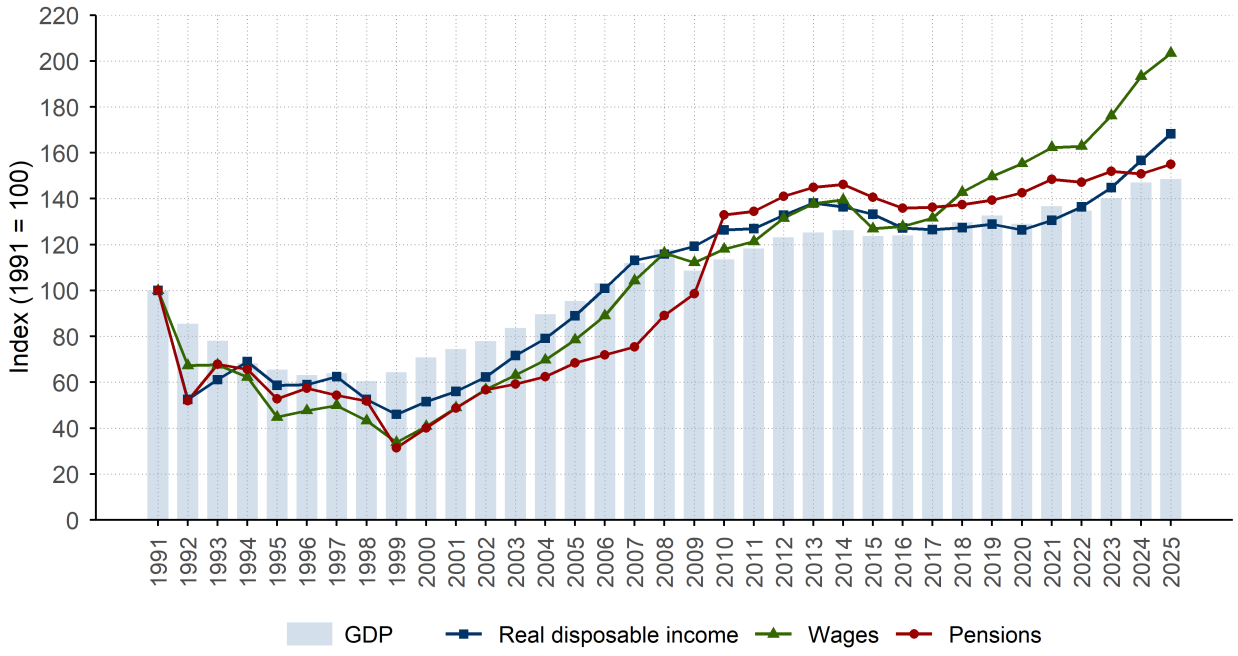
[2] Federal Law No. 213-FZ of 24 July 2009, effective 1 January 2010.

Figure 1: Household Income, Wages, Pensions, and GDP in Russia

(a) Nominal Levels



(b) Real Indices



Notes: This figure reports key official Rosstat statistics on nominal and real income and earnings (https://rosstat.gov.ru/folder/10705). Panel (a) reports average per capita money income, the gross average wage, and the average pension, in current rubles per month; figures before 1998 are expressed in post-1998 (redenominated) rubles for continuity across the 1998 currency redenomination. Panel (b) reports real disposable income, real wages, and real pension (lines) together with real Gross Domestic Product (GDP, bars), each indexed so that its 1991 value equals 100. See Appendix Table A.1.1 for full year-by-year values.

since the 1998–1999 crisis. Although the 2014 downturn was comparatively shallow, it was not followed by a robust recovery of the kind observed after 2008: real GDP growth ranged from only 0.2 to 2.8% annually over 2016–2019. Real disposable income fell by close to 9% from its 2013 peak to its low point in 2020, and a sustained recovery did not resume until after 2021, with the 2013 level fully restored only in 2023. Nominal income nonetheless continued to rise throughout the period, from 27,333 (≈ $709) rubles per month in 2014 to 35,934 (≈ $497) rubles by 2020 (Figure 1, Panel (a)), growth that was more than offset by inflation. Because quintile shares changed little over this period, the decline in real income was broadly proportional across the distribution (Figure 8, Section 4), while the labor market proved considerably more resilient than in earlier crises, allowing real wages to recover relatively quickly. A further reform in 2018 raised the statutory retirement age, in annual increments beginning in 2019, from 60 to 65 for men and from 55 to 60 for women, with the stated objective of improving the pension system's long-run fiscal sustainability.[1] The COVID-19 pandemic delivered a further shock to household income in 2020, which was mitigated in part by extensive fiscal support, including an expansion of the maternity capital program to first-born children.[2]

Although real disposable income had begun to recover by 2021, income growth accelerated markedly after the escalation of the conflict in Ukraine in early 2022. Real disposable income rose by 4.5% in 2022, and by 2023 household income had returned to its 2013 level. The defining feature of the period since 2022 is the acceleration of income growth that followed: by the end of 2025, real income stood 28% above its 2021 level. This occurred despite persistent high inflation and extensive international sanctions. Labor shortages intensified amid adverse demographic trends, a contraction in labor supply following the partial mobilization declared in September 2022,[3] and rising demand from defense-related industries, contributing to exceptionally rapid wage growth; by 2025, real wages had reached roughly twice their 1991 level (Figure 1, Panel (b)). Pension benefits, by contrast, grew only modestly in real terms over the same period and unevenly, including a temporary dip in 2024, before reaching their highest level of the period in 2025. Although indexation and targeted support helped maintain pensioners' purchasing power, pensions did not keep pace with wage growth, widening the gap between wages and pensions from 2022 to 2025. In nominal terms, per capita money income

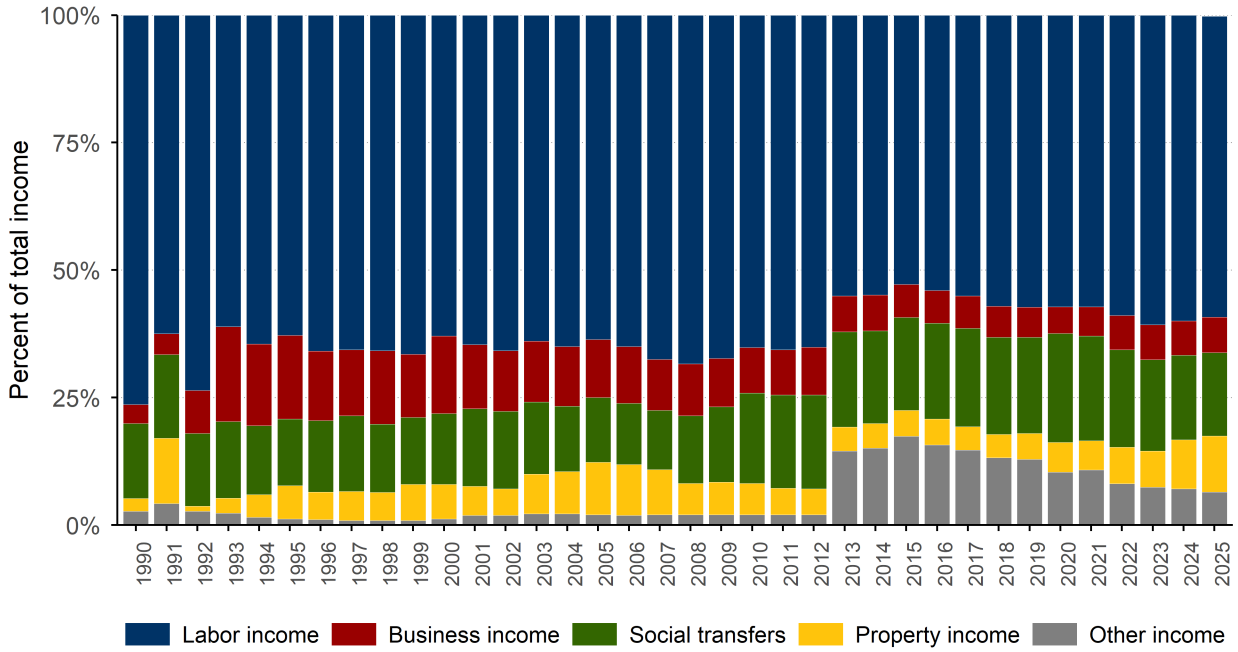
[1] Federal Law No. 350-FZ of 3 October 2018, "On Amendments to Certain Legislative Acts of the Russian Federation on the Appointment and Payment of Pensions."

[2] Federal Law No. 35-FZ of 1 March 2020, "On Amendments to Certain Legislative Acts of the Russian Federation Concerning the Disposal of Maternity (Family) Capital Funds."

[3] Presidential Decree No. 647 of 21 September 2022, "On the Announcement of Partial Mobilization in the Russian Federation."

nearly doubled between 2021 and 2025, from 39,934 (≈ $542) to 74,932 (≈ $897) rubles per month, while the average pension grew by roughly two-fifths, from 16,642 (≈ $226) to 23,425 (≈ $280) rubles; the average wage, meanwhile, surpassed 100,000 (≈ $1200) rubles per month for the first time in 2025 (Figure 1, Panel (a)), a figure that reflects three decades of cumulative inflation rather than a comparable rise in living standards.

Figure 2: Composition of Household Income in Russia



Notes: The figure reports Rosstat's official estimates of the share of each source in total household monetary income. Labor income includes wages and salaries; business income includes entrepreneurial and self-employment earnings. The shift in the labor and other income shares at 2013 reflects Rosstat's 2018 income reclassification. See Section 4.5 for decomposition of income inequality by income sources using PIS (VNDN) microdata.

Wage growth relative to pensions is the main driver of this shift in income structure. Rapid wage growth has increased the share of labor income while reducing the relative share of social transfers. The gradual increase in the retirement age has reinforced this trend by slowing the growth in the number of pension recipients relative to the population. The tight labor market and elevated inflation of the post-2022 period have also coincided with changes in entrepreneurial and property income, so that understanding household welfare requires tracing the evolution of all major income sources since the start of market reforms (Figure 2). The visible break in series around 2012–2013 reflects Rosstat's 2018 income reclassification. Entrepreneurial income,[1] which surged to nearly

[1]We use "entrepreneurial income" and "business income" interchangeably in this chapter to denote Rosstat's category for earnings from self-employment and private business activity.

19% of total household income in 1993 as private business activity first emerged, declined steadily to 5–7% thereafter and has recovered only modestly since 2022. Wage income remains the dominant household income source. Under the revised Rosstat methodology in 2013, wages accounted for roughly 55–57% of total income through the late 2010s, rising further to nearly 60% in 2022–2025, when labor shortages intensified, wages grew rapidly, and demand for workers increased, particularly in manufacturing and defense-related industries. Property income has also mildly risen in the most recent period, from below 6% for most of the 2010s to 7.2% in 2022 and 11.0% by 2025, likely reflecting higher returns on financial assets due to increased interest rates. Share of social transfers, by contrast, has declined from a pandemic-driven peak of 21.4% in 2020 to 16.3% by 2025. Therefore, recent gains in household income have been driven primarily by labor earnings and an increasing contribution from property income.

3.2 Spatial Heterogeneity in Income Dynamics

Income levels differ substantially across Russian regions, and this divide represents a significant structural feature of the Russian economy. Russia's vast geographic scale, substantial natural-resource and ethnic diversity, uneven population density, and pronounced economic specialization generate large gaps in average income across regions. These disparities are particularly relevant in a federal system in which regional governments bear substantial responsibility for public services and local economic development. The existing literature documents marked shifts in these regional income gaps over the post-Soviet period: dispersion and polarization across regional mean incomes rose rapidly during the early transition, driven especially by differences in resource endowments, export orientation, and the relative position of regional capitals[1] (Fedorov 2002; Bradshaw and Vartapetov 2003; Yemtsov 2005; Zubarevich 2016), before these disparities narrowed from the mid-2000s into the 2010s, marking a different phase in the evolution of regional inequality (Zubarevich and Safronov 2024); Remington (2015), however, argues that the decline in the coefficient of variation of regional incomes in this period is an artifact of the statistic and finds no evidence of convergence.

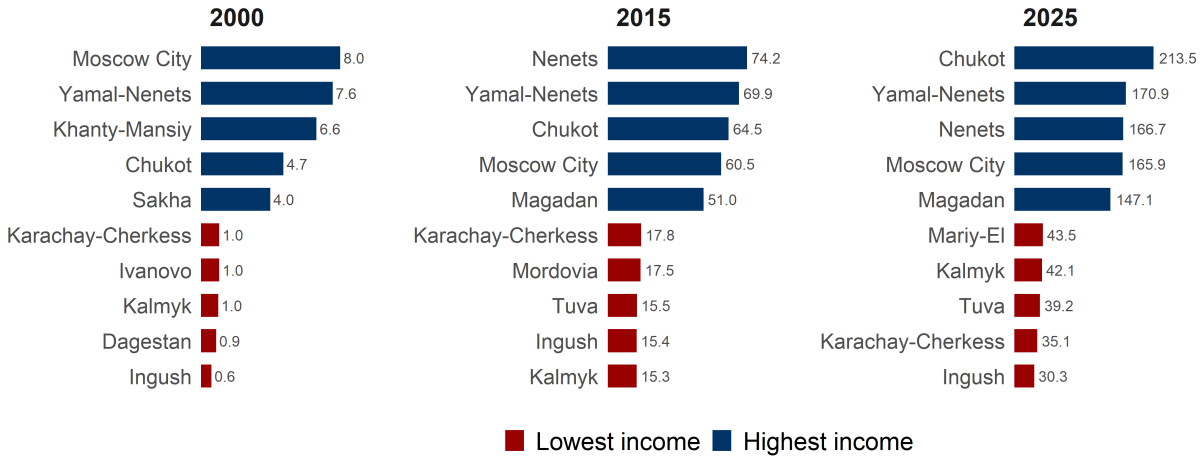
Figure 3 provides examples of regions at the top and bottom of the regional income distribution, while Figure 4 identifies the fastest- and slowest-growing regions over the period.[2] Among the highest-income regions are the oil- and gas-producing autonomous

[1] Zubarevich (2016) shows that fuel-energy regions retained 60–75% of their 1990 output level by 1996, compared with 27–35% in Moscow, Saint Petersburg, and regions specializing in textiles and machinery, and just 16–30% in the weakest-developed republics, which were effectively deindustrialized.

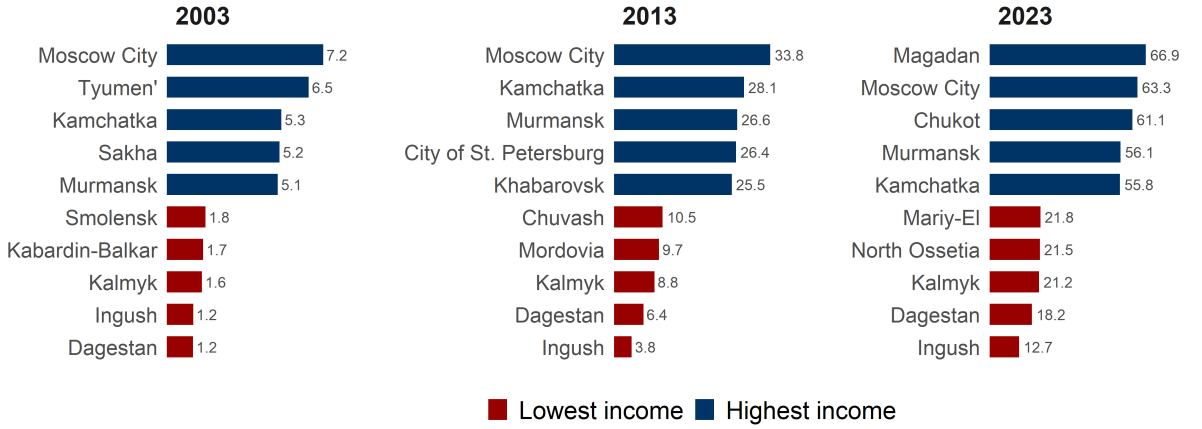
[2] As described in Section 2, in most of the regional analysis we draw on Rosstat's aggregate regional

Figure 3: Russian Regions with the Highest and Lowest Per Capita Income

(a) Rosstat, Nominal Per Capita Income, 2000–2025

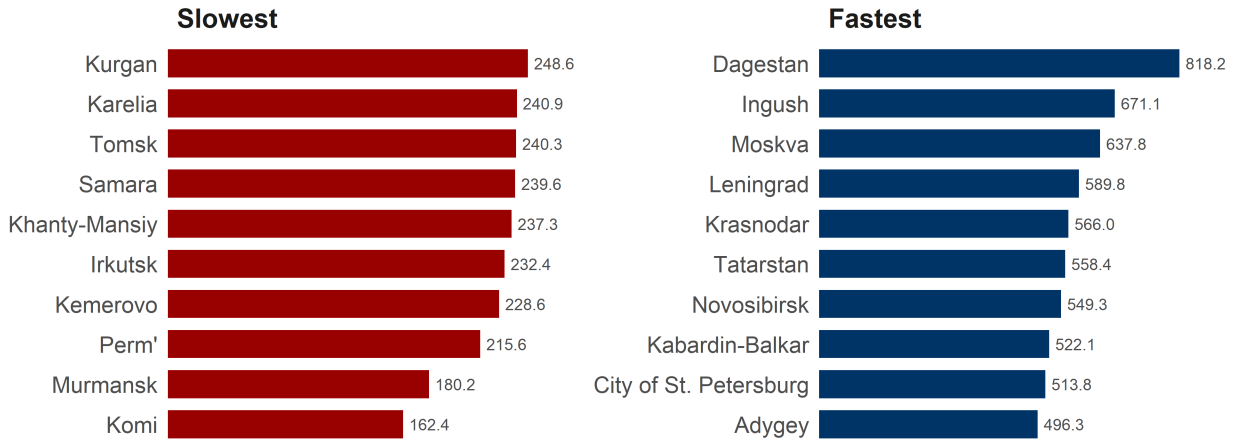


(b) HBS (OBDH), Mean Per Capita Income, 2003–2023



Notes: Panel (a) reports the five regions with the highest and the five with the lowest nominal per capita monetary income from Rosstat (Official Statistics, https://rosstat.gov.ru/folder/10705) in three selected years; Panel (b) reports the corresponding ranking based on weighted mean per capita monetary income from HBS (OBDH) microdata in three selected years. Income is measured in thousand rubles per month. In 2000, 2015, and 2025 \$1 $\approx$ 28, 61, and 84 Russian rubles respectively.

Figure 4: Fastest- and Slowest-Growing Russian Regions in Real Income



Notes: The figure reports the ten fastest- and ten slowest-growing Russian regions by the index of real income, 2000 = 100, chained from Rosstat's region-specific year-on-year real growth rate (Official Statistics, https://rosstat.gov.ru/folder/10705).

okrugs, together with Moscow, whose high income level reflects the concentration of corporate headquarters, financial services, and government administration in the capital. Their composition shifts over the period. Only Yamalo-Nenets, one of Russia's main natural gas extraction regions, Chukotka, a remote region in the Russian Far East with a mining-based economy, and Moscow appear in all three years. Nenets, a sparsely populated Arctic okrug whose economy relies mostly on oil extraction, enters the top five in 2015, while Chukotka rises from fourth place in 2000 to first place by 2025. By contrast, Khanty-Mansi, Russia's largest oil-producing region, ranks third in 2000 but falls out of the top five thereafter. It also appears among the slowest-growing regions in real terms since 2000 (Figure 4), suggesting that at least part of its income advantage was established before 2000 and changed relatively little thereafter. Despite a sustained period of rising global oil prices between 2002 and 2014, Russia's oil-producing regions did not experience higher economic growth than non-oil regions. Although these regions retained the wealth and infrastructure accumulated before 2002, their economic growth improved only modestly. This pattern largely reflects Russia's centralized system of oil taxation. Following major tax reforms in the early 2000s, the federal government captured most of the additional revenue generated by oil production. As a result, oil-producing regions retained their existing capital stock but received little of the new

series restricted to 2000–2025 for reasons of regional data consistency. We complement this series with HBS (OBDH) microdata, available as a regionally representative repeated cross-section from 2003 onward, which provides a useful check on regional income patterns but, given its shorter time span, cannot substitute for the Rosstat series in analyzing long-run regional dynamics.

wealth created by rising commodity prices, limiting opportunities for local reinvestment (Alexeev and Chernyavskiy 2014, 2015).

Among the lowest-income regions are several republics with economies characterized by a large agricultural sector and limited industrial development, including Ingushetia, Kalmykia, Karachay-Cherkessia, and Mari El; Ingushetia and Dagestan also experienced prolonged conflict and subsequent reconstruction in the North Caucasus in 1990s. In the Rosstat ranking, Ingushetia has the lowest income in 2000 and 2025, and is essentially tied with Kalmykia in 2015, and the gap separating it from the highest-income region narrows considerably over the period, from a factor of more than 13 times in 2000 to roughly seven by 2025; in the HBS (OBDH) ranking, Ingushetia is the lowest-income region in 2013 and 2023 and is essentially tied with Dagestan in 2003. At the same time, Figure 4 shows that Ingushetia and Dagestan are among the fastest-growing regions in real terms since 2000, suggesting some catch-up in growth rates even though their income levels remain among the lowest. Other fast-growing examples include regions near largest agglomerations, Moscow and St. Petersburg (Moscow Region and Leningrad Region), as well as regions with a relatively diversified mix of resource, industrial, and agricultural activity (Krasnodar, Tatarstan, and Novosibirsk). Rising income in St. Petersburg also could partly reflect the relocation of the corporate headquarters of Gazprom and Gazpromneft there. This illustrates the argument that regional income growth in Russia reflects both expanding real production and employment but also the location of corporate headquarters and the associated allocation of profits and tax revenues (Zubarevich 2025).

Comparing Panel (a) and Panel (b) in Figure 3 also reveals a difference between the two data sources. The oil- and gas-producing autonomous okrugs that appear among the highest-income regions in the Rosstat ranking are absent from the HBS (OBDH) ranking, while northern regions with long-standing wage premiums, such as Murmansk and Kamchatka, appear instead. This pattern is consistent with the underrepresentation of top incomes in household survey data discussed earlier. In addition, the HBS (OBDH) does not provide separate estimates for the autonomous okrugs that are contained in larger geographic units. Households in the Khanty-Mansi Autonomous Okrug and Yamalo-Nenets Autonomous Okrug are therefore not treated as separate regional sampling domains; instead, they are covered within the broader Tyumen Oblast, while the Nenets Autonomous Okrug is covered within Arkhangelsk Oblast. Consequently, HBS (OBDH) estimates reported for Tyumen and Arkhangelsk oblasts refer to the respective territories as a whole and cannot be used to distinguish the autonomous okrugs from the rest of the region.

Since the rankings above are based on nominal income, they conflate differences in monetary income with differences in the cost of living. Figure A.2.1 in Appendix A.2 reports the corresponding rankings after adjusting for regional price levels, and three patterns stand out. First, the adjustment compresses the geographic distribution of prices: the ratio of the highest-income to the lowest-income region in 2025 falls from roughly seven to around four in the Rosstat data, and from roughly 5.3 to around 3.4 in the HBS (OBDH) data for 2023. For example, measured income is reduced by about a third in Moscow and nearly two-fifths in Chukotka in 2025, while raising it in the low-price southern republics (by 13 to 14% in Ingushetia and Karachay-Cherkessia). Second, it reorders the top of the distribution in the survey data more than in the official series: the Rosstat top five is unchanged in composition for 2025, but in the HBS (OBDH) data two of the five highest-income regions are replaced in each benchmark year—Kamchatka and Sakha by St. Petersburg and Vologda in 2003, Kamchatka and Khabarovsk by Tatarstan and Sverdlovsk in 2013, and Chukotka and Kamchatka by St. Petersburg and Tyumen Oblast in 2023. Much of the apparent income advantage of the most remote Far Eastern and Arctic regions in the survey thus reflects the high cost of living there rather than higher real purchasing power, although Murmansk, and Magadan in 2023, remain among the highest-income regions after price adjustment. Third, at the bottom of the distribution the ranking is largely unchanged: Kalmykia, Dagestan, and Ingushetia are among the five lowest-income regions in all three years under both measures.

We measure interregional inequality using the population-weighted Gini coefficient, following Fedorov (2002)'s approach. The coefficient of variation (CV) is reported as a robustness check in Appendix A, Table A.2.1. Both measures capture dispersion in mean income levels across regions, which is distinct from the share of individual-level income inequality attributable to region, examined separately in Section 4.2 using a Theil-based decomposition of household microdata.

Our baseline calculations use nominal per capita income. Nominal income captures differences in monetary income across regions but does not account for spatial variation in the cost of living. An alternative approach is to deflate regional series to a common base year using region-specific price indices (Fedorov 2002; Solanko 2008). This changes what is measured, from dispersion in monetary income to dispersion in purchasing power. Regional CPIs are also not designed to measure cross-sectional differences in price levels: their consumption weights differ across regions, and different methods of constructing regional price levels can yield different estimates (Yemtsov 2005; Gluschenko 2022, 2023). Nominal income is therefore our baseline measure for tracking interregional monetary inequality over time.

To adjust for regional differences in purchasing power, we separately calculate incomes using Rosstat's regional fixed-basket price index (Section 2), estimated annually for 2003–2025 rather than fixed to a single reference year.[1] This allows us to compare interregional inequality in nominal per capita income with inequality in purchasing-power-adjusted income. Because higher-income Russian regions generally have higher price levels, this means that price-adjusted inequality is lower than nominal inequality throughout the sample.

Figure 5, Panel (a), reports population-weighted Gini coefficients for nominal regional per capita income from Rosstat published statistics and HBS (OBDH) microdata; the corresponding series adjusted for purchasing-power is reported in Appendix A.2, Figure A.2.2. Both series decline through the 2000s and the first half of the 2010s, but their later paths differ: the Rosstat series reaches its minimum in 2015 and rises gradually thereafter, whereas the HBS (OBDH) series reaches its minimum later, in 2017, and recovers only modestly.[2] This differs from the sharp and persistent divergence of the early post-Soviet transition (Fedorov 2002; Yemtsov 2005; Solanko 2008). By 2023, the HBS Gini (0.163) returned to its 2015 level (0.162), so the survey data do not show the renewed rise in interregional dispersion visible in the official series. The HBS (OBDH) Gini lies below the Rosstat Gini in every year, by between 0.02 and 0.09 Gini points, consistent with the differences at the top of the regional distribution noted above; price adjustment lowers it by roughly one-third to two-fifths, as in the Rosstat series. The largest decline in interregional inequality occurred between 2000 and 2008: in the Rosstat series, the Gini coefficient for nominal income fell from 0.304 in 2000, the highest value in our sample, to 0.207 in 2008, while, as Figure A.2.2 shows, the Gini for price-adjusted income fell from 0.202 to 0.135 over the same period.

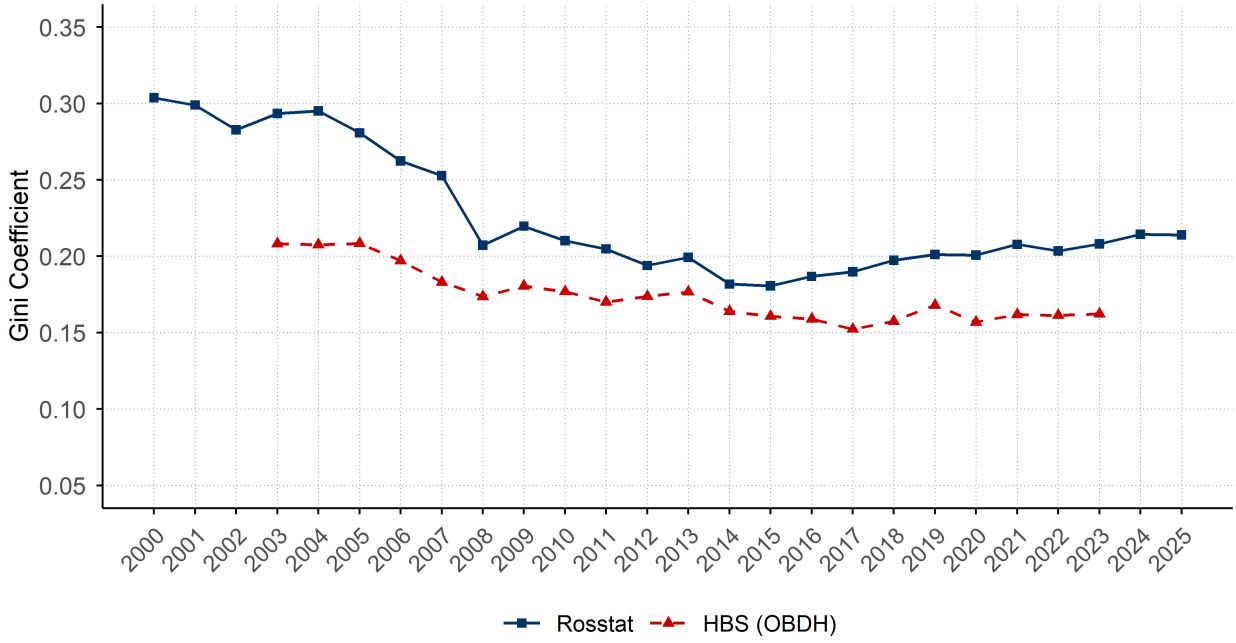
This decline in interregional inequality, as measured by the population-weighted Gini, contrasts with the coefficient of variation reported in Alexeev and Chernyavskiy (2014), which rose from 0.693 in 2002 to 0.729 in 2011, the opposite of the movement in our series over the same interval. Our own CV series (Appendix Table A.2.1), by contrast, tracks the Gini's decline over this period, suggesting the divergence may reflect differ-

[1]The basket comprises 83 goods and services, valued at identical quantities across regions but at region-specific average prices. This differs from the commonly used regional subsistence minimum (Yemtsov 2005; Lisina and Van Kerm 2022), which is a poverty threshold rather than a spatial price index, and from CPI-implied regional price levels. Because the regional fixed-basket price index exhibits relatively limited variation over time, we extend the adjustment to 2000–2002 by applying each region's 2003 index value to its income observations in these earlier years.

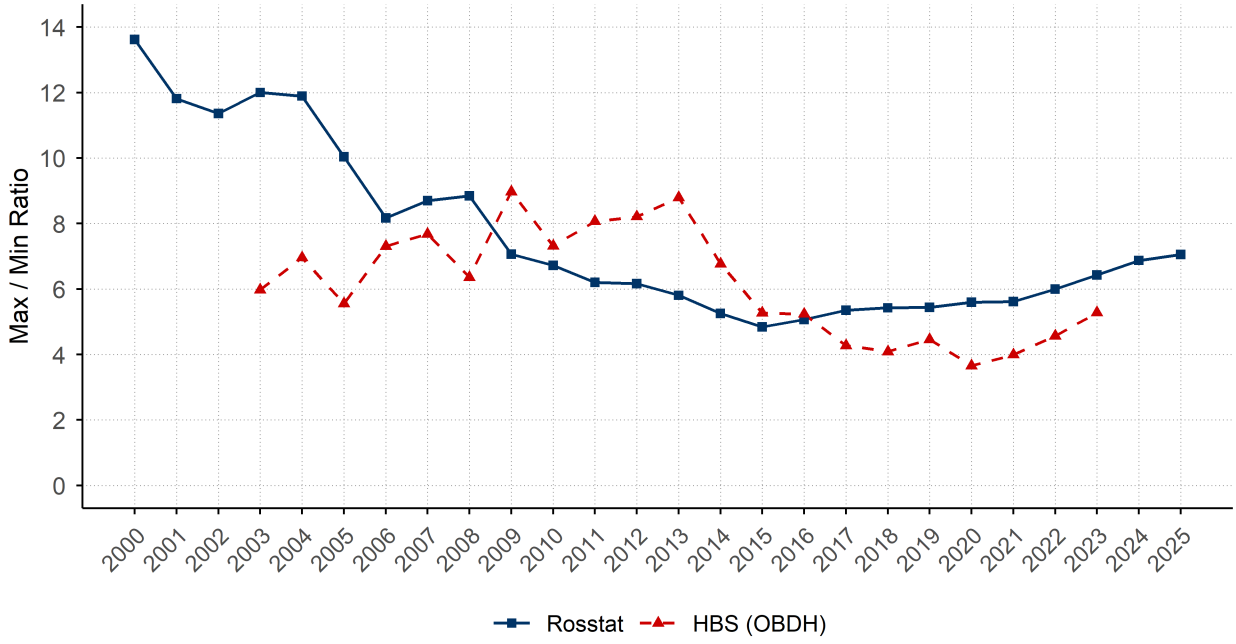
[2]Our results are consistent with Zubarevich and Safronov (2024), who document a decline in population-weighted interregional GRP inequality from the mid-2000s to the 2010s, but stand in contrast to earlier assessments by Alexeev and Chernyavskiy (2014), who characterized Russian interregional income inequality as persistently high and stagnant between 2002 and 2011.

Figure 5: Regional Income Inequality in Russia

(a) Gini Coefficient



(b) Maximum-to-Minimum Ratio



Notes: Panel (a) reports population-weighted Gini coefficients for nominal per capita regional income; panel (b) reports the ratio of per capita income in the highest-income and lowest-income regions. Both panels are calculated from official Rosstat regional statistics (Official Statistics, https://rosstat.gov.ru/folder/10705), 2000–2025, and from Household Budget Survey HBS (OBDH) microdata aggregated to the regional level, 2003–2023. See Figure A.2.2 for the corresponding purchasing-power-adjusted series, and Appendix Table A.2.1 for the coefficient of variation.

ences in weighting or sample construction. In the Rosstat data, regional disparities continued to narrow, more gradually, through 2015, when the nominal and price-adjusted series reached their lowest sample values: 0.181 and 0.112, respectively. This decline coincided with increasing economic growth and increasing household incomes, as well as a reform of intergovernmental fiscal relations designed to equalize transfers across regions,[1] developments that likely contributed to the narrowing of regional disparities inherited from the transition period (Kholodilin et al. 2012; Zubarevich and Safronov 2019).

Equalization was not uniform, however: the 2004 reform that replaced in-kind social benefits with cash payments[2] shifted part of the resulting social-support obligations onto regional budgets, and is documented as having widened the income gap between fiscally stronger and weaker regions even as aggregate interregional dispersion continued to narrow (Zubarevich 2005). After 2015, the Rosstat pattern reversed: the nominal Gini rose gradually to 0.214 by 2025 (the CV shows a similar pattern; Appendix Table A.2.1), while the price-adjusted Gini rose to 0.133 by 2025. The price-adjusted Gini remains roughly one-third to two-fifths below the nominal Gini throughout the period, and this gap is essentially unchanged between 2015 and 2025: the two series rose by a similar proportion (18.5% and 19.6%, respectively), so the rise in regional dispersion since 2015 is not confined to nominal income and does not appear to be primarily a cost-of-living phenomenon. Other factors, including differences in economic structure, institution quality, productivity, resource rents, exposure to external shocks, fiscal capacity, and the regional incidence of government transfers, may also have contributed to the observed pattern (Zubarevich 2016; Gluschenko 2023). Alexeev and Chernyavskiy (2018) provides direct evidence on federal transfers that while transfers during the 2009 crisis were targeted towards regions with the greatest revenue losses, this was not the case in 2014–2015. The decline in own-source revenues in lower-income regions coincided with a sharp increase in interregional inequality in per capita budget expenditures, with the coefficient of variation of expenditures rising from 0.509 in 2009 to 0.868 in 2015. Zubarevich and Safronov (2024), by contrast, finds that the relationship between federal transfers and interregional inequality varies across periods, with transfers appearing to have been equalizing during the crisis years of 2009 and 2020, while no systematic relationship emerges over the full period.

Figure 5, Panel (b), tracks the gap between the richest and poorest regions, comple-

[1] Government of the Russian Federation Resolution No. 584 of 15 August 2001, "On the Program for the Development of Budget Federalism in the Russian Federation through 2005."

[2] Federal Law No. 122-FZ of 22 August 2004, "Law on Monetization".

menting the Gini coefficient reported above. In 2000, the richest region in the Rosstat data had its per capita income more than 13 times that of the poorest region in nominal terms, or roughly 9 times greater once adjusted for purchasing power; in the 2010s and 2020s the ratio ranged between roughly five and seven in nominal terms and between approximately three and four in purchasing-power-adjusted terms, indicating that part of the nominal gap reflects regional price differences rather than differences in real purchasing power. This narrowing pattern is consistent with the decline in the regional Gini coefficient over the same period. The HBS (OBDH) ratio is considerably more volatile, ranging from 3.7 to 9.0 in nominal terms (2.7 to 5.5 in purchasing-power-adjusted terms) over 2003–2023, and shows a visibly different pattern over 2010–2013: while the Rosstat gap continued to narrow, the survey-based ratio widened from 7.3 to 8.8, before falling sharply to 6.8 in 2014. This divergence is concentrated in the extremes of the distribution, whereas the Gini coefficient, which reflects the entire distribution, did not rise between 2010 and 2013 in either series (Figure 5). One possible, though tentative, explanation is the sharpness of the 2008–2009 oil-price collapse and its subsequent recovery through 2011–2012, a short-run shock distinct from the steadier oil-price increases of 2000–2008. A rapid recovery of this kind would be expected to benefit resource-rich regions disproportionately in the short run, temporarily widening the gap between the richest and poorest regions, a movement that household survey data may measure more precisely than Rosstat's smoothed, macro-calibrated aggregate series (Section 4).

The post-2015 rebound in dispersion in the Rosstat series in Figure 5 persists into the wartime years (the HBS series ends in 2023), and direct evidence on this period points to heterogeneous regional exposure to the wartime economy. Using regional tax data, Yushkov and Alexeev (2024) show that oil- and gas-extracting regions, regions with large military-industrial enterprises, and the largest metropolitan areas experienced substantial real revenue gains in 2022–2023, while regions bordering Ukraine and regions specializing in sanctions-exposed industries such as ferrous metallurgy experienced sharp declines. Zubarevich (2025) similarly documents substantial differences across sectors and regions, with the growth in manufacturing concentrated in defense-industrial regions with stagnation or decline in sanctions-exposed sectors, suggesting that wage gains were concentrated in particular regions and occupations rather than broadly distributed across the economy. In contrast, Gorodnichenko et al. (2025) find some convergence in regional wages and incomes and interpret the narrowing dispersion as evidence of "military Keynesianism" generating catch-up, with poorer regions benefiting disproportionately from recruitment payments.

Official regional statistics may also be an imperfect guide to these developments.

Zubarevich (2025) cautions that regional statistics often do not suffice to explain the dynamics and interrelations behind regional indicators, and Barbakadze et al. (2026) question the reliability of wartime official statistics more broadly. Using satellite-derived nighttime lights as a proxy for economic activity, they find a statistically significant overall slowdown across Russian cities, contrasting with the picture conveyed by official statistics, together with substantial geographic heterogeneity: Western and Northwestern Russia, historically more integrated into European trade, experienced significant contractions following sanctions and the loss of European market access, while Southern and Eastern regions showed greater resilience as trade flows shifted toward Central and Southeast Asia. Together with the divergence between the Rosstat and HBS (OBDH) series after 2015, this suggests that the measured pattern of regional dispersion may partly reflect differences in measurement, and that the Rosstat-based rebound should be read with caution.

Taken together, these results suggest that the narrowing of regional income disparities in Russia after 2000 was substantial but not sustained. Interregional dispersion declined sharply through the mid-2010s in both Rosstat's regional statistics (minimum in 2015) and the HBS (OBDH) microdata (minimum in 2017). Over the full period, the lowest-income regions, particularly Dagestan and Ingushetia, experienced among the fastest real income growth, yet remained at the bottom of the regional income distribution. After 2015, dispersion increased again in the Rosstat series, while the HBS (OBDH) series showed only a modest rebound. The increase in dispersion in the Rosstat series is evident in both nominal and purchasing-power-adjusted incomes, suggesting that it cannot be explained primarily by differences in regional cost-of-living dynamics.

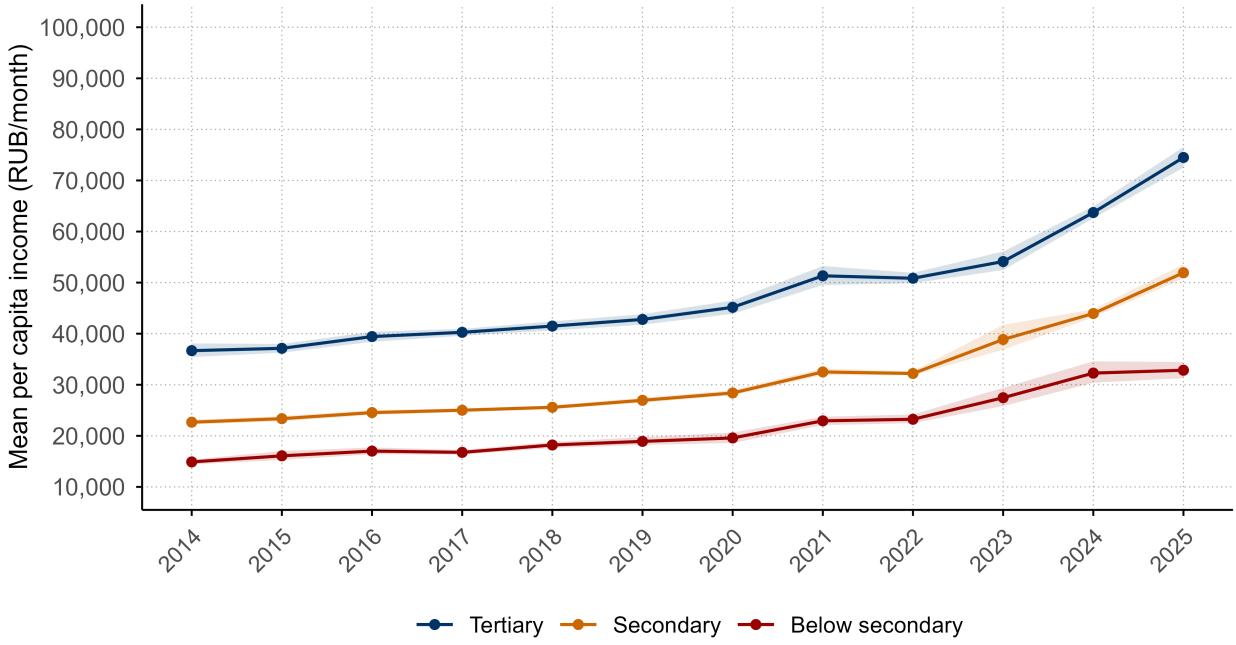
3.3 Heterogeneity in Income Dynamics by Education and Occupation

Regional and settlement-type differences in income are accompanied by substantial heterogeneity across households with different educational and occupational characteristics. We explore these patterns with the PIS (VNDN) microdata, which contains information on household heads' educational attainment and occupation that are not available in the published Rosstat income series.

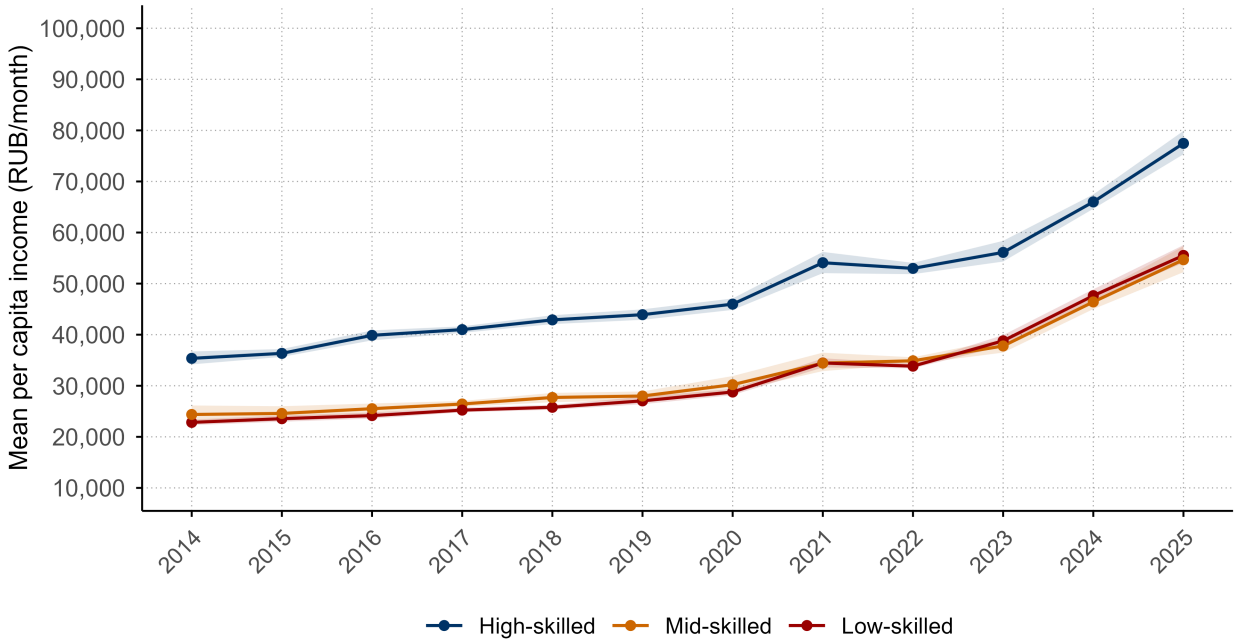
PIS (VNDN) classifies the household head as the household member who contributes the largest share of the household budget in the reference year. Educational attainment and occupation are each reported in eight Rosstat-defined categories. We aggregate these categories into three groups for education and three for occupation. The education groups are tertiary (postgraduate, higher, and incomplete higher education), secondary

Figure 6: Mean Per Capita Income by Education and Occupation Group

(a) Education



(b) Occupation



Notes: Weighted mean per capita income by household head's education (Panel a) and occupation (Panel b), estimated from PIS (VNDN) microdata. Shaded areas denote 95% bootstrap confidence intervals constructed from 1,000 bootstrap replications.

(secondary vocational, primary vocational, and secondary general education), and below secondary (basic general education or less). The occupation groups are high-skilled (managers, professionals, and associate professionals), mid-skilled (clerks and service, trade, and security workers), and low-skilled (skilled agricultural workers and skilled industrial, construction, transport, and machine-operating workers, and unskilled workers). The occupation classification applies only to employed household heads, so the occupation-based series covers a smaller and compositionally different population than the education-based series.

Figure 6 shows a clear income gradient for education and a weaker one for occupation. Mean per capita household income increases monotonically with the household head's educational attainment in every year of the sample. High-skilled households have the highest mean income in every year, but the ordering of mid- and low-skilled households is not stable: mid-skilled households are ahead through 2020, the two are nearly equal in 2021–2022, and from 2023 onward the low-skilled point estimate is slightly higher, with overlapping confidence intervals. In 2014, households headed by individuals with tertiary education had mean per capita income approximately 2.5 times that of households whose head had below-secondary education, while the corresponding ratio between high- and low-skilled occupational groups was approximately 1.5. For all groups, nominal incomes increased between 2014 and 2025, thereby widening the absolute difference between the highest- and lowest-income groups. In contrast, relative income differences followed distinct trajectories. The education gap narrowed from 2.46 in 2014 to 1.97 in 2023, its lowest level in the sample, before widening to 2.27 by 2025, partially reversing this decline. The high-to-low-skilled occupational gap also narrowed, from 1.55 in 2014 to 1.45 in 2023 and 1.39 in 2024, before ticking up slightly to 1.40 in 2025. The broad compression in income differences between education and occupation groups through 2023 was followed by a subsequent divergence: the education gradient widened substantially after 2023, whereas the occupational gradient narrowed only marginally further in 2024 and then stabilized. The narrowing of both gradients reflects the labor-market dynamics described in Section 3.1, where strong demand for labor and persistent shortages accompanied faster earnings growth among lower-paid workers. After 2023, the education gradient widens again, while the high-to-low-skilled occupation gradient among households with an employed head remains roughly stable.

This section has documented four broad dimensions of the evolution of household income in Russia since 1991. Nationally, income dynamics followed distinct phases: severe contraction during the transition, rapid expansion after 2000, prolonged stagnation from 2014 to 2020, and marked acceleration after 2022. This last period was also accom-

panied by a shift in income composition toward wages and property income and away from pensions and social transfers. Against this national backdrop, inter-regional income differences narrowed substantially between 2000 and 2015, reflecting both broad-based economic growth and federal fiscal equalization. This narrowing was not sustained, however: in the Rosstat data, dispersion began to widen after 2015 in both nominal and price-adjusted terms, whereas in the HBS (OBDH) microdata it kept falling until 2017 and then recovered only modestly, remaining close to its 2015 level. The regional pattern was similarly uneven. Several of the poorest regions, including Dagestan and Ingushetia, recorded among the fastest real income growth rates over the full period, while their income levels remained among the lowest. Conversely, several regions that were already relatively affluent in the mid-1990s, particularly resource-exporting autonomous okrugs, experienced comparatively limited subsequent growth. Income differences also persist across household characteristics. Rural households consistently had lower average incomes than urban households. Although the absolute urban–rural difference increased substantially between 2003 and 2023, the relative difference narrowed, with the ratio of urban to rural income declining from a peak of roughly 1.98 in 2004 to about 1.47 in 2022–2023. This narrowing occurred alongside declining within-group inequality in both rural and urban areas, even as rural households remained poorer. Income also differs by education and occupation: throughout 2014–2025, mean per capita income rises with the head's educational attainment and is highest for high-skilled households, while mid- and low-skilled households converge in 2021–2022 and the low-skilled point estimate exceeds the mid-skilled one from 2023 onward. These two gradients, however, evolved differently after 2022. The education-based differential narrowed through 2023 before widening again through 2025, partially reversing this decline, whereas the high-to-low-skilled occupation-based differential narrowed through 2024 before roughly stabilizing in 2025. Taken together, these patterns characterize differences in income *levels* across regions and population groups. The next section shifts from these level differences to the *distribution* of income and examines how inequality within and across these dimensions has evolved over time.

4 Income Inequality

This section documents income inequality in Russia from several complementary angles. We begin with quintile income shares and the Fund coefficient, alongside the real income levels underlying them. We then turn to the Gini coefficient, tracing its evolution over the full post-Soviet period and comparing it with estimates from international

databases, the broader empirical literature, and our own calculations based on several household surveys. We then examine how inequality varies across regions and across groups defined by the household head's education and occupation. We conclude with a decomposition of inequality by household characteristics and income source.

4.1 National-level Income Inequality Dynamics

4.1.1 Official and International Estimates

Two official Rosstat series illustrate the distinction between relative and absolute outcomes: income shares by population quintile, which trace the distribution of monetary income since the late Soviet period (Figure 7), and real, inflation-adjusted income by quintile group, which captures changes in purchasing power across the distribution (Figure 8). The distinction matters because stable income shares imply similar proportional income growth across groups, whereas gaps in index points relative to 1991 largely reflect the initial redistribution.

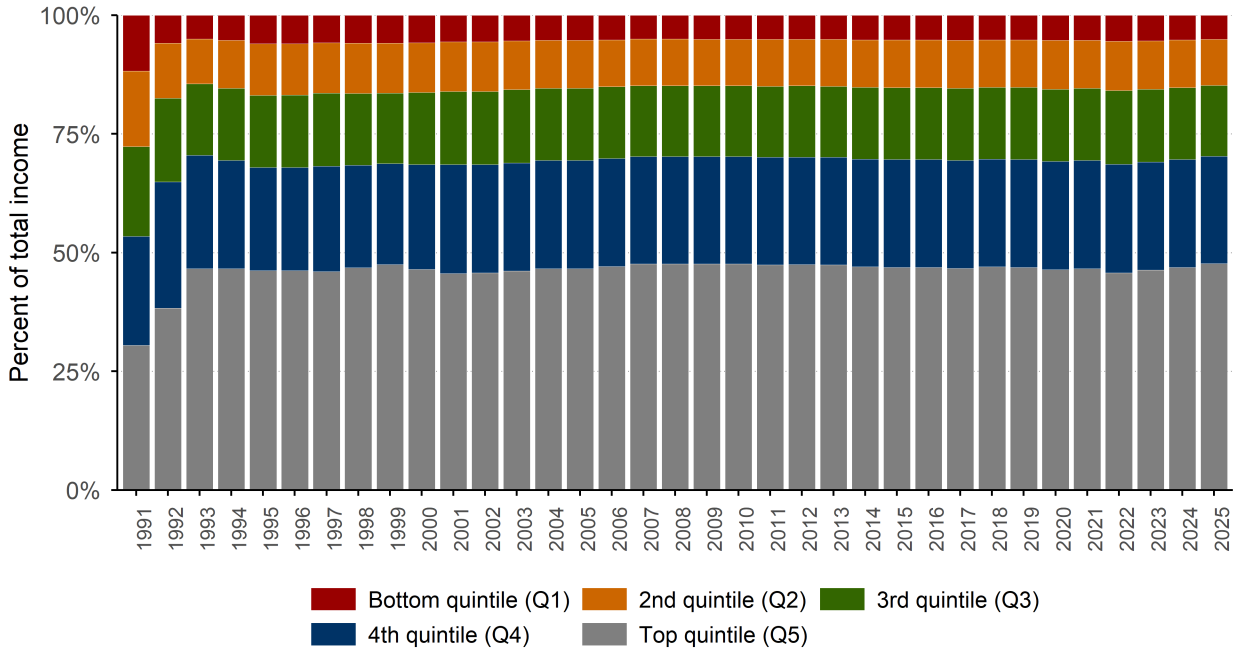
The most pronounced redistribution occurred during the transition to a market economy, and both measures in Figure 7 capture this shift clearly. Between 1991 and 1993, the income share of the poorest quintile fell from 11.9% to 5.1%, while that of the second quintile declined from 15.8% to 9.4%. Over the same period, the share received by the richest 20% rose from 30.7% to 46.8%, reflecting the rapid widening of income disparities following price liberalization and economic restructuring (Panel (a)). The Fund coefficient[1], defined as the ratio of the average income of the richest decile to that of the poorest decile (and distinct from the d_9/d_1 decile ratio), rose from 4.5 in 1991 to 13.5 in 1993 and reached a first peak of 15.2 in 1994 (Panel (b)). After this initial shock, the quintile distribution in Panel (a) changed comparatively little. Since 1993, the top quintile's share has remained within a narrow range of roughly 45.5–47.8%. The Fund coefficient in Panel (b), by contrast, continued to vary substantially. It fell to 13.3 in 1996 and stayed between about 13.3 and 14.1 through 2000, before rising steadily during the 2000s to a second, higher peak of 16.7 in 2007, where it remained through 2010. It gradually declined for over a decade, reaching a low of 14.0 in 2022, the same year in which the top quintile's share reached its own low point, before rising sharply to 16.0 by 2025.

Turning from income shares to real income levels by quintile group, purchasing power fell sharply across all income groups during the 1990s and recovered only gradually thereafter (Figure 8). Because each quintile's index equals the aggregate index scaled by that quintile's current income share relative to its 1991 share, the differences in in-

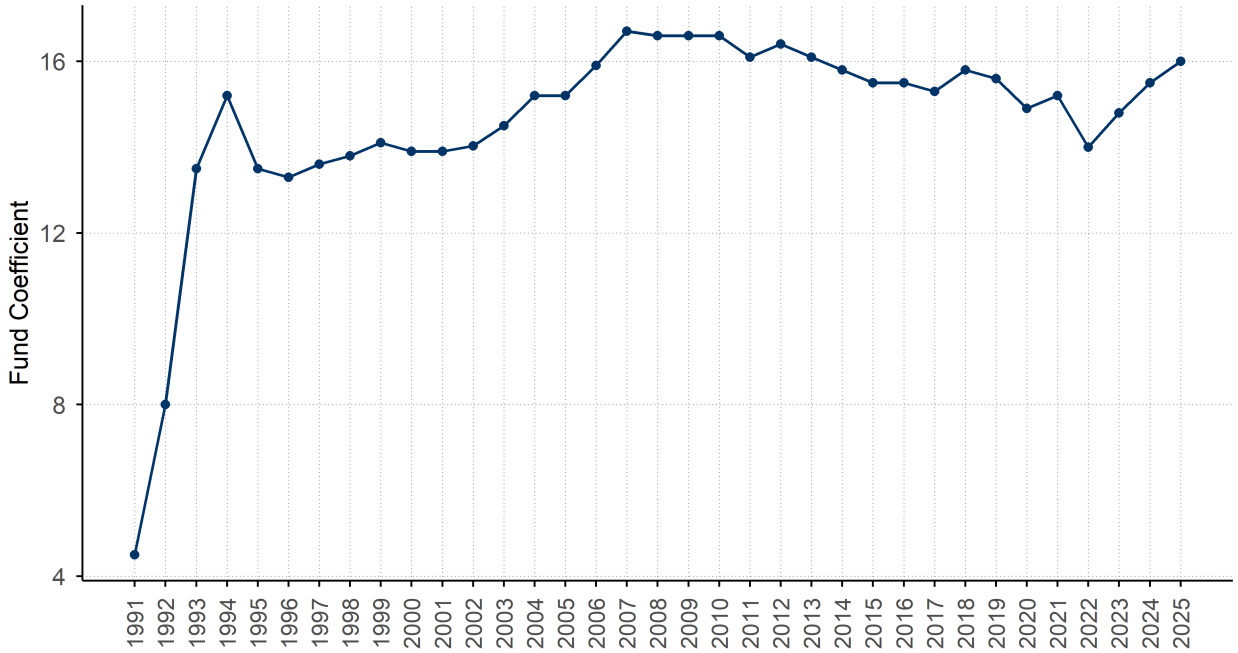
[1]The "Fund coefficient" is Rosstat's own term used to define this inequality indicator.

Figure 7: Income Shares by Population Quintile and the Fund Coefficient in Russia

(a) Income Shares by Population Quintile

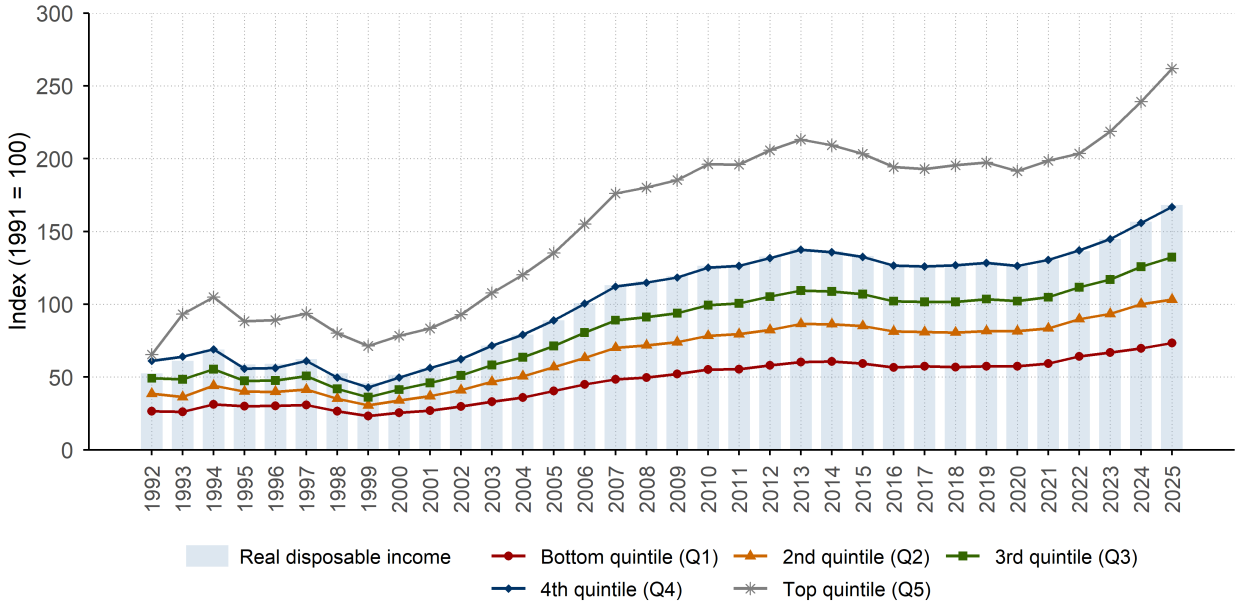


(b) Fund Coefficient (Ratio of Average Incomes, Top to Bottom Decile)



Notes: Panel (a) reports the share of total household monetary income received by each population quintile, based on official Rosstat estimates; Q1 denotes the bottom 20% of the distribution (lowest incomes) and Q5 the top 20% (highest incomes). Panel (b) reports the Fund coefficient, the ratio of average monetary income of the richest 10% of the population to that of the poorest 10%. See Figure 8 for the corresponding real, indexed income series by quintile group.

Figure 8: Real Disposable Income and Income Quintile Groups in Russia



Notes: The figure plots real disposable monetary income per capita (bars, shaded) and the average real income of each quintile group (lines), all indexed to 1991 = 100. Quintile groups are constructed annually by Rosstat from the distribution of per capita monetary household income.

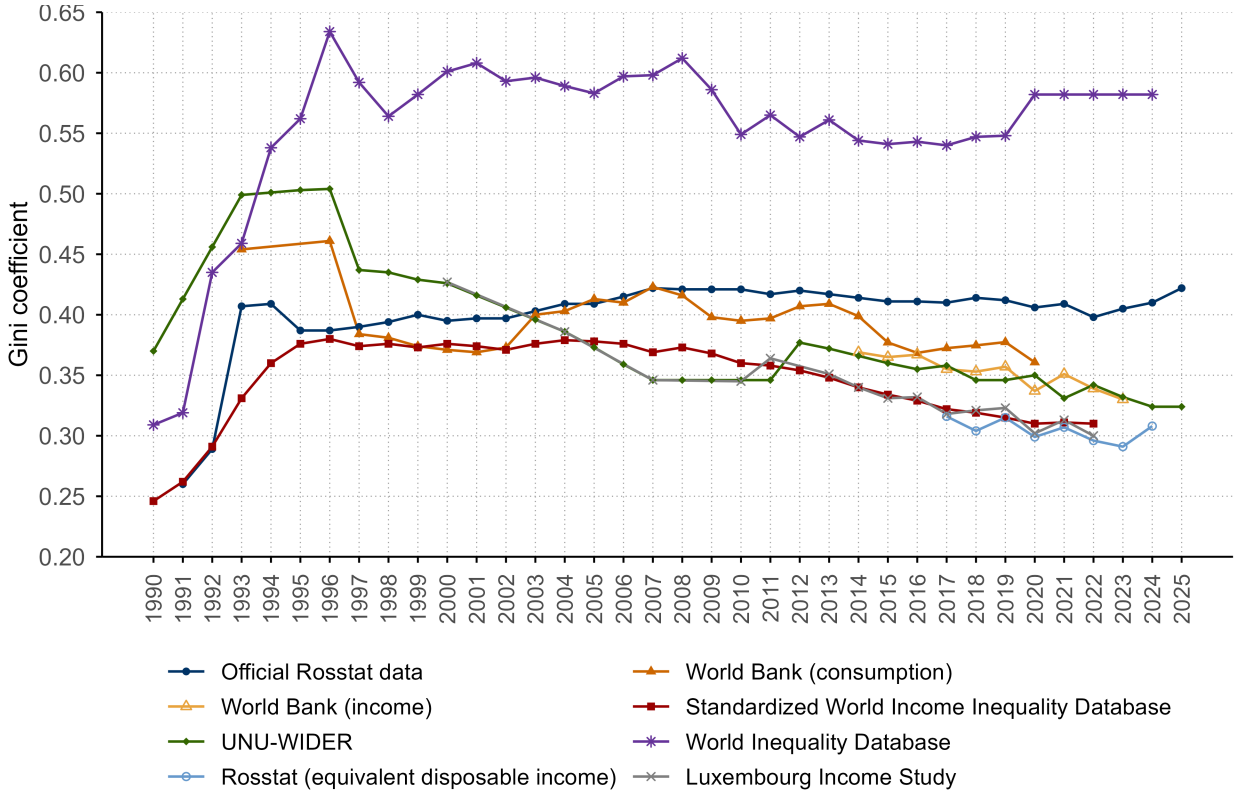
dex levels across groups largely carry forward the redistribution of 1991–1993 (Figure 7); with quintile shares changing little afterward, proportional growth was broadly similar across groups. Relative to 1991, however, outcomes differ widely: as of 2025, the bottom quintile remained below its 1991 real income level, the second quintile had only recently regained its late-Soviet purchasing power, and the top quintile had more than doubled its 1991 real income.

Estimates of income inequality in Russia vary substantially across data sources and methodological approaches. Rosstat's primary series, whose construction is described in Section 2, is based on per capita monetary income rather than the equivalized disposable-income concept commonly used in international inequality databases. Rosstat also reports Gini coefficients based on equivalized disposable, market, primary, and gross income, and in 2026 it added a sixth index, based on post-tax income adjusted for regional price differences, for the Unified Plan of national development goals. The 2024 national development targets were a Gini coefficient of 0.37 by 2030 and 0.33 by 2036.[1] For 2025, the new price-adjusted measure yields a Gini of 0.375, compared with 0.422 under the traditional methodology; the two series differ in income concept, so the gap between

[1]Decree No. 309 of 7 May 2024 "On the National Development Goals of the Russian Federation for the Period up to 2030 and for the Future up to 2036", available at: http://www.kremlin.ru/acts/bank/50542.

them should not be read as a change in inequality. Nevertheless, the Rosstat series remains the single consistent source for analyzing the long-term evolution of the Russian income distribution, and so we employ it in our analysis.

Figure 9: Income Inequality in Russia 1990-2025: Official and International Estimates



Notes: The figure reports Gini coefficients for Russia from Rosstat (traditional per capita monetary income, and equivalized disposable income from 2017), the World Bank (consumption- and income-based series), and other international databases (Luxembourg Income Study, Standardized World Income Inequality Database, UNU-WIDER, and the World Inequality Database). Income concepts and equivalence scales differ across series. Some series repeat identical values in consecutive years (WIID in 2007–2011 and 2024–2025; WID in 2020–2024). Rosstat's new Unified Plan Gini (0.375 for 2025) is not plotted, and no 2025 value of the equivalized series is available. See Appendix B.1 for full numerical results.

Among the various measures of inequality, the Gini coefficient is the most widely reported summary indicator and the one most commonly used for cross-country comparisons. Figure 9 shows its evolution in Russia according to Rosstat (blue line) alongside estimates from the World Bank and other international databases. Although the levels are not strictly comparable because the series differ in welfare concepts, survey methodology,[1] equivalence scales, and adjustment procedures, they broadly agree on a sharp

[1]This is particularly important for Russia, where household surveys have undergone substantial methodological changes and where official estimates combine survey information with macroeconomic aggregates.

increase in inequality during the early transition but diverge substantially thereafter.

According to the official Rosstat series, income inequality rose sharply during the market transition of the early 1990s, with the Gini coefficient increasing from 0.260 in 1991 to 0.409 in 1994. This rise is consistent with other evidence of a sharp increase in inequality during the initial phase of transition across the post-Soviet region (Milanovic 1999; Flemming and Micklewright 2000). These early estimates should be interpreted with caution since the underlying household survey (HBS) underwent substantial changes in sampling, questionnaire design, and income concepts between 1989 and 1996, making year-to-year comparisons over this period imperfect (Yemtsov 2008). The distribution then stabilized. Between 1995 and 1998, the Gini coefficient fluctuated around 0.387–0.394, even as the economy remained affected by wage arrears, weak labor-market institutions, and the 1998 financial crisis (Lehmann et al. 1999; Earle and Sabirianova 2002; Gerry et al. 2004). This pattern suggests that the most dramatic redistribution associated with the transition had already occurred by the mid-1990s.

Inequality resumed its upward trend during the recovery of the 2000s, when the Gini coefficient increased from 0.395 in 2000 to its post-Soviet peak of 0.422 in 2007. This was the period of rapid economic growth (Section 3), during which a steady decline in official poverty rates accompanied real disposable income and pension growth that substantially outpaced GDP growth. Although incomes increased across the entire distribution, higher-income households benefited disproportionately: real income for the top quintile grew by roughly 111% between 2001 and 2007, compared with a roughly 102% increase in the population-wide average (Figure 8), consistent with the expansion of market opportunities, rising returns to capital and skilled labor, and the favorable external environment associated with high commodity prices. The decade also began with a fundamental change in personal income taxation: from 1 January 2001, a flat rate of 13% replaced the previous progressive personal income tax schedule for most types of income.[1] The reform was motivated primarily by the aim of reducing tax evasion and widening the reported tax base, not by distributional objectives but naturally had inequality consequences.

The global financial crisis of 2008 ended this decade of expansion, but its effect on the overall structure of inequality proved surprisingly limited. The Gini coefficient remained remarkably stable over the following decade, fluctuating within a narrow range of approximately 0.41–0.42 through 2019, despite the 2014 recession and the introduction

[1]Federal Law No. 117-FZ of 5 August 2000, "Tax Code of the Russian Federation, Part Two" (Chapter 23, "Personal Income Tax"), brought into force by Federal Law No. 118-FZ of 5 August 2000, both effective 1 January 2001.

of international sanctions. The relative position of income groups changed little across these repeated shocks. This stability gave way in 2020–2022 to the largest decline in measured inequality since 1995. The Gini coefficient fell from 0.412 in 2019 to 0.398 in 2022 (with a temporary rise to 0.409 in 2021), its lowest value since 2002. The decline coincided with an expansion of social transfers, whose share of household income reached 21.4% in 2020 (Figure 2), which may have raised incomes toward the lower end of the distribution; however, the aggregate data do not allow us to separate this from other changes in the composition of income, such as movements in market income. From 2022 onward, two forces may have worked in opposite directions. Military pay (labor income) and compensation payments (transfers) to eligible households may have reduced inequality, while labor shortages associated with mobilization and strong demand for workers contributed to rapid wage growth, which may have widened it.[1]

Equalization therefore proved to be temporary. The Gini coefficient began to rise again in 2023, reaching approximately 0.405 in that year and 0.410 in 2024, before climbing to 0.422 by 2025, matching its published 2007 value and marking the largest annual increase since the global financial crisis. This reversal coincided with increasingly divergent income dynamics across the distribution. Social transfers grew little relative to inflation, with their share of household income falling to 16.3% by 2025 (Figure 2), while income growth was faster among higher-income groups in a period of accelerated wage growth, which sharply outpaced pension growth (Figure 1, Panel (b)) and further widened the gap between the top quintile and the population-wide average (Figure 8). In 2025 the government also introduced the first major departure from the flat personal income tax system in more than two decades. Starting on 1 January 2025, a five-bracket progressive schedule replaced the previous flat and near-flat rates, with marginal tax rates rising from 13% on annual income up to 2.4 million rubles to 22% on income above 50 million rubles.[2]

Figure 9 compares Gini coefficients across alternative databases. The World Bank[3] Ginis are generally below the Rosstat series and display considerably greater year-to-year variation, even though the World Bank estimates inequality using official Rosstat micro data. The difference in Gini values reflects differences in methodology: Rosstat ap-

[1] See Rudenko and Satre (2026) for a detailed analysis.

[2] Federal Law No. 176-FZ of 12 July 2024, "On Amendments to Parts One and Two of the Tax Code of the Russian Federation, Certain Legislative Acts of the Russian Federation, and the Invalidation of Certain Provisions of Legislative Acts of the Russian Federation." The five brackets are 13% up to 2.4 million rubles of annual income, 15% from 2.4 to 5 million, 18% from 5 to 20 million, 20% from 20 to 50 million, and 22% above 50 million rubles, with each higher rate applying only to the portion of income exceeding the relevant threshold.

[3] World Bank, available at: https://pip.worldbank.org/poverty-calculator.

proximates the income distribution using a lognormal model, whereas the World Bank estimates the Gini directly from the data. The figure also highlights a difference in the welfare concept used: the World Bank series is based on consumption for the earlier period and on income from 2020 onward. This distinction matters because income inequality is generally higher than consumption inequality, and the World Bank explicitly notes that the choice between income and consumption depends on the availability and quality of household survey data.

The gap is even wider when equivalized disposable income is considered. The Luxembourg Income Study (LIS) reports the largest decline in inequality, with the Gini coefficient falling from 0.427 in 2000 to 0.299 in 2020.[1] This sharp decline should be interpreted with caution, as LIS estimates for Russia rely on different microdata sources: the RLMS-HSE survey for 2000–2010 and the Rosstat PIS (VNDN) from 2011 onward.[2] More importantly, LIS applies an equivalence scale that adjusts income by the square root of household size to account for economies of scale in consumption. This adjustment yields substantially lower Gini coefficients than those reported by Rosstat and the World Bank for the same year. Thus, differences in methodology, particularly the use of an equivalence scale, can lead to very different estimates of income inequality in Russia.

The World Inequality Database[3] substantially differs from survey-based approaches because it combines household surveys, national accounts, personal income tax records, wealth registry data, and billionaire rankings within a unified distributional national accounts (DNA) framework (Novokmet et al. 2018b). For Russia, WID estimates Russia's Gini coefficient for pretax national income at 0.582 in 2024, comparable to the US estimate of 0.587 and substantially higher than estimates for other post-communist economies, such as Czechia (0.38) and Hungary (0.43). These estimates suggest substantially greater top-income concentration than reflected in official statistics, owing both to the underrepresentation of wealthy households in surveys and to the offshore location of a significant share of Russian capital income.

The Standardized World Income Inequality Database (SWIID)[4] takes a model-based approach. It uses LIS as its benchmark and applies a multiple-imputation procedure to convert Gini estimates from other sources into LIS-comparable disposable- and market-income Ginis (Solt 2020). For Russia, the disposable-income series rises from about 0.25 in 1990 to a peak of about 0.38 in 1996 and then remains in a narrow band of roughly 0.37–0.38 until the mid 2000s. It declines gradually from about 2007, reaching roughly

[1] LIS, available at: https://comparability.lisdatacenter.org/shiny/comparability/.
[2] The change in survey source introduces an additional comparability issue.
[3] WID, available at: https://wid.world/data/.
[4] SWIID is available at: https://fsolt.org/swiid/.

0.31 by 2020 and staying there through 2022, the last year available. SWIID lies below the Rosstat series in every year since 1993, by about 0.02 in 2000 and about 0.09 in 2022, so it shows a long-run decline in inequality where Rosstat shows none. It tracks LIS closely from the mid-2000s onward (within roughly 0.01–0.02), as expected given that LIS is its benchmark, but it is 0.02–0.05 below LIS in 2000–2003 and falls more smoothly afterward.

Another widely used source is the UNU-WIDER World Income Inequality Database (WIID). The series shown here uses the WIID Companion dataset, which applies a range of standardizations to the compiled observations to construct more comparable country-level series over time.[1] Unlike LIS, which directly harmonizes the underlying household-survey microdata, the WIID Companion selects and adjusts Gini estimates taken from national statistical offices, academic studies, and other databases, not the original microdata. As a result, the underlying observations for a given country may differ across years in income concepts, survey instruments, and equivalence scales, while coverage depends on the availability of estimates from the original sources. For Russia, the resulting series is therefore considerably more uneven than Rosstat's continuous annual series. It reports a Gini coefficient of 0.413 in 1991, rising to a peak of 0.504 in 1996, then falling abruptly to 0.437 in 1997 and to 0.346 by 2007, a value that is repeated through 2011 and appears to reflect a single observation carried across years. After a rise to 0.377 in 2012, it declines to 0.37 in 2013 and 0.32 in 2024–2025, again an identical value in the last two years. The series is close to LIS through 2010 but exceeds it by roughly 0.02–0.05 in 2014–2022. Its broad pattern, an early-transition rise followed by a decline, is consistent with SWIID, LIS, and the World Bank series, but not with WID, which remains far above the others after the transition. At the same time, the Russian series illustrates a general limitation of compiled databases: consistency over time depends on the availability, comparability, and quality of the underlying estimates available for each country-year.

4.1.2 Evidence from Micro Data

The literature on income inequality in Russia has evolved from early attempts to measure cross-sectional inequality in the Soviet economy, which were constrained by limited publicly available data and relied primarily on government-published statistics, to increasingly sophisticated analyses of post-transition dynamics based on household surveys, administrative records, and distributional national accounts. As data availability expanded, researchers have come to employ an increasingly diverse set of data sources,

[1] UNU-WIDER, World Income Inequality Database (WIID) Companion dataset, available at: https://www.wider.unu.edu/database/world-income-inequality-database-wiid.

statistical methods, and estimation techniques. Despite these major improvements, estimates continue to vary substantially depending on the underlying data source, the definition of income or consumption, the treatment of top incomes, and the assumptions used to model the income distribution. These methodological choices account for much of the variation in reported inequality estimates presented in Table 1. In what follows, we review the empirical estimates in the existing literature and the methodologies used to construct them.

For most of the Soviet period, the government did not make data on the income distribution publicly available. The state statistical agency, Goskomstat (now the Federal State Statistics Service, FSSS, or Rosstat), released official retrospective data for the first time only in 1988 (Atkinson and Micklewright 1992). Researchers therefore had no access to underlying microdata and relied instead on official aggregate statistics, particularly those derived from the Family Budget Survey (FBS), which is known to systematically underrepresent the unemployed, private-sector activity, and informal income (Lokshin and Yemtsov 2013). Given these limitations, researchers turned to alternative sources and methods, including surveys of Soviet emigrants (Vinokur and Ofer 1987), single-city case studies (Gustafsson and Nivorozhkina 1998, 2004), and statistical models fitted to published income distribution data tabulated by income brackets (Alexeev and Gaddy 1993).

The post-Soviet transition marked an important turning point in inequality measurement. Researchers increasingly moved away from Goskomstat's official tabulated data and toward newly available nationally representative microdata, most notably the Russian Longitudinal Monitoring Survey (RLMS-HSE). RLMS-HSE opened a new era in the study of income inequality in Russia. Following individual households and collecting detailed information across a wide range of socioeconomic characteristics, this survey allowed researchers to move beyond descriptive inequality measures and examine the mechanisms underlying inequality more directly. This included decompositions of the Gini and Theil indices (Commander et al. 1999; Milanovic 1999; Lisina and Van Kerm 2022), as well as analyses of income mobility (Jovanovic 2001; Lukiyanova and Oshchepkov 2012; Dang et al. 2020), questions that could not be addressed using official income-bracket tabulations (Doyle 1996; Flemming and Micklewright 2000; Lokshin and Yemtsov 2013). RLMS-HSE remains the only long-running household panel survey available for Russia, although it has its own well-documented limitations, including panel attrition, increasing nonresponse among wealthy households, and the underreporting of informal income.

The post-2000 decline is not unanimous, and explanations differ. Denisova (2012);

Nissanov and Pittau (2016) find no clear downward trend before 2008, with inequality fluctuating within a narrow range. Among studies that identify a decline, some attribute it to structural changes in the labor market (Calvo et al. 2015; Lukiyanova 2015) or pro-poor income growth (Lukiyanova and Oshchepkov 2012; Dang et al. 2020; Abanokova and Dang 2023), whereas others argue that it reflects lower volatility of transitory income shocks rather than a change in the distribution of permanent income (Gorodnichenko et al. 2010; Bryukhanov and Hryshko 2024).

Given the difficulty of capturing top incomes in household surveys, one strand of the literature on Russia has modeled the income distribution parametrically. This literature sought to improve on Rosstat's own approach by fitting alternative models to the official tabulated income data, HBS (OBDH) data, and macroeconomic aggregates. Lognormal distributions, Pareto distributions for the upper tail, and hybrid lognormal–Pareto specifications became common tools for estimating income inequality (Fedorenko and Rimashevskaya 1986; Velikanova et al. 1996; Suvorov and Ul'ianova 1997; Suvorov 2001; Kolmakov 2006, 2015; Butaeva 2016; Migranova and Zharomsky 2020), and mixtures of lognormal distributions were used to capture heterogeneity in income-generating processes and unobserved earnings (Aivazyan 1997; Aivazian and Kolenikov 2001). Recent applications to HBS (OBDH) data employ more flexible specifications, including the four-parameter Generalized Beta distribution of the second kind (GB2) and Pareto tail estimators (Ibragimov and Ibragimov 2018; Nartikoev and Peresetsky 2019). This literature is primarily concerned with how alternative distributional assumptions affect measured inequality, but its recurring reliance on upper-tail modeling also partly reflects the broader challenges of measuring income through household surveys noted earlier.

A second strand avoids imposing a distributional form, relying on kernel density estimation combined with survey reweighting (Shevyakov and Kiruta 2001, 2002) and on weighting procedures based on macroeconomic income aggregates (Suvorov 2008). Nonparametric methods now dominate empirical work (Table 1), a shift made possible by advances in nonparametric statistics and increases in the computing power needed to apply these methods to large datasets.

The underrepresentation of top incomes in household surveys has itself become an important focus of research. Standard household surveys systematically fail to measure the wealthiest households because of nonresponse, tax avoidance, and the concentration of assets in offshore accounts, potentially resulting in downward-biased estimates of inequality at the top (Novokmet et al. 2018a). Novokmet et al. (2018b) address this problem by combining survey data, tax records, national accounts, and billionaire wealth data within the Distributional National Accounts (DINA) framework. This work finds that

survey-based measures substantially understate inequality in Russia and that Russia's top income shares place it among the most unequal countries in the world. Kapeliushnikov (2020), however, raises several methodological concerns about this evidence. First, he points out that the DINA approach combines several distinct data sources, each defined over a different unit of observation (households, individuals, and taxpayers) and constructed under different definitions and assumptions. Second, Rosstat's model-based estimates are treated in this process as though they were direct survey observations. Third, as a result, the estimates are highly sensitive to the assumptions used to reconcile the underlying sources, and these assumptions tend to push measured inequality upward. More generally, the approach departs substantially from the more conventional logic of a survey-based inequality estimate. These concerns do not deny that household surveys miss part of the top of the distribution, but they imply that the gap between DINA and survey-based estimates is not a pure measure of survey undercoverage.

Similar disagreements surround more targeted corrections for the top income tail. Dang et al. (2020) apply Pareto Type I adjustments to the upper tail of the RLMS income distribution and find that, although the corrected Gini coefficients are higher in level, the downward trend in inequality over time remains robust. By contrast, Kuzin and Surinov (2025) find that correcting survey data using tax records meaningfully affects fewer than two percent of top earners. They interpret this as suggesting that Rosstat's higher official estimates owe more to its estimation methodology than to underreporting among sampled respondents. Together, these studies suggest that a central methodological debate in the literature has shifted from estimating overall levels of inequality to determining how best to measure inequality at the top of the distribution.

Taken together, the literature does not converge on a single estimate of inequality. Reported inequality varies systematically with the data source and methodology used. Studies based on RLMS-HSE microdata generally report lower inequality than analyses based on official statistics, while approaches that incorporate tax and wealth records tend to produce substantially higher estimates. Expenditure-based measures typically show lower and more stable inequality than income-based measures, in part because expenditure smooths temporary income fluctuations and may be less affected by underreporting of certain types of income. Results also vary depending on whether researchers adjust for regional price differences, use equivalence scales, account for home production, or attempt to capture informal income. These choices are particularly consequential in the context of Russia's transition, which was accompanied by large and rapid changes in income sources and living standards.

Table 1: Selected Studies on Income Inequality in USSR and Russia

No	Authors	Data	Welfare indicator	Distribution Assumption	Main Findings
1	Vinokur and Ofer (1987)	Israeli Immigration Project (ISIP) 1973 and Soviet Interview Project (SIP) 1979	Per capita income, gross monthly wages per earner, wealth	None (nonparametric); empirical distribution	Gini for income—0.382 (1979), Gini for wage rose from 0.291 to 0.304, Gini for wealth declined from 0.77 to 0.61
2	Atkinson and Micklewright (1992)	USSR Family Budget Survey (FBS) and March Household Survey 1980–1989, March Census 1968–1989	Per capita income, gross monthly earnings	None (nonparametric)	Gini for income rose from 0.245 to 0.289, Gini for earnings—from 0.262 to 0.272
3	Alexeev and Gaddy (1993)	Goskomstat 1980–1990	Per capita income	Three-parameter displaced lognormal distribution fitted to grouped censored data via minimum KS estimator	Gini declined from 0.29 to 0.281
4	Doyle (1996)	Goskomstat 1980–1992	Per capita real income (1990 prrices)	Pareto distribution imposed on upper open tail and all internal intervals; lower bound set from Alexeev and Gaddy (1993) and Russian Economic Trends	Gini rose from 0.245 to 0.322
5	Gustafsson and Nivorozhkina (1998)	Taganrog 3 household survey 1989, Taganrog 4 survey 2000	Per capita and equiv. (OECD) disposable income	None (nonparametric); Gini computed directly from microdata	Gini for per capita income rose from 0.235 to 0.356, Gini for equivalent income—from 0.220 to 0.346
6	Milanovic (1998)	FBS 1988 and RLMS 1993	Per capita disposable income	None (nonparametric); Gini computed directly from microdata (RLMS) or from grouped FBS decile data	Gini rose from 0.238 to 0.480
7	Milanovic (1999)	FBS 1989, RLMS 1992–1996	Per capita disposable income	None (nonparametric); Gini computed directly from microdata (RLMS) or from grouped FBS decile data	Gini rose from 0.219 to 0.518
8	Commander et al. (1999)	RLMS 1992–1996	Per capita, equiv. (0.25; 0.5; 0.75) and total real income (deflated by regional CPIs)	None (nonparametric); Gini computed directly from microdata;	Gini for per capita income rose from 0.43 to 0.48, Gini for household income—from 0.48 to 0.51

Continued on next page

Table 1 – continued

No	Authors	Data	Welfare indicator	Distribution Assumption	Main Findings
9	Flemming and Micklewright (2000)	FBS, RLMS and comparative sources 1989–1997	Per capita income	Pareto interpolation within intervals and for top open interval (following Atkinson and Micklewright (1992))	Gini rose from 0.265 to 0.375
10	Jovanovic (2001)	RLMS 1994–1998	Equiv. (0.75) adult real expenditure (deflated by the national CPI)	None (nonparametric)	Gini remained at 0.47–0.48
11	Kislitsyna (2003, 2005)	RLMS 1992–2000	Equiv. (OECD) income	None (nonparametric)	Gini rose from 0.43 to 0.47
12	Gorodnichenko et al. (2010)	RLMS 1994–2005	Equiv. (OECD) disposable income and non-durable expenditures; Individual labor earning (deflated by the national CPI)	None (nonparametric)	Gini for income declined from 0.415 to 0.38, Gini for expenditure—from 0.42 to 0.395, Gini for earnings—from 0.49 to 0.42
13	Lukiyanova (2010)	RLMS 1994–2008	Gross monthly earnings	None (nonparametric)	Gini declined from 0.46 to 0.38
14	Gustafsson et al. (2011)	NOBUS 2003	Per capita income	None (nonparametric); Gini computed directly from microdata;	Gini for income is 0.336
15	Denisova (2012)	RLMS 1994–2009	Per adult real disposable income/expenditure (deflated by regional subsistence level)	None (nonparametric)	Gini for income declined from 0.46 to 0.35, Gini for consumption—from 0.48 to 0.42
16	Lukiyanova and Oshchepkov (2012)	RLMS 2000–2005	Per capita, equiv. (0.75, OECD) real income (deflated by regional CPIs)	None (nonparametric)	Gini for per capita income declined from 0.41 to 0.374, Gini for per adult equivalent income—from 0,391 to 0.363
17	Lokshin and Yemtsov (2013)	Rosstat official statistics 1991–2010	Per capita income	None (descriptive)	Gini rose from 0.26 to 0.421
18	Ovcharova et al. (2014)	RLMS 1994–2012	Per capita real expenditures (deflated by regional value of fixed basket of goods and services)	None (nonparametric)	Gini declined from 0.455 to 0.443
19	Ovcharova et al. (2016)	RLMS 1994–2014	Per capita real expenditures (1994 prices)	None (nonparametric)	Gini remained at 0.5–0.6
20	Calvo et al. (2015)	RLMS 1995–2012	Per capita real income, real hourly wages (deflated by national CPI)	None (nonparametric)	Gini declined from 0.438 to 0.322

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Table 1 – continued

No	Authors	Data	Welfare indicator	Distribution Assumption	Main Findings
21	Lukiyanova (2015)	RLMS 2000–2010	Gross monthly earnings (formal, informal)	None (nonparametric)	Gini formal earnings declined from 0.481 to 0.365
22	Gustafsson et al. (2015)	Taganrog 3 household survey 1989, NOBUS 2003	Gross monthly earnings	None (nonparametric)	Gini rose from 0.251 to 0.375
23	Nissanov and Pittau (2016)	RLMS 1992–2008	Equiv. (OECD) disposable real income (deflated by national CPI)	None (nonparametric); grade transformation is scale-invariant; bias-corrected bootstrap inference	Gini declined from 0.415 to 0.404
24	Ibragimov and Ibragimov (2018)	HBS 2005–2007 quarterly	Total income	Exact Pareto (power-law) for upper tail (top 5–10%); Gini linked to ζ via $G = 1/(2\zeta - 1)$ for illustration only	Gini remained at 0.412–0.413
25	Nartikoev and Peresetsky (2019)	HBS 2003–2015 quarterly	Equiv. (modified OECD) disposable income	GB2 distribution	Gini rose from 0.412 to 0.425
26	Novokmet et al. (2018b)	National accounts (Rosstat), RLMS 1994–2015, HBS 1980–2015, income tax tabulations and Forbes billionaire lists	Pretax national income; fiscal income; self-reported survey income (DINA framework)	Pareto interpolation for upper tail; no parametric form for bulk of distribution	Gini for national income rose from 0.278 to 0.545, Gini for fiscal income—from 0.278 to 0.52, Gini for survey income—from 0.269 to 0.451
27	Dang et al. (2020)	RLMS, 1994–2015, HBS (robustness checks) 2003–2015	Per capita real income (deflated by regional CPI), total household income	None (nonparametric); Pareto Type I for upper tail correction (top 5–10%) as robustness check	Gini for per capita income decreased from 0.47 to 0.312, Gini for total income—from 0.485 to 0.355
28	Kapeliushnikov (2020)	Critical reanalysis of Novokmet et al. (2018b)	Income concepts as defined in Novokmet et al. (2018b)	None (critique of parametric assumptions)	Gini for income at 0.30–0.40 (not 0.50–0.60 as in Novokmet et al. (2018b))
29	Surinov and Luppov (2020)	PIS 2017–2018	Per capita, equiv. income	None (nonparametric)	Gini for equiv. income is 0.321, Gini for per capita income—0.331
30	Vishnevskaya et al. (2021)	RLMS 1994–2016	Gross monthly earnings	None (nonparametric)	Gini declined from 0.47 to 0.35
31	Lisina and Van Kerm (2022)	RLMS 1994–2015	Equiv. (modified OECD) real disposable income (deflated by national CPI and adjusted for regional cost-of-living)	None (nonparametric)	Gini declined from 0.418 to 0.290
32	Hlasny (2022)	LIS (RLMS and PIS) 2000–2016	Per adult equiv. (0.5) real disposable income (deflated by GDP deflator to 2016)	None (nonparametric); RIF-OLS is a linear approximation	Gini declined from 0.42 to 0.33

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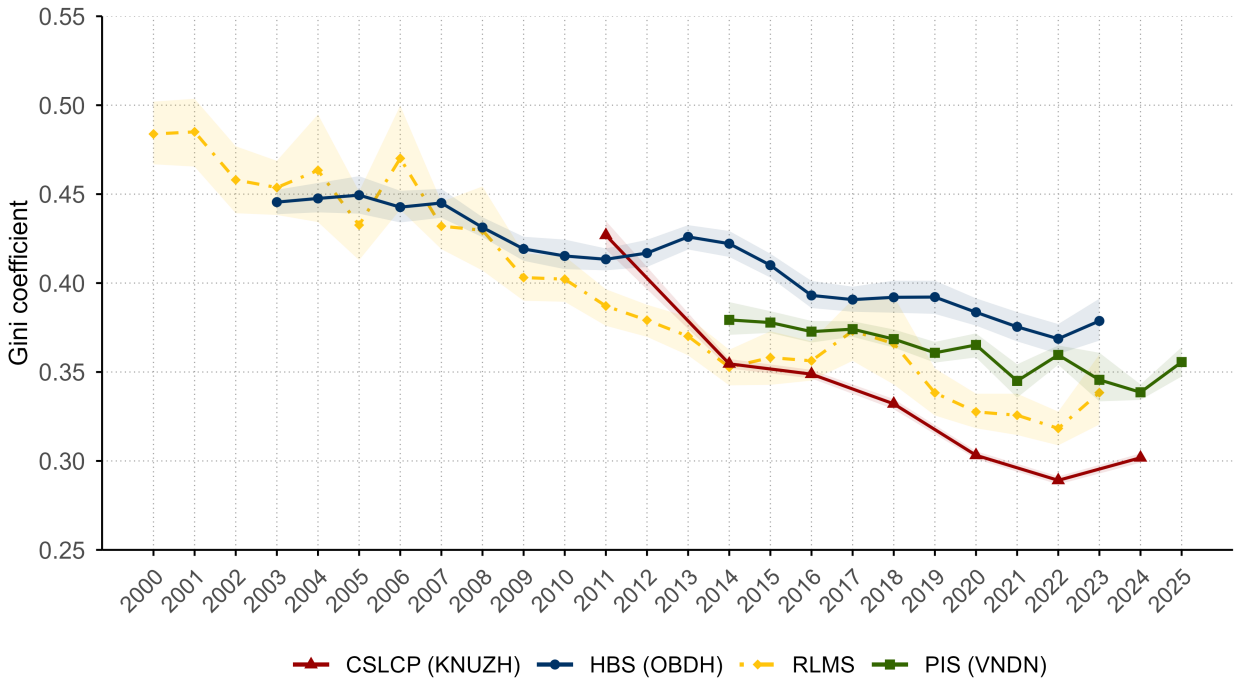
Table 1 – continued

No	Authors	Data	Welfare indicator	Distribution Assumption	Main Findings
33	Bryukhanov and Hryshko (2024)	RLMS 1994–2018; HBS 2003–2014	Equiv. (0.5) disposable income and non-durable consumption	None (nonparametric)	Gini for income declined from 0.42 to 0.289, Gini for consumption—from 0.375 to 0.262, Gini for consumption (HBS)—from 0.365 to 0.308
34	Zasimova (2024)	RLMS 2006–2022	Per capita, equiv. (OECD scale) disposable income, income without social transfers	None (nonparametric)	Gini for per capita income declined from 0.450 to 0.300
35	Lukyanova (2024)	RLMS 2005–2023, PIS 2011–2022	Gross monthly earnings	None (nonparametric); RIF-OLS is a linear approximation	Gini declined from 0.412 to 0.309
36	Kuzin and Surinov (2025)	PIS and Tax data 2022	Per capita income (from employment)	None (nonparametric)	Gini for income—0.348, Gini for income after correction—0.363

Notes: Findings are reported as in the original study, using that study's own data, income concept, and methodology; estimates are not harmonized across studies here. RLMS/RLMS-HSE: Russian Longitudinal Monitoring Survey; HBS/OBDH: Household Budget Survey; PIS/VNDN: Survey of Population Income and Participation in Social Programs; FBS: Family Budget Survey (Soviet-era). Full numerical estimates are reported in Appendix Tables B.1.2–B.1.4.

Table 1 illustrates these differences at the study level. Studies using RLMS-HSE microdata over comparable periods, such as Gorodnichenko et al. (2010); Lukiyanova and Oshchepkov (2012); Dang et al. (2020), report Gini coefficients that are substantially lower than those obtained from approaches that incorporate tax and wealth data (Novokmet et al. 2018b) and somewhat lower than parametric fits to HBS (OBDH) microdata (Ibragimov and Ibragimov 2018; Nartikoev and Peresetsky 2019), even when the periods covered overlap closely. This study-level variation mirrors the differences observed across data sources in the international inequality databases (Figure 9) and, as shown below, household surveys (Figure 10). In what follows, we provide our own estimates of income inequality using all available microdata sources and apply a common methodology across datasets. This allows us to assess how much of the observed variation in inequality estimates can be attributed to differences in the underlying data rather than to differences in estimation methods.

Figure 10: Income Gini Coefficients in Russia, 2000–2025: Four Household Surveys



Notes: The figure reports estimates of the Gini coefficient for per capita household income in Russia from 2000 to 2025 based on four household surveys: RLMS, HBS (OBDH), CSLCP (KNUZH), and PIS (VNDN). Shaded areas denote 95% bootstrap confidence intervals constructed from 1,000 bootstrap replications.

Figure 10 presents our estimates of the Gini coefficient for per capita household income in Russia from 2000 to 2025 based on four household surveys: the Russian Longitudinal Monitoring Survey (RLMS-HSE), the Household Budget Survey (HBS, OBDH),

the Comprehensive Survey of Living Conditions of the Population (CSLCP, KNUZH), and the Sample Survey of Population Income and Participation in Social Programs (PIS, VNDN). All four series are constructed using a common set of conventions. In each survey, we define income on a per capita basis by dividing total household income by the number of household members, without applying any additional equivalence scale. All estimates are weighted using the survey's household-level sampling weights, scaled by household size. The underlying income concepts differ across surveys. HBS (OBDH) and PIS (VNDN) both use household-reported total income measures, but the two measures differ in coverage. The monetary-income concept used in HBS (OBDH) is broader than that used in PIS (VNDN), which is restricted to cash receipts. CSLCP (KNUZH), in contrast, supplies per capita income as a ready-made variable in the microdata. RLMS-HSE asks households to report total income received during the preceding 30 days, giving it a shorter recall period than the annual income concepts used in the Rosstat surveys. As a common treatment of extreme observations, income in each survey-year is winsorized at the 0.05th and 99.95th percentiles. As a robustness check, we alternatively exclude non-positive incomes; this produces only marginal changes in the estimates. Despite these common conventions, the four surveys differ in sample design, fieldwork procedures, and the precise construction of income measures. The comparison therefore provides a consistent basis for assessing how measured inequality varies across data sources.

Several patterns emerge. First, the direction and size of change systematically differ across the surveys. RLMS-HSE and HBS (OBDH), the two surveys that cover the 2000s, both show a substantial decline: RLMS-HSE from about 0.48 in 2000–2001 to 0.32 in 2022, and HBS (OBDH) from 0.45 in 2003 to 0.37 in 2022 and 0.38 in 2023. CSLCP (KNUZH), observed in 2011 and in even years from 2014, falls from 0.43 in 2011 to 0.29 in 2022 and 0.30 in 2024, about half of this decline occurring between 2011 and 2014. PIS (VNDN) changes little over its span, from 0.38 in 2014 to 0.36 in 2025, with a low of 0.34 in 2024. Across the surveys, the Gini coefficient lies between 0.29 and 0.38 in 2020–2023.

Second, the surveys differ substantively in the *level* of measured inequality, and these differences are economically significant. RLMS-HSE and HBS (OBDH) are broadly similar in the 2000s, with RLMS-HSE higher in 2003, 2004, and 2006; from 2012 through 2023, HBS (OBDH) reports the highest Gini in every year in which it is observed alongside another survey (in 2011, CSLCP (KNUZH) is higher). PIS (VNDN) generally lies above RLMS-HSE from 2014 to 2023, although the two are nearly identical in 2017 and 2018, and CSLCP (KNUZH) reports the lowest values in every year it is observed from 2016 onward. The largest same-year gap is between HBS (OBDH) and CSLCP (KNUZH): about 0.08 in both 2020 and 2022 (2022 is the last year in which the two are observed,

since HBS (OBDH) ends in 2023 and CSLCP (KNUZH) is observed in even years). This equals the entire 2003–2022 decline recorded by HBS (OBDH) and exceeds the change recorded by PIS (VNDN) over its span, but is smaller than the declines recorded by RLMS-HSE and CSLCP (KNUZH). Because all four series share the same per-capita (non-equivalized) size adjustment and the same person-weighting convention, this gap is unlikely to reflect differences in the treatment of household size, although the construction of the underlying survey weights (calibration and nonresponse adjustment) differs across surveys. The differences may reflect income definition, reference period, sampling frames, weight construction, non-response among high-income households, and fieldwork, which our design does not separate.

Third, the surveys differ in their *volatility* and their responsiveness to macroeconomic shocks. RLMS exhibits the widest confidence intervals and the most pronounced year-to-year variation, reflecting its smaller sample size relative to the Rosstat surveys. The Rosstat surveys all yield considerably narrower bootstrap confidence intervals than RLMS (mean widths of 0.007–0.016 versus 0.033), consistent with their much larger samples; all intervals are computed with the same resampling scheme. PIS (VNDN) and CSLCP (KNUZH), both introduced in 2011–2012, display intermediate levels of volatility, with CSLCP (KNUZH) diverging from the other surveys from 2016 onward.

Taken together, Figures 9 and 10 suggest that part of the gap between estimates from international databases originates in differences in the underlying Russian microdata. The official Rosstat series is broadly consistent with HBS (OBDH), which yields the highest Gini coefficients among the four surveys from 2012 onward, while the lower equivalized series reported by LIS and SWIID are closer to the estimates from RLMS-HSE, PIS (VNDN), and CSLCP (KNUZH). A similar ordering by data source appears in the estimates reported in Table 1. Studies based on RLMS-HSE microdata tend to report lower inequality, whereas those based on HBS (OBDH) data or official Rosstat aggregates generally report higher inequality. Estimates that incorporate tax or wealth data to adjust for the upper tail yield even higher values. Our comparison shows that the data source alone can affect measured inequality, since the surveys differ even under common estimation conventions, so it likely contributes to the variation across studies. It cannot, however, tell us how much of that variation comes from the data source and how much from differences in equivalization, calibration, upper-tail treatment, and estimation method. Even the HBS (OBDH) estimates remain well below the WID estimates shown in Figure 9. This gap is consistent with the evidence in Novokmet et al. (2018b,a) and Kapeliushnikov (2020) on the measurement of top incomes. Undercoverage of the upper tail is likely to affect all four household surveys and provides one explanation for

why estimates that incorporate tax or wealth data are markedly higher, as documented in Table 1.

4.2 Spatial Heterogeneity in Income Inequality

Russian regions exhibit major differences in the level of income inequality. Regional differences in natural-resource endowments, urbanization, and sectoral specialization matter for the distribution of income within regions as well as levels. Resource-rich regions combine relatively high average incomes with income distributions concentrated among a smaller group of high earners in extractive industries, while predominantly agricultural republics have lower average incomes and more compressed income distributions. Within-region inequality therefore represents an additional dimension of regional heterogeneity in living standards, distinct from the interregional income differences documented earlier in this chapter.

We measure within-region inequality using the population-weighted Gini coefficient for per capita income, following the conventions established for this chapter in Section 3.2. We apply the same measure to official Rosstat regional statistics and, for comparison, to HBS (OBDH) microdata aggregated to the regional level. For the HBS (OBDH) series, full point estimates and bootstrap confidence intervals for each region and year are reported in Appendix B.2. Yemtsov (2005) showed that regional inequality indices recalculated directly from regional data can follow markedly different trends from officially published national aggregates, highlighting the uncertainty inherent in official statistics. Consistent with this observation, HBS (OBDH) regional Gini estimates track the official Rosstat figures more closely than estimates from either of the other two household surveys (Appendix B.2, Figure B.2.1).[1] We therefore use HBS (OBDH) as the microdata counterpart to the official statistics in the regional analysis below.

Figure 11 identifies the regions at the extremes of the within-region inequality distribution in three benchmark years. In the Rosstat ranking, Moscow, Yamalo-Nenets, and Nenets appear among the five most unequal regions in all three years, joined by Khanty-Mansi in 2000 and by Chukotka in 2025. These are largely the same regions identified as having the highest per capita incomes (Figure 3), indicating that high average income in these regions correlates with high internal dispersion rather than lower inequality. The

[1] PIS (VNDN) and CSLCP (KNUZH) are, like HBS (OBDH), designed to be representative at the regional level (Section 2), and we accordingly estimate regional Gini from both of the surveys for comparison in Appendix Figure B.2.1. We do not report region-by-year point estimates and confidence intervals for these two surveys, however, because HBS (OBDH) is the microdata source used for the regional decomposition that follows.

correspondence is not exact, however: Samara in 2000, Perm Krai and Tatarstan in 2015, and Sakha in 2025 rank among the most unequal regions without appearing among the richest, so elevated within-region inequality is not confined to the resource-exporting okrugs and the capital.The HBS (OBDH) ranking is different at the top: none of these regions appears among the five most unequal HBS (OBDH) regions in any year,[1] consistent with the underrepresentation of top incomes in household survey data discussed in Section 4. The most unequal regions in the survey are a changing mix of mid-sized regions, and only Tuva appears in more than one benchmark year (2003 and 2023). Two features of the Rosstat panel are worth noting. First, Moscow's position changes substantially over the period. In 2000 its Gini coefficient of 0.595 stands far above that of the second-ranked region (0.436), whereas in 2025 Moscow ranks fourth at 0.449, only marginally above the fifth-ranked region. Second, the distance between the two tails narrows considerably: the gap between the most and least unequal region falls from 0.32 Gini points in 2000 to 0.13 in 2025, driven mainly by the fall at the top, where the most unequal region declines from 0.595 (Moscow, 2000) to 0.470, and to a smaller extent by a rise at the bottom, where the least unequal region moves from 0.276 to 0.336 in 2025. Both patterns are consistent with convergence in regional Gini coefficients alongside a rising median level as shown in Figure 12. Ingushetia is the most equal region in every HBS (OBDH) benchmark year, with a Gini coefficient that falls from 0.235 in 2003 to 0.173 in 2023, and is also the least unequal Rosstat region in 2025. The remaining low-inequality regions include a mix of agricultural republics, such as Karachay-Cherkessia and Chuvashia, and mid-sized industrial oblasts, including Vladimir, Tula, Kirov, and Pskov. These low-inequality regions are less persistent than the high-inequality ones: no region appears among the five least unequal in all three Rosstat years, though Vladimir appears in 2000 and 2025 and Khakassia in 2015 and 2025. The benchmark-year rankings necessarily focus on the five most and five least unequal regions in each year; Figure 12 instead shows the complete annual distribution of regional Gini coefficients across Russian regions from 1995 to 2025.

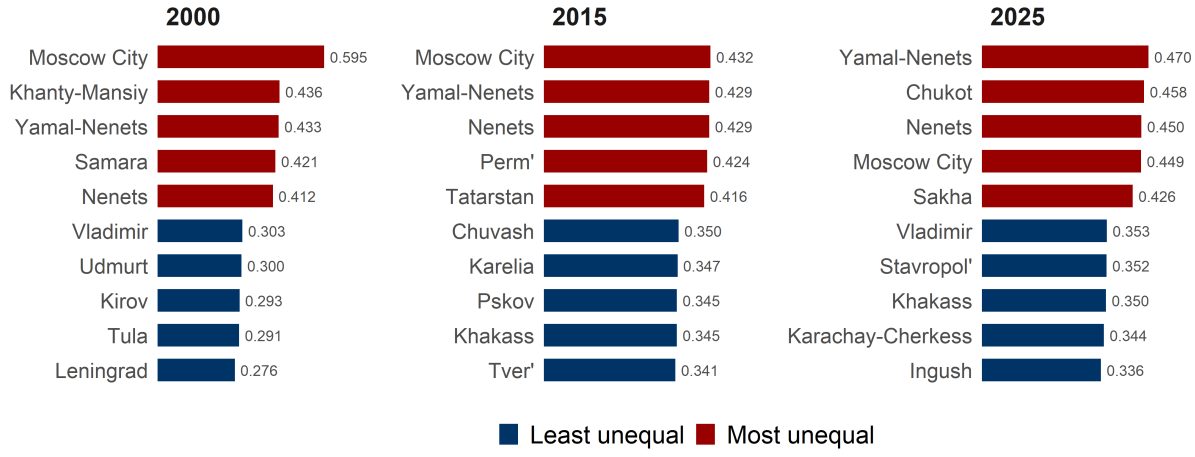
Figure 12 highlights two distinct dimensions of within-region inequality: its level within the typical region, measured by the median regional Gini, and its dispersion across regions. These dimensions need not move together. A decline in the dispersion of regional Gini coefficients indicates greater similarity across regions, but does not necessarily imply lower inequality within individual regions.

Heterogeneity in within-region inequality was particularly pronounced during the late transition period and narrowed substantially during the 2000s. In 2000, the median

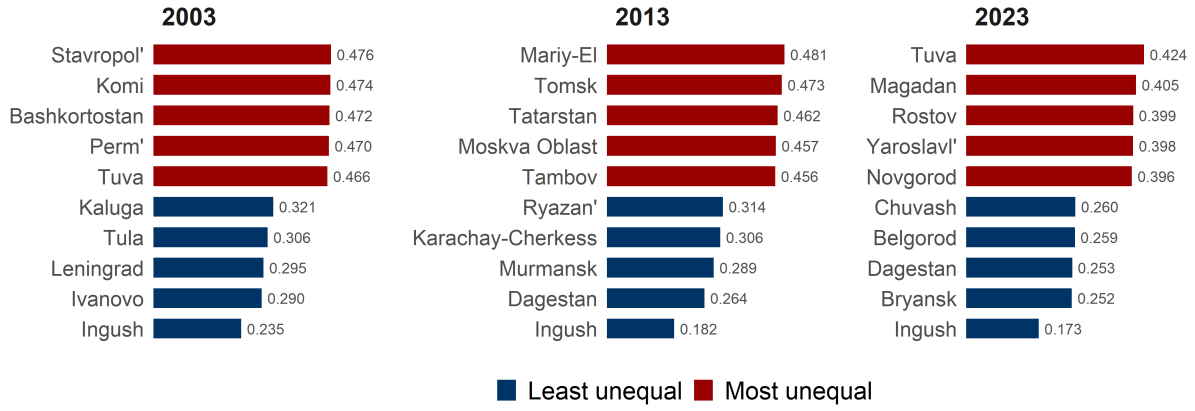
[1] Moscow Oblast, which appears in 2013, is distinct from Moscow City.

Figure 11: Most and Least Unequal Russian Regions by Gini Coefficient

(a) Rosstat, Regional Per Capita Income Gini, 2000–2025



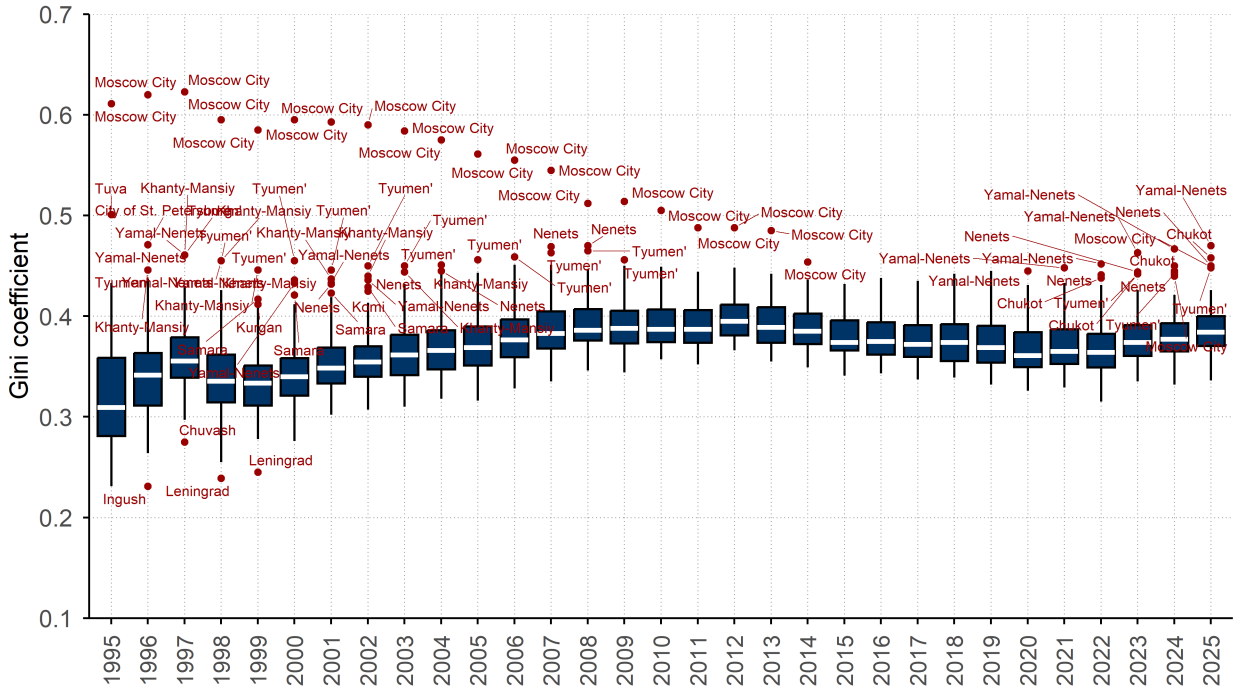
(b) HBS (OBDH), Regional Per Capita Income Gini, 2003–2023



Notes: Panel (a) reports the five most unequal and five least unequal Russian regions by the population-weighted Gini coefficient of per capita income from Rosstat (Official Statistics, https://rosstat.gov.ru/folder/10705) in three selected years. Panel (b) reports the corresponding ranking based on the Gini coefficient estimated from HBS (OBDH) microdata in three selected years.

regional Gini was approximately 0.34, with an interquartile range of 0.32–0.36 and a full range of 0.28–0.60. By 2010, the coefficient of variation of regional Gini coefficients (Figure 13) had declined from 0.19 to 0.09. At the same time, inequality within the typical region increased: the median regional Gini rose from approximately 0.34 in 2000 to 0.38 in 2007 and around 0.40 by 2012. Thus, regions became more similar to one another even as inequality within the typical region increased. This increase coincided with the disproportionate income gains at the top of the distribution documented at the national level during the same period (Section 4). The introduction of a flat 13% personal income tax in 2001 (Section 4) did not increase the marginal tax rate with income, while rising resource rents were concentrated among a relatively narrow group of high earners in extractive-sector regions (Figure 11).

Figure 12: Distribution of Regional Gini Coefficients in Russia

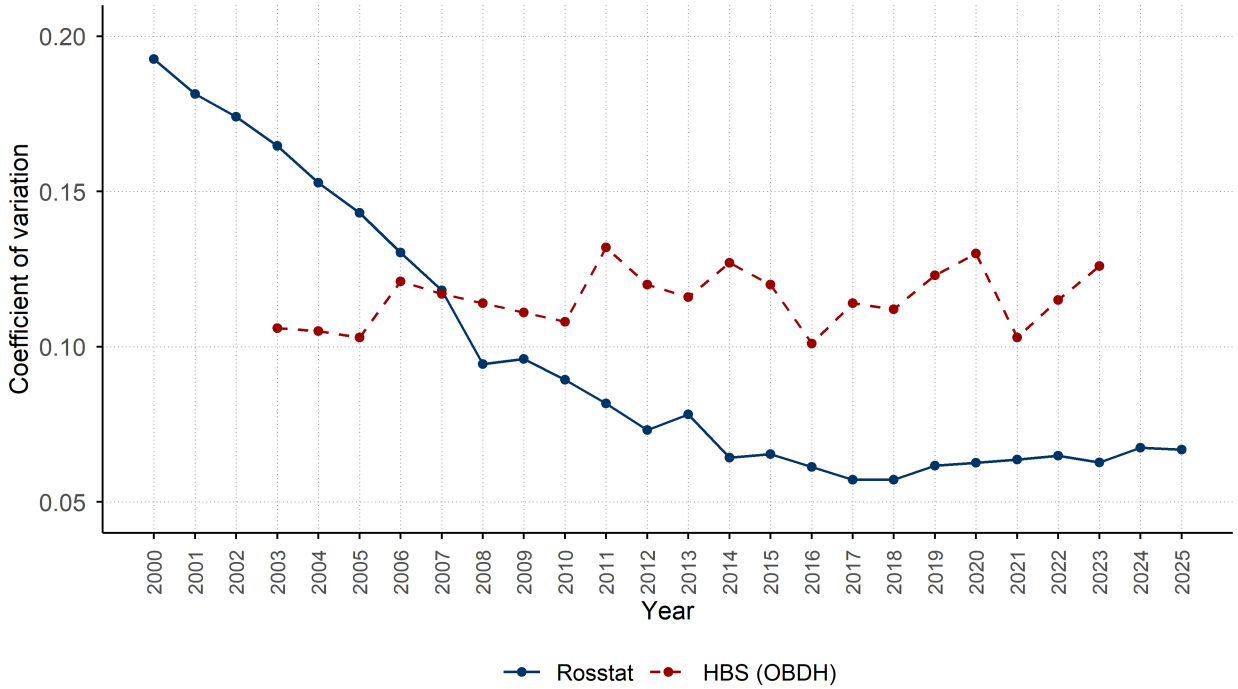


Notes: The figure shows the annual distribution of regional Gini coefficients across Russian regions for 1995–2025, based on official Rosstat statistics. Boxes represent the interquartile range (IQR), the horizontal line indicates the median, and whiskers extend to the most extreme observations within 1.5 times the IQR. Regions classified as outliers under the 1.5×IQR rule are labeled.

After 2012, both the level and dispersion of within-region inequality moved in the opposite direction. The median regional Gini declined steadily, reaching approximately 0.37 during 2015–2019 and about 0.36 in 2020–2022, while cross-regional dispersion remained relatively limited and increased only modestly after the mid-2010s. The simultaneous decline in the median and persistence of relatively narrow dispersion indicate

that the reduction in inequality was broad-based across regions rather than concentrated in a small number of regions. This pattern is consistent with the 2009–2010 pension valorization, the subsequent expansion of means-tested family benefits, and pandemic-era transfers, which increased the share of social transfers in household income to 21.4% by 2020 (Section 3). These policies may have raised household resources disproportionately toward the bottom of the income distribution within regions. The pattern is also consistent with the broader literature on regional convergence in Russia, although the extent and mechanisms of convergence vary across outcomes and methodologies. Studies of regional real incomes, for example, find substantial convergence across most regions alongside persistent divergence in others (Demidova 2021).

Figure 13: Dispersion of Within-Region Inequality Across Russian Regions



Notes: The figure reports the coefficient of variation of the regional Gini coefficient estimated across Russian regions in each year. The navy line is estimated from official Rosstat regional statistics (2000–2025); the red dashed line from HBS (OBDH) microdata aggregated to the regional level (2003–2023).

The final years of Rosstat's regional Gini series show a renewed increase in within-region inequality after 2022. The median regional Gini rose from approximately 0.36 in 2022 to 0.38 in 2024 and approximately 0.38–0.39 in 2025. The upper quartile increased as well, while the maximum regional Gini rose from about 0.45 to 0.47, indicating that the increase was not confined to a small number of outliers. This renewed rise coincides with the wage growth documented in Section 4. Labor shortages following the 2022 par-

tial mobilization and increased demand in the defense sector (Section 3) contributed to particularly rapid wage growth in some occupations, while social transfers grew more slowly than inflation over the same period. The progressive personal income tax introduced in 2025 (Section 4) postdates nearly all of this increase and therefore cannot explain the rise through 2024. In the Rosstat data, interregional dispersion, meanwhile, remains substantially below its level in the late 1990s and early 2000s. The recent increase is therefore best characterized as a renewed rise in inequality within Russian regions rather than a return to the exceptionally high degree of regional heterogeneity observed during the transition period.

Figure 13 summarizes the evolution of cross-regional dispersion in within-region inequality by plotting the coefficient of variation of regional Gini coefficients over time. In the Rosstat series, the coefficient of variation declines steadily through the early 2010s and then increases modestly from the late 2010s, closely mirroring the narrowing and subsequent widening of the interquartile range described above; the HBS (OBDH) series shows no clear trend, fluctuating between 0.10 and 0.13.[1]

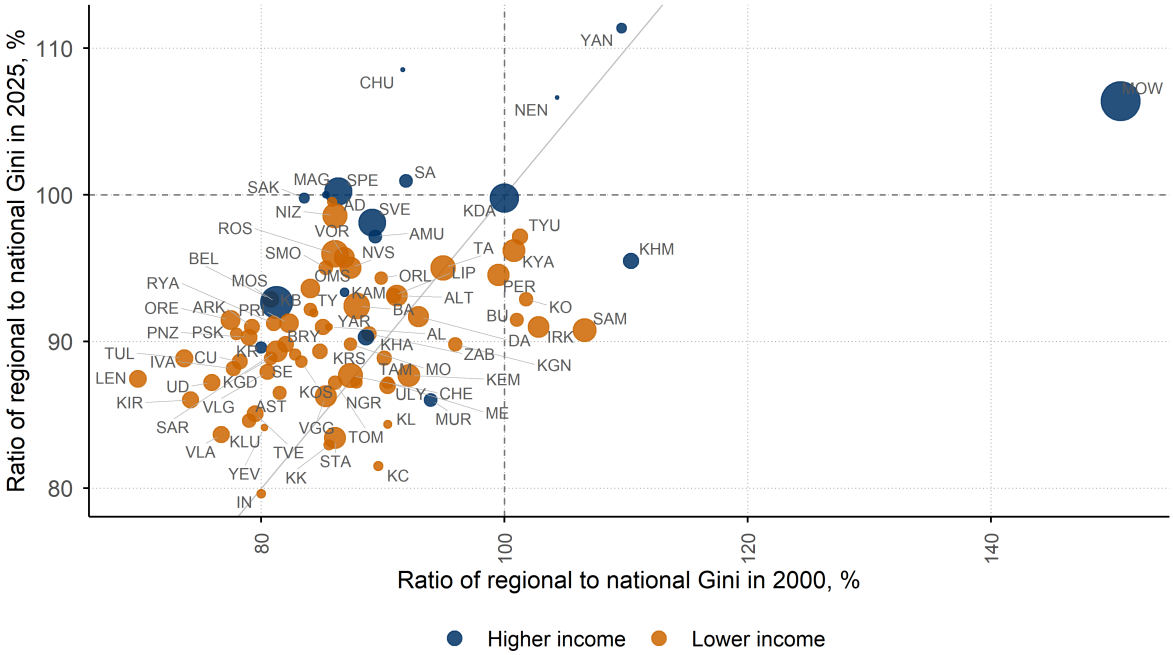
Taken together, the regional dynamics of within-region inequality can be characterized by three broad stages. During the late transition period and the 2000s, the typical level of inequality increased while dispersion across regions narrowed substantially. From 2012 through the early 2020s, inequality within the typical region declined while dispersion across regions remained relatively low. After 2022, the typical level of within-region inequality increased again, with the increase occurring broadly across regions, while cross-regional dispersion remained well below its transition-era peak. These patterns highlight why the dynamics of Russian inequality cannot be captured by the national Gini coefficient alone. The level of inequality within regions and the dispersion of inequality across regions are distinct dimensions that can follow different trajectories and, as the Russian experience demonstrates, can move in opposite directions.

Figure 14 traces changes in individual regions' inequality relative to the national average over the period covered by each source. The most striking feature is Moscow. In the Rosstat panel, Moscow's regional Gini stood at roughly 150% of the national Gini in 2000, by far the highest relative position among all regions, before falling to about 106% by 2025. This decline accounts for a substantial share of the reduction in

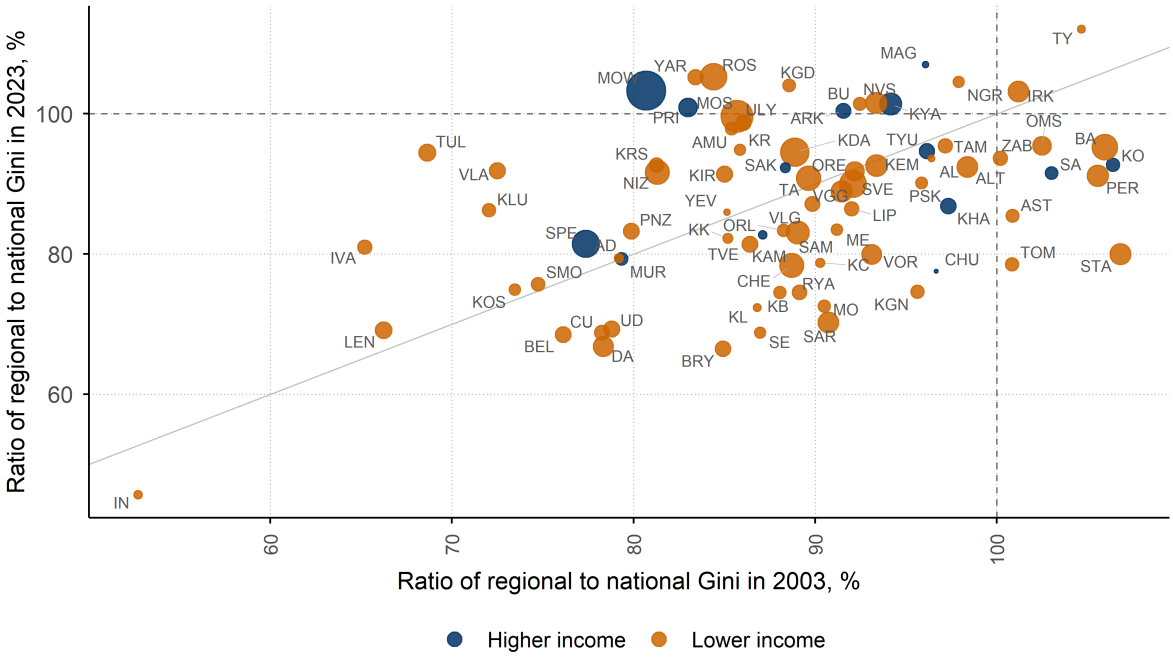
[1]The coefficient of variation calculated from HBS (OBDH) reflects both genuine cross-regional heterogeneity in within-region inequality and sampling uncertainty in the underlying estimates. As the degree of estimation uncertainty varies across regions and years, changes in this coefficient should not be interpreted as unambiguous evidence of changes in the dispersion of true regional Ginis. The HBS (OBDH) series is therefore presented as a complementary descriptive measure, with its temporal movements interpreted cautiously.

Figure 14: Regional Gini Relative to the National Gini

(a) Rosstat, 2000 versus 2025



(b) HBS (OBDH), 2003 versus 2023



Notes: Each point represents a Russian region, labelled by its abbreviated code. The horizontal axis reports the region's Gini coefficient as a percentage of the national Gini in the earlier year; the vertical axis reports the same ratio in the later year. The dashed lines mark the national average (100%) in each year, so a region in the upper-right quadrant was more unequal than the country as a whole in both years. The solid diagonal is the 45-degree line: regions above it rose in relative position over the period and regions below it fell. Marker size is proportional to regional population. Regions are classified as higher-income if per capita income exceeded 100% of the national average in the later year shown (2025 for Rosstat, 2023 for HBS), and lower-income otherwise.

cross-regional dispersion documented in Figure 12 during the 2000s. The resource-rich northern regions follow a different pattern. Yamal-Nenets and Nenets remain above the national average in both 2000 and 2025, and Chukotka, slightly below it in 2000 (92%), moves above it by 2025 (109%), consistent with their identification as high-inequality regions earlier in this section. Khanty-Mansiysk, by contrast, moves from above the national average in 2000 to below it by 2025. Krasnodar, despite being one of the larger regional economies, remains close to the national average in both years, illustrating that population size does not imply an extreme relative position in regional inequality.

The HBS (OBDH) panel shows a markedly different trajectory for Moscow. Its regional Gini was below the national average in 2003, at roughly 81%, and rose to about 103% by 2023, in contrast to the decline observed in the Rosstat series over a similar period. This divergence is consistent with the broader gap between the two sources documented in Section 4, particularly the underrepresentation of top incomes in household surveys such as HBS. At the same time, the change in Moscow's relative position cannot by itself establish whether improved coverage of high-income households explains the divergence. At the other extreme, Ingushetia is the clearest low-inequality outlier in the HBS (OBDH) panel, falling from roughly 53% of the national Gini in 2003 to 46% by 2023, reinforcing its status, noted earlier in this section, as the most persistently equal region in the sample.

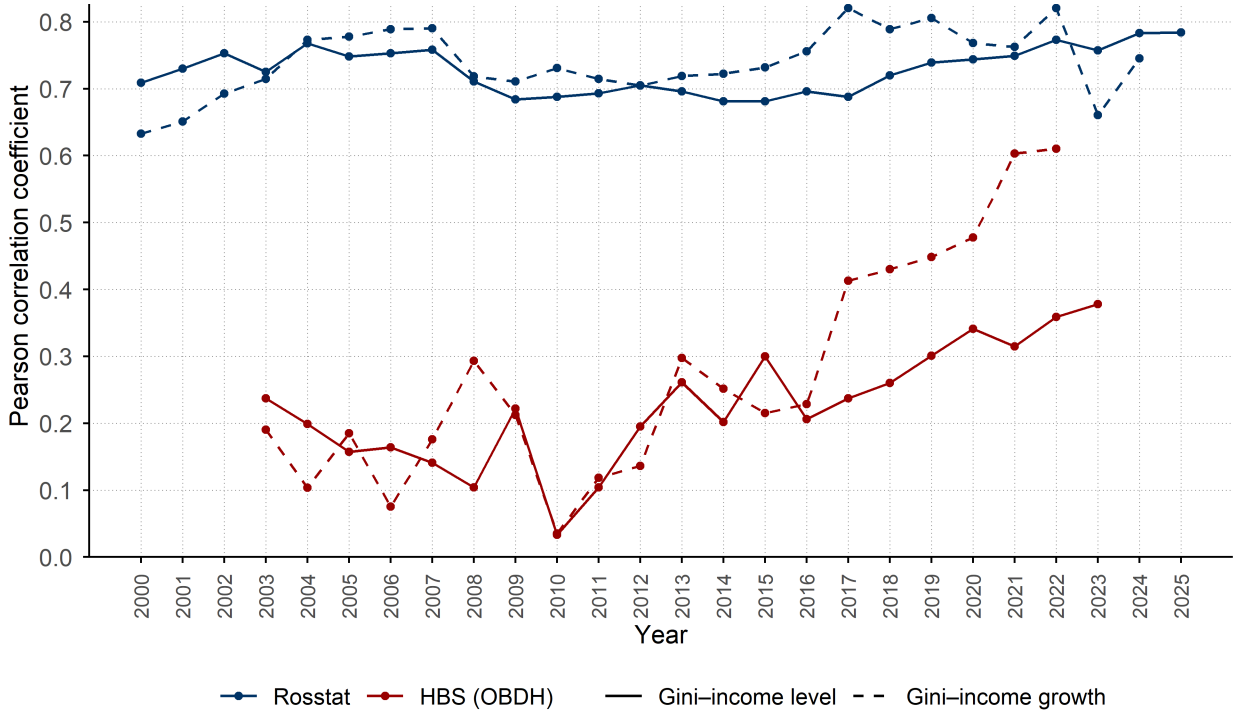
Beyond differences in inequality across regions, a natural question is whether within-region inequality is systematically associated with regional income. Figure 15 plots annual Pearson correlations across Russian regions between the regional Gini coefficient and average income (solid lines), and between average annual growth in regional real income and the change in the regional Gini coefficient from year t to the end of the respective sample period (2025 for Rosstat and 2023 for HBS (OBDH)).[1]

The Rosstat level correlation rises over the early-to-mid 2000s, from about 0.71 in 2000 to about 0.75–0.77 by the mid-2000s. This pattern is consistent with the consolidation of a more market-oriented income distribution over the 2000s, as regional inequality remained closely tied to regional economic performance following the transition-era price liberalization of the 1990s and the subsequent reallocation of economic activity across regions. From the late 2000s through the mid-2010s, the Rosstat level correlation declines from its mid-2000s peak and settles in a comparatively narrow 0.68–0.71 band, with the

[1]Thus, the endpoint differs across sources, and the resulting correlations are not directly comparable between them. Moreover, for each source, the horizon shortens as the initial year approaches the endpoint, and the observations are based on overlapping periods. These correlations should therefore be interpreted as measures of the association between income growth and cumulative changes in inequality relative to a source-specific endpoint, rather than as an ordinary annual time series.

growth correlation more volatile over the same stretch, dipping to around 0.70 in 2012 before climbing to a high of 0.82 in 2017. The HBS (OBDH) series, available only from 2003, lie far below the Rosstat series and do not share its rise over the 2000s: the level correlation falls from about 0.24 in 2003 to 0.10 in 2008, drops to a low of 0.03 in 2010, and recovers to 0.26 by 2013. The HBS (OBDH) growth correlation is noisier still over this period, ranging between about 0.04 (2010) and 0.30 (2013).

Figure 15: Regional Inequality and Income: Correlation Over Time



Notes: The figure plots the Pearson correlation coefficient, estimated annually across Russian regions, between the regional Gini coefficient and average income (solid lines), and between average annual growth in regional real income and the change in the regional Gini coefficient from the given year to 2025 (dashed lines), separately for official Rosstat regional statistics (navy, 2000–2025) and HBS (OBDH) household survey microdata (red, 2003–2023). For each year t, the dashed-line correlation relates regional average annual real income growth over the period from t to 2025 for Rosstat and to 2023 for HBS (OBDH) to the change in the regional Gini coefficient over the corresponding period. See Appendix Figures B.2.2 and B.2.3 for the underlying cross-sectional scatter plots and labeled regions in selected years.

Since 2018, both Rosstat measures have trended back up: the level correlation rises steadily from about 0.72 in 2018 to roughly 0.78–0.79 by 2024–2025, among the highest values in the full series, while the growth correlation remains high but volatile, swinging between about 0.76 and 0.82 before falling sharply to 0.66 in 2023 and partially recovering to 0.75 in 2024 (the growth measure requires a following year of data and so has no 2025 observation). The HBS (OBDH) series show an even more pronounced

late-period rise: the level correlation climbs from about 0.21 in 2016 to 0.38 by 2023, its highest value in the series, and the growth correlation reaches a series high of about 0.61 in 2022. Throughout the period, correlations estimated from Rosstat data run substantially higher than those from HBS (OBDH) – by roughly 0.4–0.7 points in most years, although the gap narrows markedly in the 2020s, to about 0.4 for the level and 0.2 for the growth correlation. These differences should be interpreted in light of how the series are constructed. Rosstat's official inequality statistics combine household-survey inputs with macroeconomic aggregates, whereas HBS (OBDH) yields both average income and inequality from the same survey. Within each source, the level and growth correlations move broadly together, although the growth correlation is more volatile, particularly for HBS (OBDH).

The regional composition underlying this relationship is examined in Appendix Figures B.2.2 and B.2.3, which plot the cross-sectional relationship between the regional Gini coefficient and regional income (and GRP per capita) in selected benchmark years and label the regions furthest from the fitted line. Moscow and the resource-rich northern regions, including Yamal-Nenets, Khanty-Mansiysk, Tyumen, and Chukotka, occupy the high-income, high-inequality end of the regional distributions in those years, while low-income agricultural republics such as Tuva, Kalmykia, Ingushetia, and Karachay-Cherkessia occupy the opposite end. The persistence of these regional groupings suggests that the aggregate correlation in Figure 15 is not a uniform, broad-based relationship: a relatively small set of structurally distinct regions – resource-rich territories at one extreme, poorer agricultural republics at the other – accounts for much of it, with the majority of regions lying between them.

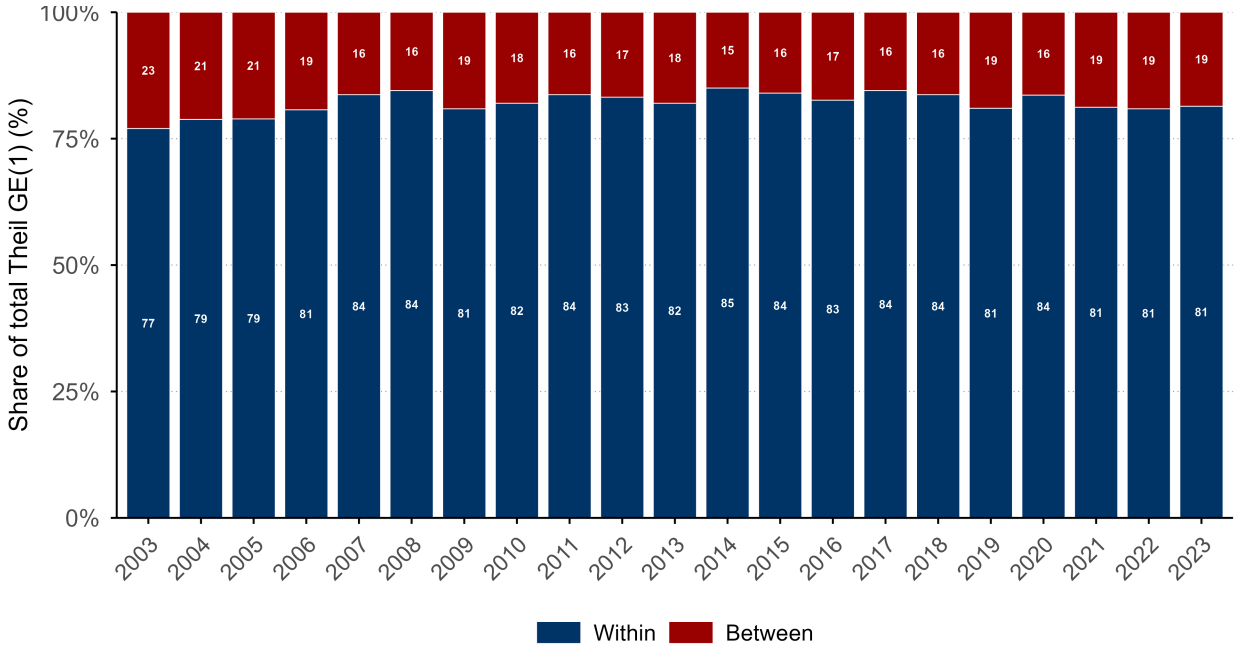
To assess the contribution of regional differences to aggregate inequality, we construct and decompose the Theil GE(1) index into a between-region component, which captures inequality arising from differences in mean income across regions, and a within-region component, which captures inequality among individuals living within the same region. Because the Theil index is exactly and additively decomposable, with no residual term, this decomposition provides a direct accounting of the relative contributions of these two sources to total inequality. For a partition of the population into mutually exclusive and exhaustive groups $g \in \mathcal{G}$, the national Theil index can be written as

$$\mathrm{GE}(1) \;=\; \underbrace{\sum_{g \in \mathcal{G}} s_g^{\mu} \ln\!\left(\frac{\mu_g}{\mu}\right)}_{\text{between-group}} \;+\; \underbrace{\sum_{g \in \mathcal{G}} s_g^{\mu} \cdot \mathrm{GE}(1)_g}_{\text{within-group}}, \tag{2}$$

where μ denotes national mean per capita income, μ_g is mean income in group g, $\mathrm{GE}(1)_g$

is the Theil index estimated within group g, and $s_g^\mu = n_g\mu_g/(n\mu)$ is the income share of group g. The two components in equation (2) sum exactly to total GE(1), with no residual. The between-group component is the value of GE(1) that would obtain if every individual were assigned the mean income of their group, and the within-group component is the average of the group-specific GE(1) indices, weighted by group income shares. We report the between-group component as a share of total GE(1), which gives the proportion of total inequality associated with differences in group mean incomes.[1] In this subsection, the groups $\mathcal{G}$ are Russian regions.

Figure 16: Theil GE(1) Decomposition: Between and Within Regions



Notes: The figure displays the decomposition of the national Theil index GE(1) into between- and within-region components for each year from 2003 to 2023 estimated from HBS (OBDH). The between-region component (red) captures the share of total inequality associated with differences in mean per capita income across Russian regions. The within-region component (blue) captures inequality within regional populations, weighted by regional income share s_g^μ as in equation (2). The two components sum to 100% in each year.

Figure 16 presents the decomposition of the national Theil GE(1) index into between- and within-region components over 2003–2023, estimated from HBS (OBDH) microdata. Differences in mean income across regions account for approximately 15–23% of total inequality over this period. This is substantially larger than the contribution associated with the urban–rural division, examined in Appendix B.3, indicating that regional dif-

[1]The GE(1) decomposition weights each group's within-group inequality by its income share s_g^μ, so that groups with higher mean incomes receive greater weight.

ferences in average income represent an important dimension of aggregate inequality in Russia. The between-region share was highest in the early 2000s, reaching 23% in 2003, and declined through 2008, a period that also saw substantial convergence in regional living standards. It then fluctuated between 15% and 19% over 2009–2023, with a low of 15% in 2014 and values of 19% in 2019 and in each of 2021–2023. The higher values after 2020 are consistent with the growing divergence in regional economic conditions, including the uneven regional effects of the war-related expansion in labor demand after 2022 (Yushkov and Alexeev 2024; Zubarevich 2025). The within-region component nevertheless remained dominant throughout, accounting for 77–85% of total inequality. Thus, although differences in average income across regions make a substantial contribution to aggregate inequality, most income dispersion in Russia arises among individuals living within the same region. A parallel decomposition using the urban–rural divide as the partition (Appendix B.3) shows a related but smaller pattern. Income inequality is higher among urban than rural households throughout 2003–2023, with the urban Gini exceeding the rural Gini by roughly 0.01–0.04 points, and differences in mean income between urban and rural households account for only 5–10% of total inequality, compared with the 15–23% attributable to differences in mean income across regions documented above. As with the regional decomposition, within-group dispersion – in this case within the urban and within the rural population – accounts for the large majority (90% or more) of total inequality.

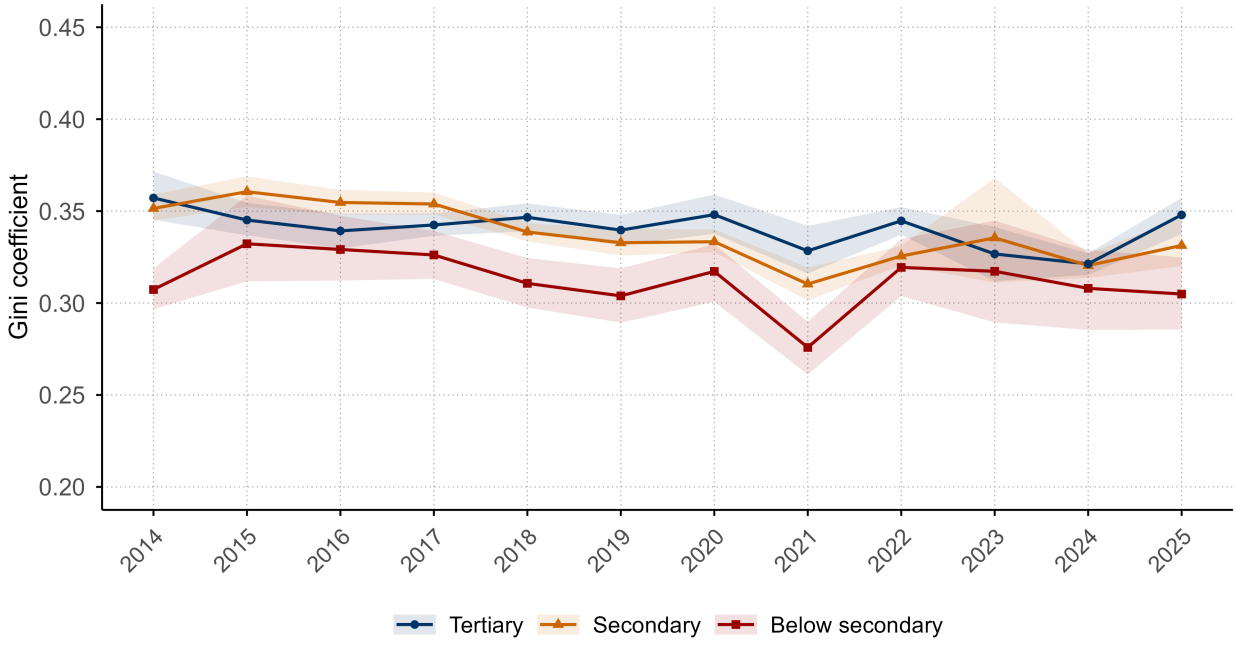
4.3 Heterogeneity in Income Inequality by Education and Occupation

The preceding decompositions show that most national income inequality in Russia reflects variation within regions and rural-urban settlement types rather than differences in mean income across these dimensions. We next examine heterogeneity along two household-level groups that are fundamental determinants of income: the education and occupation of the household head. This analysis uses PIS (VNDN) microdata and therefore covers the more recent period 2014–2025.

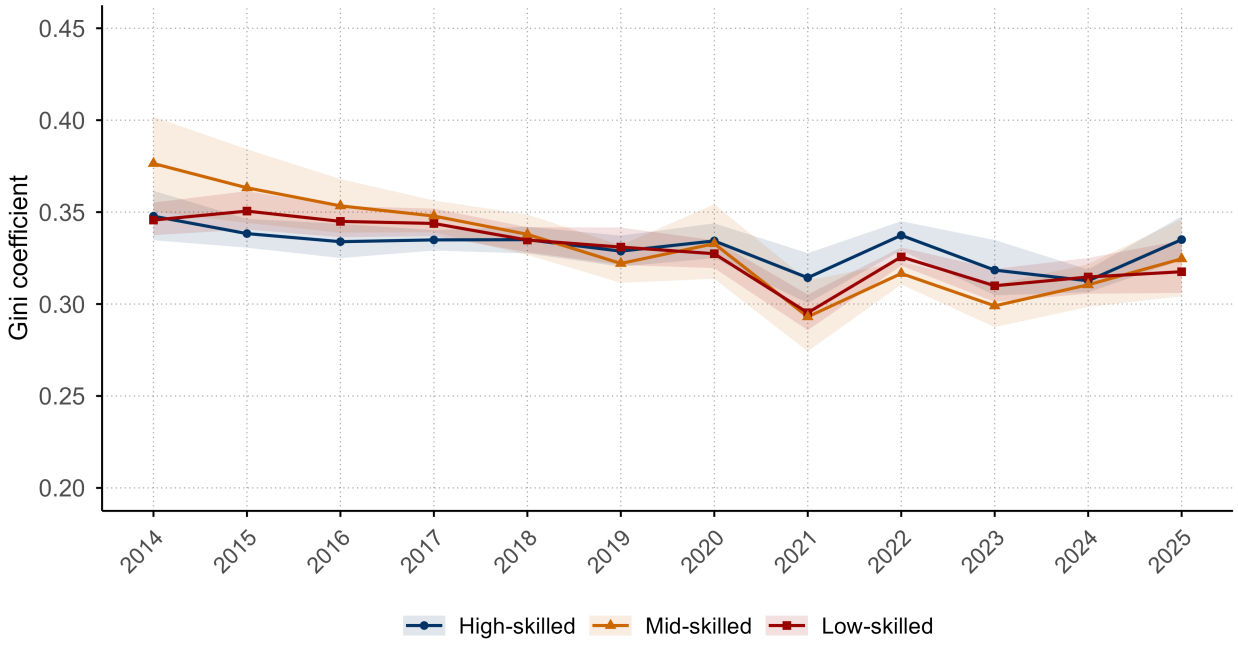
Figure 17, Panel (a), shows a persistent difference in the level of inequality across education groups. Inequality among households headed by individuals with tertiary and secondary education is similar throughout the period, with the two series overlapping substantially and Gini coefficients generally ranging between 0.31 and 0.36; neither group exhibits a systematic ranking over time, with each higher than the other in roughly half the years. Households headed by individuals with below-secondary education consistently have lower inequality, with Gini coefficients ranging from approximately 0.28 to

Figure 17: Gini Coefficient by Education and Occupation Group

(a) Education



(b) Occupation



Notes: The figure reports the Gini coefficient for per capita household income estimated from PIS (VNDN) microdata. Panel (a) groups households by the education of the household head (tertiary, secondary, or below secondary); panel (b) groups households by occupation (high-, mid-, or low-skilled). Shaded areas denote 95% bootstrap confidence intervals constructed from 1,000 bootstrap replications. The corresponding Theil GE(1) estimates are reported in Appendix Figure B.4.1; see Appendix B.4 for full numerical results.

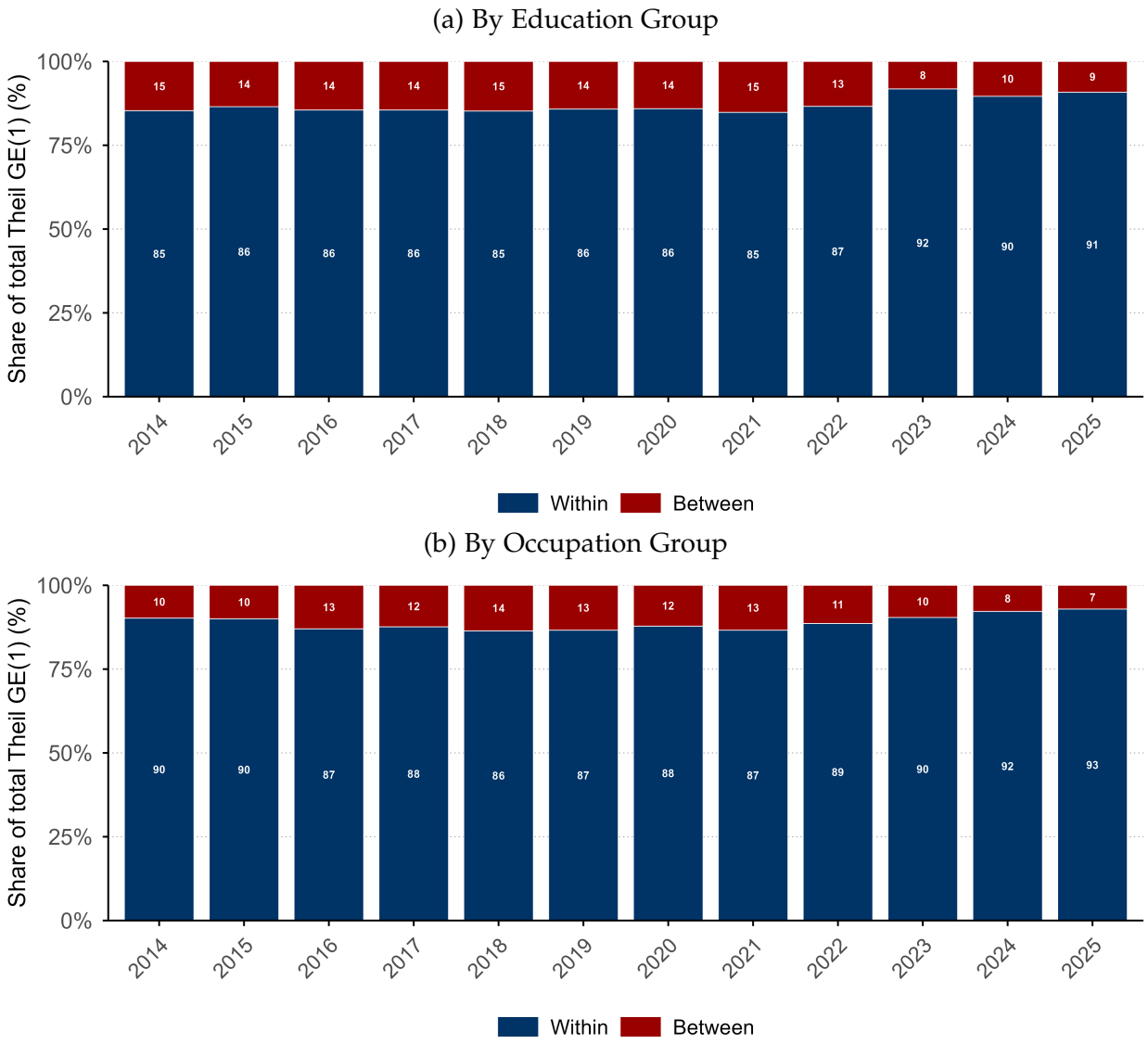
0.33. The same ordering is evident in the Theil index (Appendix Figure B.4.1, Panel (a)), where the below-secondary group ranges from approximately 0.13 to 0.19 and the secondary and tertiary groups from approximately 0.16 to 0.22. The three groups nevertheless exhibit broadly similar dynamics over time, converging to a shared trough in 2021, rising again through 2022, and becoming more variable in 2023–2025. Because the groups move largely in parallel, the gap between the below-secondary group and the two higher-education groups remains similar across most of the sample, narrowing only in 2023–2024. Thus, differences in the level of within-group inequality across education groups are persistent, while their temporal movements largely reflect common changes in the overall income distribution.

The occupation-based patterns among households with an employed head, reported in Figure 17, Panel (b), differ from those observed across education groups. During 2014–2017, mid-skilled households had the highest level of inequality, with Gini coefficients of approximately 0.35–0.38 and Theil indices of approximately 0.20–0.24 (Appendix Figure B.4.1, Panel (b)), compared with approximately 0.33–0.35 and 0.19–0.21, respectively, among high- and low-skilled households. From 2018 onward, the three series move much more closely together. By 2021, inequality reaches a common low across all three groups, at approximately 0.29–0.31, followed by a partial increase in 2022. Mid-skilled households have the lowest Gini coefficient in both 2023 and 2024, before the three groups converge closely again in 2025.

The contrast with education is noteworthy. Education groups maintain a persistent gap in the level of within-group inequality, on the order of several percentage points of Gini in most years, whereas the dispersion across occupation groups is smaller on average and, apart from a temporary widening in 2021–2022, trends toward convergence over the sample. This distinction is reflected more directly in the contribution of each dimension to aggregate inequality.

A Theil decomposition elucidates the sources of educational, occupational, and regional differences. Occupation is observed only for employed household heads, so the occupation decomposition covers households with an employed head, whereas the education decomposition covers all households with an education classification; the total GE(1) therefore differs between the two (Appendix Table B.4.1), and the shares are percentages of different totals. As in the regional and settlement-type decompositions, within-group inequality accounts for the predominant share of total inequality throughout the period. For education, the between-group component accounts for approximately 13–15% of total inequality from 2014 through 2022, before declining to approximately 8–10% in 2023–2025. Among households with an employed head, the occupation-

Figure 18: Theil Index Decomposition: Education and Occupation



Notes: The figure displays the decomposition of the national Theil GE(1) index into between-group and within-group components for each year from 2014 to 2025, estimated from the PIS (VNDN) microdata. Panel (a) partitions households by the education of the household head; Panel (b) partitions households with an employed head by the head's occupation. The between-group component (red) captures the share of total inequality associated with differences in mean income across groups; the within-group component (blue) captures inequality within each group, weighted by its income share. The two components sum to 100% in each year. See Appendix Table B.4.1 for numerical results.

based between-group share is approximately 10–14% through 2022, declining to approximately 7–10% in 2023–2025. For reference, differences in mean income across regions account for approximately 15–23% of total inequality over 2003–2023 (Section 4.2), and between urban and rural areas for 5–10% (Appendix B.3).

Overall, the decomposition yields a consistent result across dimensions: most income inequality remains *within* rather than *between* the groups defined by region, settlement type, education, or occupation. Among these partitions, regional differences account for the largest share of aggregate inequality throughout the period. Education and occupation account for a smaller share than region, but one that exceeds the urban–rural component throughout 2014–2023, with the gap narrowing after 2022. The relatively modest between-group components indicate that these observable characteristics capture only part of the dispersion in household income, with substantial inequality remaining among households sharing the same region, settlement type, education group, or occupational category. Between-group shares also depend on the number of groups in each partition (about 80 regions, compared with two settlement types and three education or occupation groups), and the regional and urban–rural shares are estimated from HBS (OBDH) over 2003–2023 whereas the education and occupation shares are estimated from PIS (VNDN) over 2014–2025, so the comparison across partitions is indicative rather than exact.

4.4 Household Characteristics and the Sources of Income Inequality

To examine the factors associated with differences in household income, we use regression-based variance decomposition developed by Fields (2003). The Fields framework expresses the variance of log per capita household income as additive contributions from observable household characteristics and region fixed effects. For each characteristic, the resulting share reflects its contribution to the explained variance. Following Fields (2003) and Shorrocks (1982), the Fields share of variable z is defined as

$$\hat{s}_z = \frac{\hat{\beta}_z \widehat{\mathrm{Cov}}(z, \ln y)}{\widehat{\mathrm{Var}}(\ln y)}, \tag{3}$$

so that $\sum_z \hat{s}_z = R^2$ and $1 - R^2$ is the unexplained residual share. In this accounting sense, variables with $\hat{s}_z > 0$ add to the dispersion of log income and those with $\hat{s}_z < 0$ offset it; the shares are not counterfactual effects on inequality.

We estimate the decomposition annually using PIS (VNDN) microdata for 2014–2025. The specification includes rural settlement, log household size, number of children, the

share of employed adults in the household (employed adults divided by all adults), an indicator for households with at least one pensioner, an indicator for a tertiary-educated head, an indicator for a high-skilled head, and the head's gender, together with region fixed effects. Point estimates for the remaining variables in each year are reported in Appendix Table B.5.1.

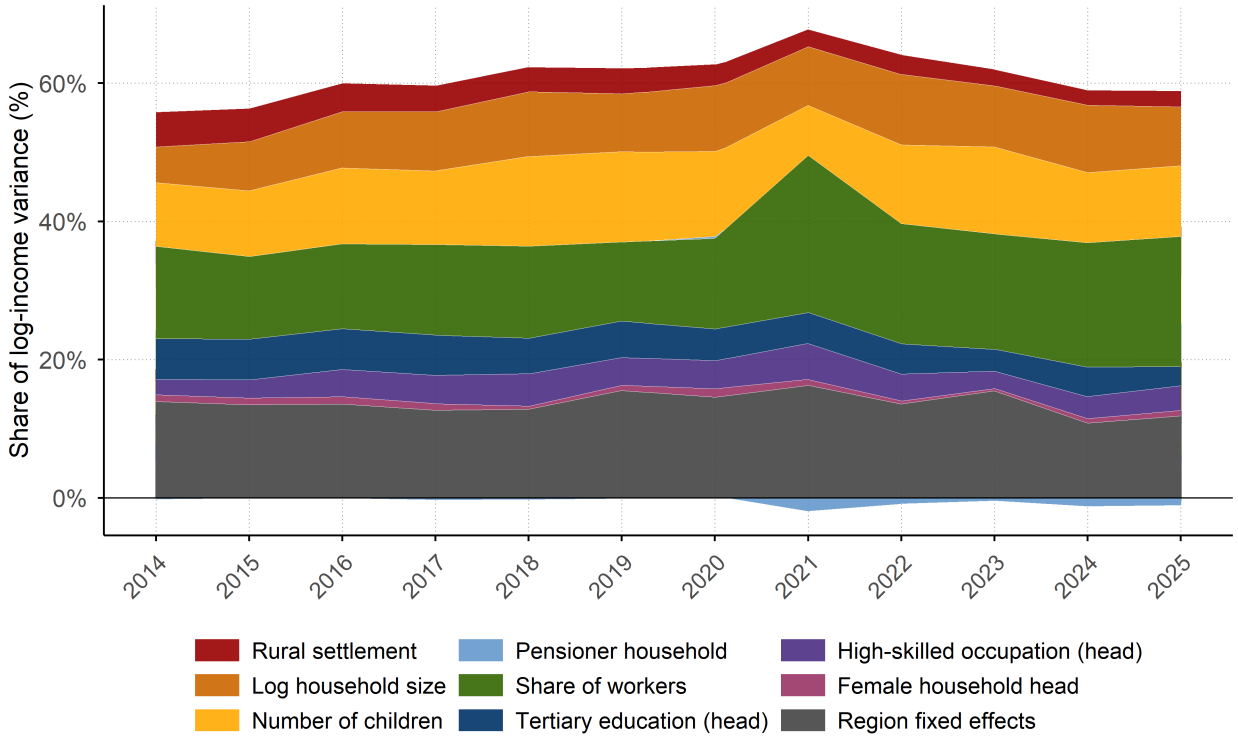
Figure 19 shows that the explanatory power of the specification rises over the first part of the sample and remains relatively high thereafter: R^2 increases from 55.6% in 2014 to a peak of 65.9% in 2021, before declining to approximately 58% by 2024–2025. Region fixed effects account for a substantial and somewhat variable share of total variance, ranging from 10.8% in 2024 to 16.3% in 2021. Labor-market attachment, measured by the share of employed adults, is the largest single component in 2017–2018 and 2021–2025, is exceeded by region fixed effects in 2014–2016 and 2019–2020, and is the largest individual household characteristic in every year except 2019. Its Fields share runs at roughly 11–13% from 2014 through 2020, then jumps to 22.7% in 2021, its highest value in the sample, before falling back to 17–19% over 2022–2025, still well above its pre-2021 level. This pattern coincides with the tightening labor-market conditions and changes in the earnings distribution documented elsewhere in this chapter, although the decomposition does not distinguish among the underlying mechanisms.

Household size and composition account for substantial shares of the variance of log per capita income: the contribution of log household size rises from 5.2% in 2014 to 8.4–10.2% from 2017 onward, while the number of children contributes between 7.3% in 2021, its lowest point, and 13.1% in 2019, exceeding the contribution of labor-market attachment only in 2019. Part of this reflects the per capita normalization rather than differences in household economic resources.[1] Both variables have positive shares in every year, which is consistent with this mechanical effect. Pensioner-household indicator (at least one pensioner) is close to zero through 2020, ranging from -0.3% to 0.2%, before turning consistently negative from 2021 onward, reaching a low of -1.9% that year and settling between -0.4% and -1.2% over 2022–2025. Its sign matches that of the social-transfer factor share in most years from 2021 in the income-source decomposition below (Section 4.5), although that decomposition covers all social transfers rather than pensions alone.

[1] Because the dependent variable is $\ln(Y/n)$, with Y total household income and n household size, household size has a negative coefficient whenever Y rises less than proportionally with n, so its Fields share is positive by construction. The number of children, which is closely correlated with household size, inherits part of this effect. As elsewhere in the chapter, we use per capita income without an equivalence scale, so these shares reflect how per capita income varies with household demographics rather than their contribution to inequality in household resources.

The contribution of settlement type declines fairly steadily over the sample: the rural indicator accounts for 5.1% and 4.8% of the variance in 2014 and 2015 but only 2.2–2.4% over 2023–2025. Conditional on the other characteristics in the model, the rural–urban distinction thus becomes a smaller component of income dispersion over time, in contrast to region fixed effects, whose contribution fluctuates without a clear trend, indicating that the broader geographic component of income differences is not primarily captured by the rural–urban divide.

Figure 19: Fields Decomposition of Log Per Capita Income Variance



Notes: The figure shows the Fields (2003) decomposition of the variance of log per capita household income into contributions of observable household characteristics and region fixed effects, estimated annually on PIS (VNDN) microdata using weighted least squares. Each shaded area represents the Fields share $\hat{s}_z = \hat{\beta}_z \widehat{\mathrm{Cov}}(z, \ln y) / \widehat{\mathrm{Var}}(\ln y)$; areas below the zero line indicate factors that offset the dispersion of log income. The residual $(1 - R^2)$ is excluded for clarity. Point estimates are reported in Appendix Table B.5.1.

Education and occupation make smaller contributions. A tertiary-educated head accounts for 5.8–5.9% of the variance in 2014–2017, falling to 2.8–4.5% over 2021–2025, and a high-skilled occupation of the head for 2.2–5.2% in every year. Both indicators contrast the top category with all other households, so they should not be read as educational or occupational gradients. Female household headship has a smaller but consistently positive contribution, ranging from 0.3% to 1.2%, with its highest values in 2020 and 2016.

Taken together, the patterns in Figure 19 show household labor-market attachment as the largest single component in seven of the twelve years (2017–2018 and 2021–2025) and region fixed effects as the largest in the other five (2014–2016 and 2019–2020). Household composition, particularly the number of children, contributes a further substantial share, exceeding labor-market attachment in 2019. These shares describe explained variance in this particular specification. Region fixed effects are a block of regional indicators whereas labor-market attachment is a single variable, and Fields shares depend on the set of regressors included, so they should not be read as a ranking of causes. Education and occupation contribute smaller, but non-negligible, shares throughout the period. The majority of the explained variance remains distributed across several characteristics rather than concentrated in a single dimension, while the residual share, ranging from 34.1% in 2021 to 44.4% in 2014, indicates that the observed characteristics account for only part of the cross-household variation in income.

4.5 Decomposition by Income Source

We next examine how different income sources contribute to the observed dispersion in household income using the factor decomposition of Shorrocks (1982). The approach decomposes the variance of total income into additive contributions from its components:

$$\mathrm{Var}(y) = \sum_k \mathrm{Cov}(y_k, y), \tag{4}$$

where $y = \sum_k y_k$ is total per capita income and y_k is the k-th income component, which yields factor share

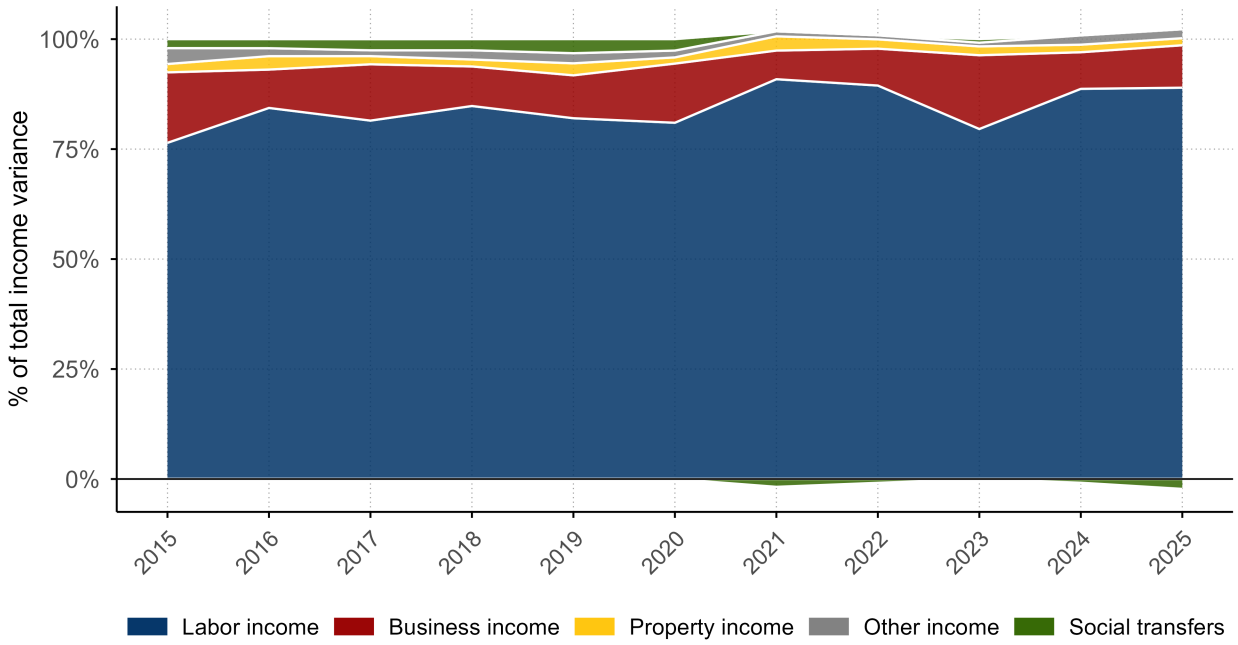
$$S_k = \frac{\mathrm{Cov}(y_k, y)}{\mathrm{Var}(y)}, \tag{5}$$

A positive share means that the component covaries positively with total income and so adds to its variance; a negative share means that it offsets that variance. These shares quantify each income component's contribution to the variance of total per capita income.

Our analysis uses PIS (VNDN)'s income concept and covers 2015–2025. Before examining the distributional contributions of individual sources, we compare the composition of PIS (VNDN) income with the corresponding aggregate Rosstat series documented in Figure 2. Labor income, consisting of wages and salaries, accounts for 69.6–75.2% of household income in PIS (VNDN) over 2015–2025, while business income contributes a further 4.1–6.9%. Together, these sources account for approximately 74–81% of PIS

(VNDN) household income, compared with 60–65% for the corresponding categories in the Rosstat aggregate. Social transfers account for 16.1–24.1% in PIS (VNDN), a range comparable to, though somewhat wider than, the 16–22% reported by Rosstat, while property and other income together account for 1.9–2.8%, compared with a considerably larger share in the aggregate series (property income alone rose from below 6% to 11.0% by 2025; Section 3.1). These differences reflect the distinct income concepts and coverage of the two sources, but their broad composition is sufficiently similar to provide a useful basis for the micro-level decomposition.

Figure 20: Shorrocks Factor Shares of Income Variance



Notes: The figure plots the Shorrocks (1982) factor decomposition of total per capita cash income variance, estimated annually from PIS (VNDN) microdata. The factor share of component k is defined as $S_k = \widehat{\mathrm{Cov}}(y_k, y)/\widehat{\mathrm{Var}}(y)$, where y is total per capita cash income and y_k is the income component; shares sum to 100% by construction. Positive shares (above the zero line) indicate components that add to the variance of total income, and negative shares (below the zero line) components that offset it. Numerical results are reported in Appendix Table B.6.1.

Figure 20 reports factor shares for 2015–2025. The decomposition accounts, year by year, for the variance of per capita cash income by income source, distinguishing sources that are positively associated with total income from those that are negatively associated with it. It is a cross-sectional accounting of the level of dispersion in each year, based on the PIS (VNDN) income concept; it is not a decomposition of changes in inequality over time. Full results of the decomposition are reported in Appendix Table B.6.1. The income-source decomposition complements the preceding analysis by de-

scribing the composition of income dispersion in each year. The dominant contribution of labor income reflects its large share in total income and its close positive association with household income, accounting for 76–91% of total income variance in every year; business income contributes a further 6.5–16.8%. Together, labor and business income account for 92–99% of total income variance throughout the period, leaving little room for the remaining sources. Social transfers differ from the other sources. Throughout 2015–2025 their factor share is far below their income share (for example, 2.0–3.2% of variance against roughly 20% of income in 2015–2020), so transfers are equalizing in relative terms in every year, including before 2021. In absolute terms their factor share is positive through 2020 (2.0–3.2%) and from 2021 onward is negative in four of five years (-1.8% in 2021, -0.9% in 2022, -0.8% in 2024, and -2.2% in 2025) and positive in 2023 (0.8%). The shift to negative values therefore means that transfers become negatively correlated with total per capita income, offsetting part of its variance. The size of this contribution does not grow steadily: it weakens after 2021 and returns to -2.2% in 2025, close to its 2021 value, while the income share of transfers falls from 24.1% to 16.1%.

These results describe the composition of income dispersion but do not by themselves explain the movements of the Gini. The national Gini follows a rise–plateau–rebound pattern: inequality increased sharply during the early transition, rose further during the 2000s to a first peak in 2007, remained relatively stable through 2019, declined during 2020–2022 as social transfers expanded, and increased again thereafter, returning to approximately its 2007 level by 2025. The transfer factor share is negative in 2021 and 2022, during the decline in the Rosstat Gini, and positive in 2023, when the Rosstat Gini begins to rise, but it is negative again in 2024 and 2025, when the Gini continues to rise. The labor-income share of variance is highest in 2021 (90.9%), during the decline, and lowest of the post-2020 years in 2023 (79.6%), when the Gini begins to rise, so labor's importance for the level of dispersion is not specific to the years of rising inequality. Furthermore, the factor shares allocate the variance of PIS per capita cash income within each year; they are not a decomposition of changes in the Rosstat Gini, which rests on a different income concept (Section 2). We therefore treat the timing as a descriptive association. Attributing the 2020–2022 decline to transfers and the subsequent increase to wages would require a decomposition of changes in inequality or a counterfactual comparison, which we do not undertake. The magnitude of these changes depends, however, on the data source used to measure inequality. Survey-based estimates differ by as much as 0.08 Gini points at a given point in time, a difference comparable to a decade of measured change. From 2012 on, HBS (OBDH) produces the highest estimates among the four surveys, and the official Rosstat series lies above the survey-based

estimates from the mid-2010s, while RLMS-HSE, PIS (VNDN), and CSLCP (KNUZH) produce lower values. Estimates based on household surveys also remain below measures that incorporate tax and wealth data, consistent with the limited representation of top incomes in conventional household surveys.

In sum, inequality in Russia is predominantly a within-group rather than a between-group phenomenon. Differences in mean income across regions account for 15–23% of total inequality and differences between urban and rural areas for only 5–10%, so that most income dispersion arises among individuals living in the same region and the same type of locality, rather than between them. Differences in mean income by the household head's education and occupation are of the same order of magnitude as the geographic shares (a descriptive comparison only, since these shares come from different surveys and periods and from partitions with different numbers of groups): their between-group shares run at roughly 13–15% and 10–14%, respectively, through 2022, before both narrow to about 7–10% by 2023–2025.

The Theil, Fields, and Shorrocks decompositions answer different questions and do not share a common scale, so we compare magnitudes within each decomposition rather than ranking labor against geography across them. The Fields decomposition allocates the variance of log per capita income to observable household characteristics and region fixed effects, with shares that sum to R^2. Within it, household labor-market attachment is the largest single component in seven of twelve years and region fixed effects in the other five, and household composition (household size and the number of children) is at times comparable to labor-market attachment. The Shorrocks decomposition instead allocates the variance of per capita cash income in levels to income sources rather than to household characteristics. Within it, labor and business income together account for 92–99% of the variance, compared with a weight of 74–81% in total income, because their share of income is higher among higher-income households; social transfers are the only source whose factor share turns negative, in most years from 2021 onward, although this contribution is small and does not grow steadily. Russian income inequality is thus highly sensitive to the choice of underlying data source and, among the observable characteristics considered, is associated most closely with regional heterogeneity, household labor-market attachment, and household composition, with the household head's education and occupation accounting for smaller shares.

5 Intergenerational Mobility

This section reviews the literature on intergenerational mobility (IGM) in Russia, which has mostly examined children who came of age during or after the transition to a market economy, while their parents were shaped by the Soviet system.[1] A key contextual backdrop is the dramatic transformation brought by the collapse of central planning: declining output, rising unemployment, a sharp rise in income inequality (Gerber and Hout 1998), and deep shifts in both the educational and occupational structure of the workforce. On the educational side, the number of university students in Russia roughly tripled between 1995/96 and 2009/10, even as vocational enrollment fell (Roshchina 2012). On the occupational side, the service sector expanded while the industrial working class contracted (Bessudnov 2016). These structural shifts are central to interpreting the mobility patterns documented in this literature.

Educational mobility. Roshchina (2012), using RLMS-HSE data (2006–2011) and pooled cohorts born between 1946 and 1990, finds that children's educational attainment depends substantially on parental education and that this dependence intensified for the youngest cohort (born 1976–1990) relative to older cohorts, with low parental education and rural origins representing the most significant barriers to educational opportunity. Butaeva et al. (2026), studying cohorts born between 1978 and 1997 using Markov chain methods with three educational classes (below secondary, secondary, and tertiary), find that overall educational mobility in Russia — measured as the probability that a child ends up in a different educational class than their parent — is 45–46%, driven almost entirely by increased college attendance rather than movement across other class boundaries. Importantly, approximately 57–68% of this overall educational mobility is attributable to structural change — shifts in the marginal distributions of parental and children's education across the three classes — with the remainder reflecting exchange mobility. Once structural change vanishes along synthetic dynasties, that is, along successive generations obtained by iterating the estimated Markov chain, Russia's educational steady-state mobility, which captures the probability of changing educational class intrinsic to the transmission process once the class distribution has stabilized, stands at

[1] Historical roots of Russia's mobility patterns have also been studied further back, using surname-based methods that sidestep the absence of linked individual data. Eeckhout et al. (2026) follow 98 Tsarist-era elite surname lists across 221 post-revolution status outcomes (1914–2024) and estimate an intergenerational elite persistence rate of ≈ 0.55 — lower than the 0.7–0.8 typical of stable regimes, but high given the scale of repression and regime change, with the sharpest decline concentrated in 1917–1945 and driven by selective survival rather than an immediate post-revolutionary reset. This finding fits within a broader "deep roots" perspective on Russian economic history, which emphasizes the persistence of pre-revolutionary structures and institutions well into the Soviet and post-Soviet periods (Zhuravskaya et al. 2024).

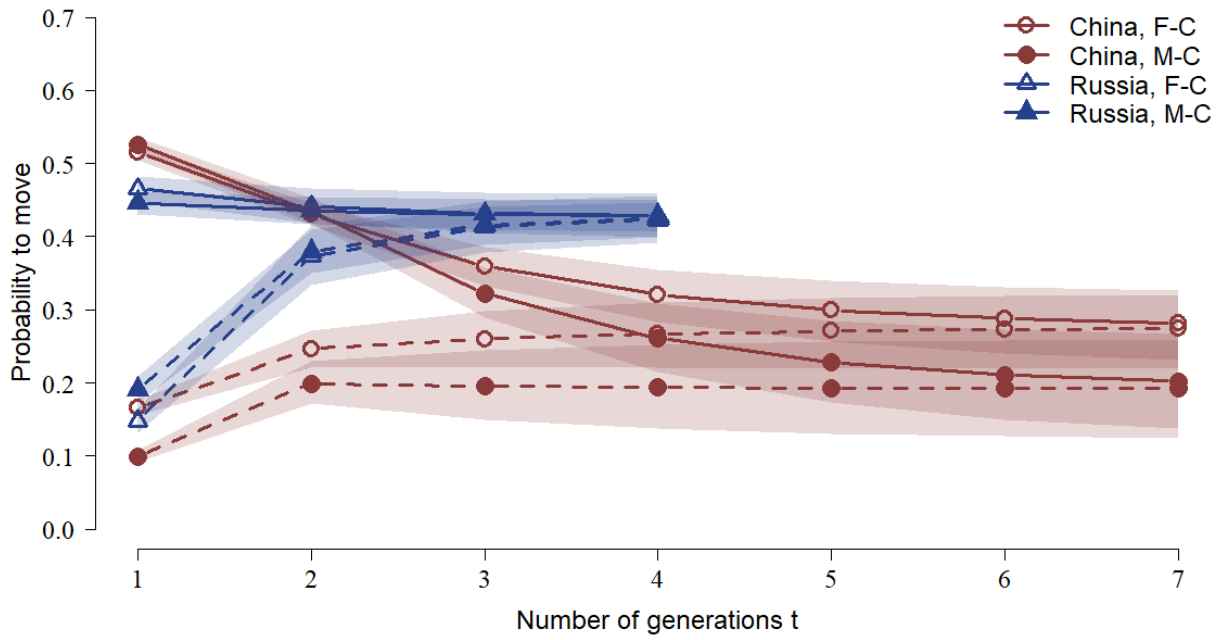
around 42%. Figure 21 illustrates this decomposition: overall mobility (solid line) and exchange mobility (dashed line) converge as the number of generations increases, with the vertical gap between them at any point representing structural mobility; steady-state mobility corresponds to the level of mobility that persists once this gap has closed and the class distribution has fully stabilized.

Educational and occupational mobility. Gerber and Hout (2004) provide the most direct comparison of occupational mobility before and after the transition, combining three pre-transition and three post-transition surveys totaling over 10,000 observations. They find that the transition *tightened* the association between social origins and occupational destinations (relative mobility): as high-status jobs became scarcer and pay gaps widened, social origins became more consequential for occupational attainment, while in absolute terms fewer workers experienced upward mobility and more experienced downward mobility. Workers who had experienced the greatest upward mobility under the Soviet system tended to fall furthest during the transition, reinforcing the intergenerational reproduction of class position. Gugushvili (2017), drawing on the European Values Study (2008–2009) across 24 post-communist societies including Russia, finds that social origins — and parental education in particular — play a decisive role in predicting both educational and occupational attainment of post-Soviet cohorts. The disadvantage associated with low parental education and working-class origins intensified after the transition, while the advantage of high parental education declined. Importantly, no systematic discontinuity in mobility is observed at the moment of transition itself, suggesting that pre-existing Soviet-era disparities account for much of the cross-country variation.

Yastrebov (2016) revisits the question using four repeated cross-sectional surveys (1994, 2002, 2006, and 2013), from which he constructs four cohorts, two Soviet and two post-Soviet, and estimates log-linear models of relative mobility (the origin–destination association net of changes in the marginal distributions) for both education and occupation. For occupation, he finds that the association between parental and children's class is invariant across Soviet and post-Soviet cohorts, a result at odds with the stronger origin–destination association reported in Gerber and Hout (2004). For education, the association between parental and child attainment, if anything, weakens in the post-Soviet period. Maleva et al. (2016), focusing on the Russian middle class using a 2013 RANEPA survey of 56 regions, find that middle-class individuals' opportunities were substantially constrained by the high socioeconomic position of their parents, with the so-called proto-middle stratum (households just below the middle-class threshold) showing negative occupational mobility relative to the previous generation. By ages 35–44, however, respondents were considerably better educated than their parents, and a composite in-

tergenerational mobility index that combines educational, occupational, consumption, and material well-being dimensions showed a modest positive trend overall.

Figure 21: Overall, Structural, and Exchange Educational Mobility in Russia and China

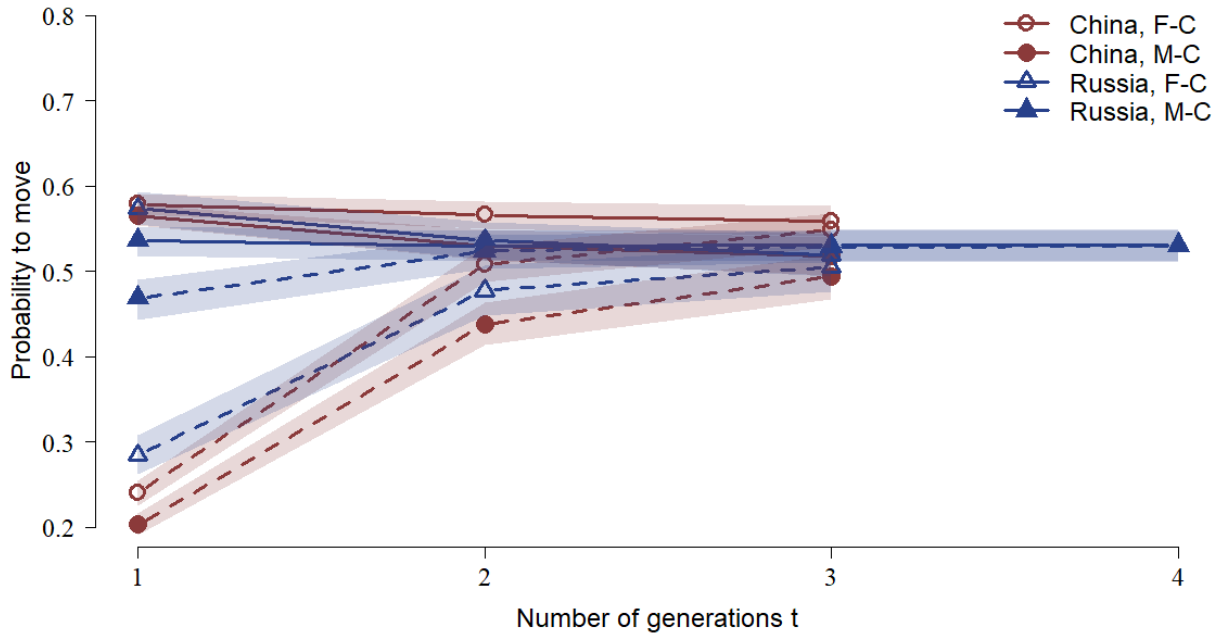


Notes: The solid line denotes overall mobility OM^t, the dashed line exchange mobility EM^t; the vertical distance between them is structural mobility SM^t. The two lines converge as the number of generations increases; steady-state mobility SSM is their common limit, obtained by iterating the estimated transition matrix until the marginal distribution stabilizes. F-C and M-C denote the father-to-child and mother-to-child samples, respectively. Shaded areas are 95% CIs from 1,000 bootstrap replications. Reproduced from Butaeva et al. (2026).

Occupational mobility. Bessudnov (2016), employing several data sources including RLMS-HSE (1994–2010) and an ISEI-based occupational status index, finds a statistically significant effect of parental occupational status on respondents' occupational status and earnings even after controlling for education. The estimated coefficient on parental ISEI is 0.11, comparable to European levels despite Russia's distinct institutional history. Importantly, Bessudnov (2016) finds no significant time trend in this association, contradicting the tightening result of Gerber and Hout (2004) but in line with the occupational invariance reported in Yastrebov (2016). Wage returns to education rose during the 1990s and stabilized in the 2000s (Lukyanova 2010), while occupational returns to higher education declined as the supply of graduates outpaced demand (Bessudnov 2016). Butaeva et al. (2026), using a three-class occupational structure (low-skilled, mid-skilled, and high-skilled), find that overall occupational mobility in Russia — measured as the probability that a child ends up in a different occupational class than their parent — is 54–

57% for the transition-era cohort. Figure 22 plots the corresponding overall, structural, and exchange mobility curves. A striking asymmetry emerges between the father-to-child and mother-to-child samples. In the father-to-child sample, around 50% of overall occupational mobility is attributable to structural change: the collapse of the centrally planned economy led to a sharp contraction of the industrial sector, pushing children of fathers employed in manufacturing into different occupational classes regardless of the intergenerational transmission process. In the mother-to-child sample, structural mobility accounts for only around 13% of overall occupational shifts. This is consistent with the distinctive position of Soviet-era women, who were already concentrated in relatively high occupational positions — professional, semi-professional, and white-collar work — leaving less scope for movement driven by changes in the marginal class distributions; most of the observed cross-class movement in the mother-to-child sample is exchange mobility.

Figure 22: Overall, Structural, and Exchange Occupational Mobility in Russia and China



Notes: The solid line denotes overall mobility OM^t, the dashed line exchange mobility EM^t; the vertical distance between them is structural mobility SM^t. The two lines converge as the number of generations increases; steady-state mobility SSM is their common limit, obtained by iterating the estimated transition matrix until the marginal distribution stabilizes. F-C and M-C denote the father-to-child and mother-to-child samples, respectively. Shaded areas are 95% CIs from 1,000 bootstrap replications. Reproduced from Butaeva et al. (2026).

Income mobility. Borisov and Pissarides (2020) provide the most direct evidence on income IGM in Russia using RLMS-HSE (1994–2016). Their preferred measure — the

decile rank correlation between parents' and children's permanent income — is approximately 0.35, higher than in the Nordic countries (around 0.2) but comparable to the United States, the United Kingdom, and France (around 0.4). Sons earn more than daughters conditional on parental rank and education. Both observable household characteristics and unobservable factors contribute roughly equally to the intergenerational correlation, each contributing more than education alone.

Taken together, the literature points to one robust conclusion and one unresolved question. The robust conclusion is that parental background—whether measured by education, occupation, or income—is significantly and persistently associated with children's outcomes in Russia among post-Soviet cohorts. An unresolved question is whether the transition changed the strength of that association, and here the evidence is mixed and depends on the outcome and the estimand. For occupation, Gerber and Hout (2004) find that the origin–destination association (relative mobility) tightened with the transition, alongside fewer upward moves in absolute terms, whereas Yastrebov (2016) and Bessudnov (2016) find no change in the occupational association over the 1990s–2010s. For education, Roshchina (2012) find that the dependence of children's attainment on parental education intensified for the youngest cohort (born 1976–1990), whereas Yastrebov (2016) finds, if anything, a weakening of that association in the post-Soviet period. These studies differ in data (repeated cross-sections versus the RLMS-HSE), in how cohorts and periods are defined, and in the mobility measure (log-linear association versus attainment regressions), so we do not treat them as measuring the same quantity or claim that the window covered alone reconciles them. The estimates of Butaeva et al. (2026) concern the level and composition of mobility rather than its trend, and so do not bear on this question.

6 Conclusion

This chapter documents changes in income and inequality in Russia since the collapse of the Soviet Union, drawing on official statistics and household survey microdata. We draw several general conclusions.

First, there are important similarities and differences between the inequality found in official statistics versus independent surveys. According to official statistics, the Russian Gini coefficient consistently grew through 2007, stabilized through 2019, declined during 2020–2022, and returned to approximately its 2007 level by 2025. By contrast, our estimates from household survey microdata, constructed using harmonized measurement conventions, generally show a substantial decline in inequality since the early 2000s.

Further, even under harmonized measurement conventions, estimates for the same year differ by as much as 0.08 Gini across surveys (HBS (OBDH) versus CSLCP (KNUZH) in 2020 and 2022), a gap comparable to a decade of measured change within a single survey. But the highest of our survey-based estimates remains well below estimates in the literature that adjust for the underrepresentation of top incomes. Estimates incorporating tax and wealth data generally indicate higher inequality, consistent with the underrepresentation of top incomes in household surveys (Novokmet et al. 2018a,b).

Second, inequality in Russia is largely associated with differences within rather than between groups. Differences in mean income account for 15–23% of inequality across regions, 5–10% across urban and rural areas, and approximately 7–15% across education and occupation groups. Using regression-based decompositions, household labor-market attachment, region, and household composition account for the largest shares of explained variance in log income, while education and occupation play smaller roles. Labor income explains most of the variance in per capita money income. Social transfers act to mitigate these differences, especially after 2021, but this contribution is small.

Third, post-Soviet Russia exhibits substantial intergenerational mobility, but this is largely due to the consequences of the historical disruptions experienced by the society. Implicit in high levels of observed mobility is a process whose mobility is not qualitatively different from the United States, for example.

Our findings highlight the importance of measurement choices in empirical claims about inequality and intergenerational mobility in Russia. Harmonizing measurement conventions across surveys reduces differences attributable to analytical choices, but the remaining gaps may reflect differences in sampling frames, fieldwork, and income concepts that our analysis cannot address. However, Kapeliushnikov (2020) and Kuzin and Surinov (2025) argue that Rosstat's estimation methodology may also explain part of the gap between official and survey-based series.

In summary, knowledge of the contours of Russian inequality, across individuals, groups, time, and generations has progressed, but deep data limitations have limited its extent. Hence, basic measurement questions will remain central to the study of Russian inequality as data access and quality evolve across time, just as methodological advances in inequality measurement will enrich what existing data can reveal.

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Appendix

A Income Dynamics in Russia

This appendix reports the full numerical results underlying the analysis of household income levels in Section 3: the national income series (Section 3.1) and the regional and purchasing-power-adjusted income comparisons (Section 3.2).

A.1 National Income Series

Table A.1.1: Nominal and Real Income Series

Year	Nominal (rubles per month)			Official exchange rate	Real index (1991 = 100)			
	Income	Wage	Pension	(RUB per USD)	Disposable income	Wage	Pension	GDP
1991	0.5	0.5	0.2		100.00	100.00	100.00	100.00
1992	4.0	6.0	1.6	0.3	52.50	67.30	51.90	85.50
1993	45.3	58.7	19.9	0.9	61.11	67.57	67.83	78.06
1994	206.6	220.4	78.5	2.2	68.99	62.23	65.66	68.23
1995	515.9	472.4	188.1	4.6	58.62	44.81	52.86	65.43
1996	769.5	790.2	302.2	5.1	58.97	47.67	57.46	63.07
1997	940.6	950.2	328.1	5.8	62.37	49.91	54.35	63.94
1998	1,010.2	1,051.0	399.0	9.7	52.47	43.28	51.75	60.52
1999	1,658.9	1,523.0	449.0	24.6	46.00	33.76	31.36	64.37
2000	2,281.1	2,223.0	694.3	28.1	51.54	40.81	40.14	70.83
2001	3,062.0	3,240.0	1,023.5	29.2	56.04	48.93	48.73	74.44
2002	3,947.2	4,360.0	1,378.5	31.3	62.28	56.86	56.67	77.97
2003	5,167.4	5,499.0	1,637.0	30.7	71.65	63.06	59.22	83.66
2004	6,399.0	6,740.0	1,914.5	28.8	79.10	69.74	62.48	89.66
2005	8,088.3	8,555.0	2,364.0	28.3	88.92	78.53	68.48	95.38
2006	10,154.8	10,634.0	2,726.1	27.2	100.89	88.97	71.97	103.15
2007	12,540.2	13,593.0	3,115.5	25.6	113.11	104.27	75.42	111.96
2008	14,863.6	17,290.0	4,198.6	24.9	115.82	116.27	89.07	117.83
2009	16,895.0	18,637.5	5,191.1	31.7	119.30	112.20	98.60	108.62
2010	18,958.4	20,952.2	7,476.3	30.4	126.34	118.03	132.92	113.51
2011	20,772.0	23,369.2	8,202.9	29.4	126.97	121.34	134.51	118.35
2012	23,193.0	26,628.9	9,040.5	30.8	132.81	131.53	141.1	123.11
2013	25,631.0	29,792.0	9,917.5	31.8	138.12	137.84	144.98	125.27
2014	27,333.0	32,495.4	10,786.1	38.4	136.46	139.44	148.24	126.20
2015	30,139.7	34,030.0	11,986.0	60.9	133.19	126.89	140.69	123.71
2016	30,717.0	36,709.0	12,391.1	67.1	127.21	127.87	135.9	123.95
2017	31,713.8	39,167.0	12,887.0	58.3	126.54	131.60	136.31	126.21
2018	33,138.2	43,724.0	13,360.2	62.7	127.40	142.81	137.4	129.75
2019	35,233.1	47,867.0	14,163.4	64.7	128.91	149.66	139.46	132.60
2020	35,933.6	51,344.0	14,985.5	72.1	126.38	155.34	142.67	129.09
2021	39,933.8	57,244.0	16,641.5	73.7	130.53	162.33	148.52	136.66
2022	47,385.5	65,338.0	17,824.7	68.5	136.45	162.88	147.18	134.70
2023	53,579.0	74,854.0	19,489.7	85.2	144.79	176.24	152.04	140.17
2024	63,959.0	89,069.0	20,963.8	92.6	156.66	193.34	150.82	147.07
2025	74,932.0	101,784.0	23,424.8	83.6	168.25	203.39	155.05	148.55

Notes: Columns 2–4 report average per capita money income, the gross average wages, and the average pension, all in current rubles per month; figures prior to 1998 are expressed in post-1998 (redenominated) rubles to preserve continuity across the 1998 currency redenomination. Column 5 reports the average annual official ruble/US dollar exchange rate. Columns 6–9 report real indices, normalized to 1991 = 100; column 6 reports real *disposable* income, defined as money income net of mandatory payments (taxes and social contributions). Source: Rosstat, https://rosstat.gov.ru/folder/10705; IMF Data, https://data.imf.org/en.

A.2 Spatial Heterogeneity in Income Levels

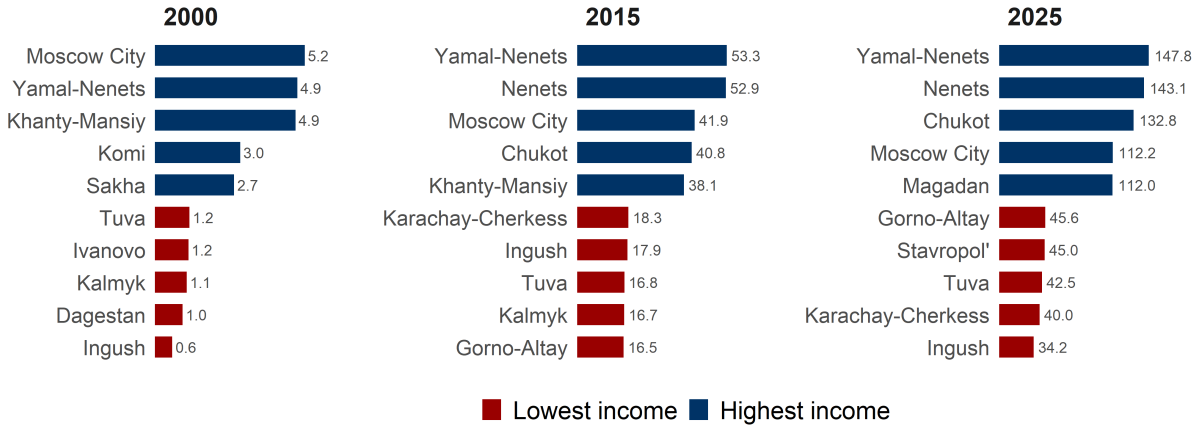
Table A.2.1: Regional inequality

Year	Rosstat					HBS				
	Income		Income, PPP		Gini	Income		Income, PPP		Gini
	CV	Gini	CV	Gini	CV	CV	Gini	CV	Gini	CV
1995	0.686	0.283	0.408	0.186	0.245					
1996	0.723	0.288	0.431	0.188	0.220					
1997	0.726	0.287	0.433	0.187	0.189					
1998	0.765	0.303	0.463	0.200	0.203					
1999	0.770	0.302	0.464	0.197	0.200					
2000	0.760	0.304	0.460	0.202	0.193					
2001	0.739	0.299	0.446	0.198	0.181					
2002	0.683	0.283	0.401	0.183	0.174					
2003	0.705	0.293	0.419	0.193	0.165	0.441	0.211	0.233	0.125	0.106
2004	0.707	0.295	0.426	0.196	0.153	0.409	0.204	0.213	0.118	0.105
2005	0.641	0.281	0.394	0.192	0.143	0.408	0.204	0.228	0.127	0.103
2006	0.590	0.262	0.353	0.175	0.130	0.381	0.195	0.223	0.125	0.121
2007	0.558	0.253	0.335	0.169	0.118	0.349	0.181	0.209	0.116	0.117
2008	0.431	0.207	0.252	0.135	0.094	0.330	0.172	0.197	0.112	0.114
2009	0.473	0.220	0.283	0.146	0.096	0.363	0.181	0.215	0.118	0.111
2010	0.452	0.210	0.263	0.137	0.089	0.344	0.177	0.207	0.113	0.108
2011	0.438	0.205	0.257	0.135	0.082	0.321	0.169	0.196	0.108	0.132
2012	0.403	0.194	0.231	0.125	0.073	0.333	0.174	0.206	0.114	0.120
2013	0.422	0.199	0.239	0.128	0.078	0.345	0.176	0.208	0.113	0.116
2014	0.376	0.182	0.213	0.115	0.065	0.314	0.164	0.194	0.106	0.127
2015	0.365	0.181	0.200	0.112	0.060	0.312	0.162	0.181	0.100	0.120
2016	0.376	0.187	0.210	0.116	0.059	0.310	0.159	0.177	0.098	0.101
2017	0.388	0.190	0.212	0.115	0.056	0.292	0.153	0.168	0.092	0.114
2018	0.404	0.197	0.227	0.123	0.056	0.305	0.158	0.174	0.095	0.112
2019	0.414	0.201	0.234	0.127	0.060	0.337	0.169	0.184	0.102	0.123
2020	0.418	0.201	0.240	0.126	0.062	0.299	0.157	0.170	0.094	0.130
2021	0.433	0.208	0.256	0.135	0.063	0.316	0.162	0.182	0.100	0.103
2022	0.426	0.203	0.252	0.132	0.063	0.311	0.162	0.183	0.102	0.115
2023	0.437	0.208	0.255	0.133	0.061	0.322	0.163	0.176	0.099	0.126
2024	0.450	0.214	0.255	0.135	0.066					
2025	0.446	0.214	0.252	0.133	0.065					

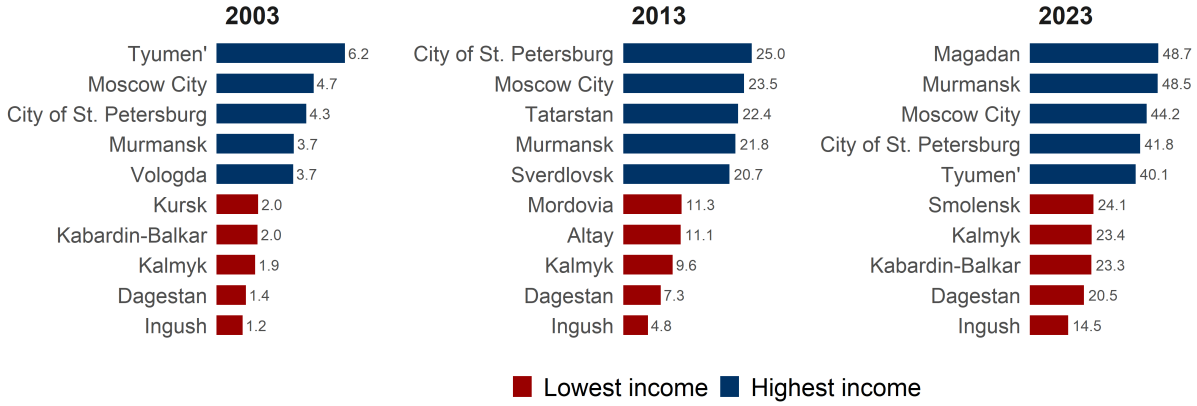
Notes: The table reports the coefficients of variation (CV) and Gini coefficients for nominal per capita income and purchasing-power-parity (PPP)-adjusted per capita income, as well as the coefficient of variation across regional Gini coefficients calculated separately using Rosstat and HBS data. The Rosstat estimates are based on a balanced panel of 82 regions, excluding the Chechen Republic, the Republic of Crimea, and the city of Sevastopol. The HBS estimates cover 79 regions because the survey reports data for the Arkhangelsk and Tyumen regions as a whole, without separate observations for their respective autonomous okrugs. Source: Rosstat, https://rosstat.gov.ru/folder/10705.

Figure A.2.1: Russian Regions with the Highest and Lowest Price-Adjusted Per Capita Income

(a) Rosstat, Price-Adjusted Per Capita Income, 2000–2025



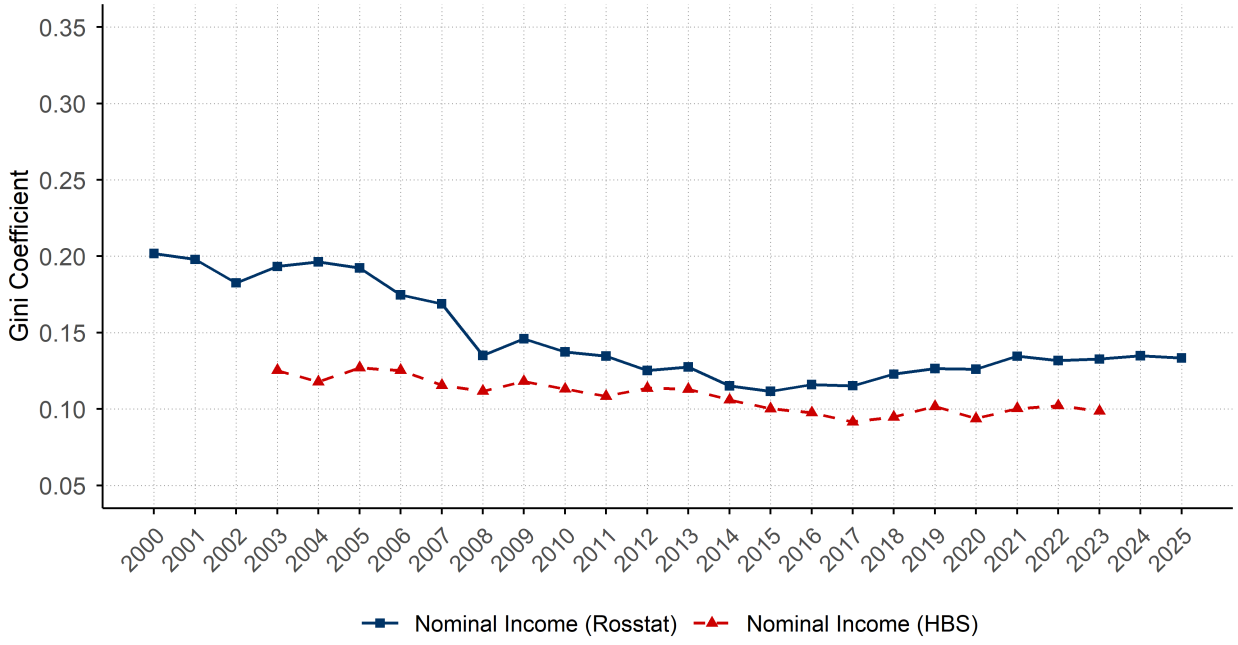
(b) HBS (OBDH), Price-Adjusted Mean Per Capita Income, 2003–2023



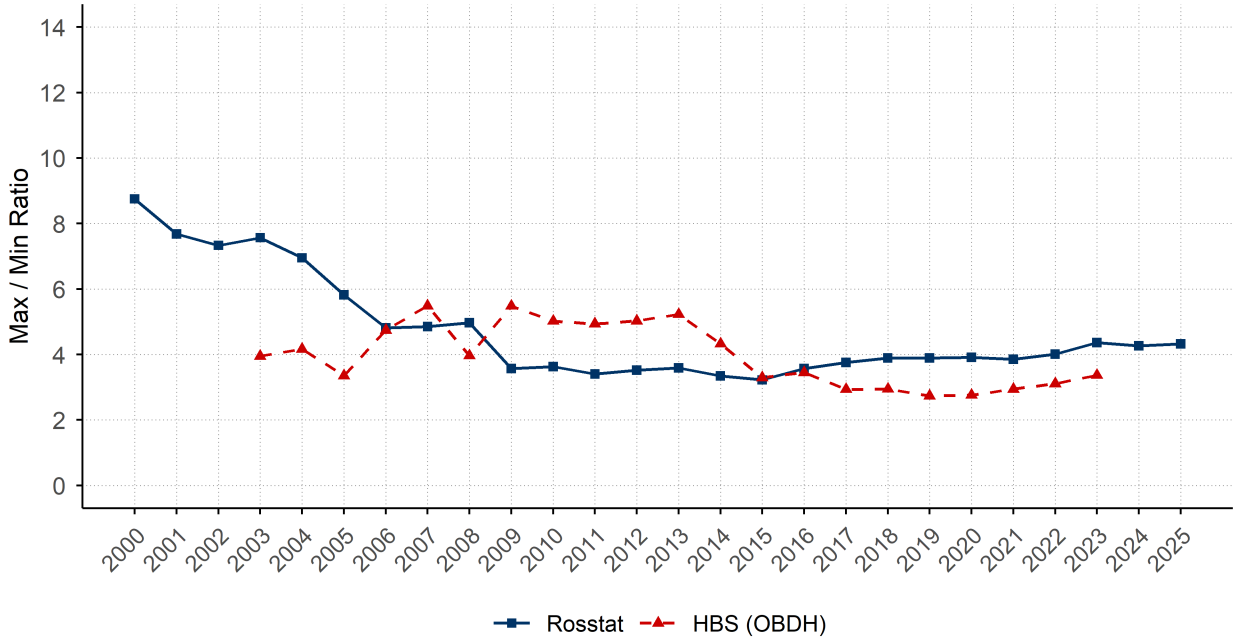
Notes: Panel (a) reports the five regions with the highest and the five with the lowest per capita monetary income from Rosstat (Official Statistics, https://rosstat.gov.ru/folder/10705) in three selected years; Panel (b) reports the corresponding ranking based on weighted mean per capita monetary income from HBS (OBDH) microdata in three selected years. Both panels adjust income for regional price levels using Rosstat's regional cost-of-basket price index (Section 3.2), and report income in thousand rubles per month. See Figure 3 for the corresponding nominal series.

Figure A.2.2: Regional Income Inequality in Russia: Price-Adjusted

(a) Gini Coefficient



(b) Maximum-to-Minimum Ratio



Notes: Panel (a) reports population-weighted Gini coefficients for purchasing-power-adjusted per capita regional income; panel (b) reports the ratio of purchasing-power-adjusted per capita income in the highest-income and lowest-income regions. Both panels are estimated from Rosstat (Official Statistics, https://rosstat.gov.ru/folder/10705) regional statistics, 2000–2025, and HBS (OBDH) microdata aggregated to the regional level, 2003–2023, each adjusted using Rosstat's regional cost-of-basket price index (Section 3.2). See Figure 5 for the corresponding nominal series.

A.3 Urban–Rural Income Levels

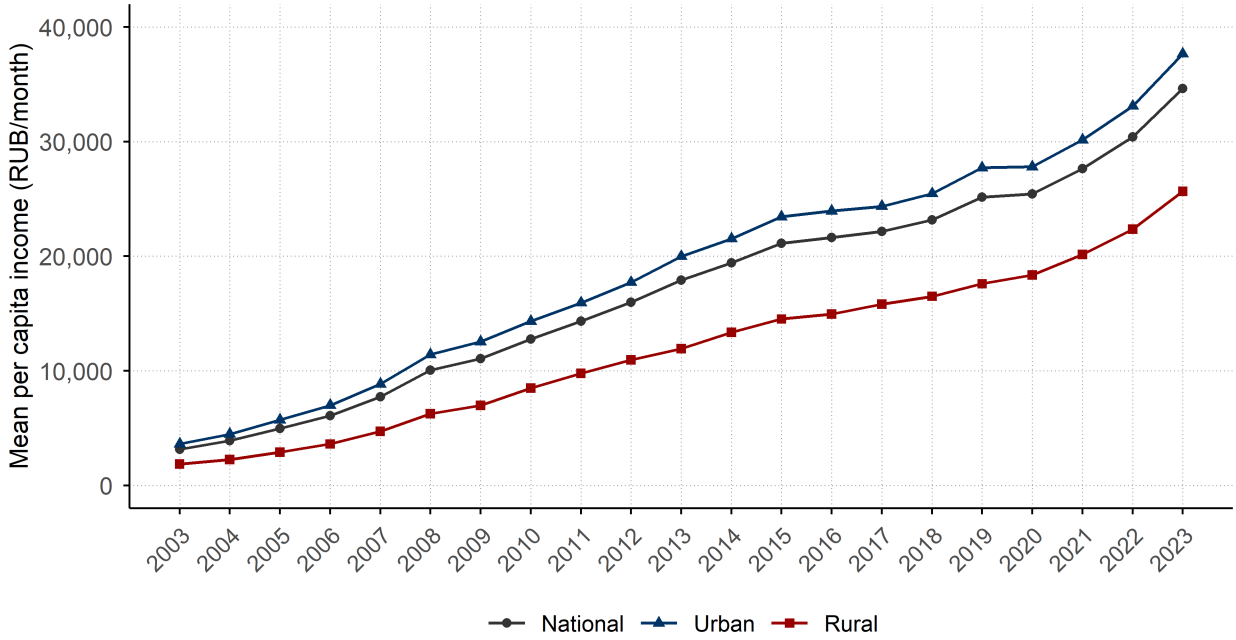
Regional averages conceal substantial within-region heterogeneity: a region may combine high average income with a sharp urban–rural gap, while a poorer region may contain dynamic cities of its own. Research on Russia shows that spatial inequality extends well beyond the interregional dimension documented in Section 3.2, with urban and rural areas following distinct income and poverty trajectories and a rural disadvantage that widened during the 2000s (Gerry et al. 2008; Wegren 2014) before reversing after 2008 (Rudenko and Satre 2026). The ratio of mean incomes in HBS reported below, however, already declines from 2004 onward.

Figure A.3.1 reports the gap in mean per capita income between urban and rural households.[1] Nominal mean per capita income grew substantially in both groups over the two decades covered by our data, and the absolute urban–rural gap widened considerably as a result, from roughly 1,750 rubles per month in 2003 to about 12,000 in 2023. The relative gap moved in the opposite direction: as Panel (b) shows, the urban–rural income ratio rose from about 1.94 in 2003 to a peak of roughly 1.98 in 2004, then declined over most of the period, with brief reversals in 2013 and 2019, reaching approximately 1.47–1.48 by 2022–2023. By the end of the period, urban households earned on average 47% more per capita than rural ones. The widening gap in current rubles together with a narrowing ratio reflects faster proportional income growth in rural areas from a lower base: between 2003 and 2023, nominal mean income rose about 14-fold in rural areas and about 10-fold in urban areas. Within-group inequality also declined in both sectors (Appendix B.3), although rural households remained poorer on average.

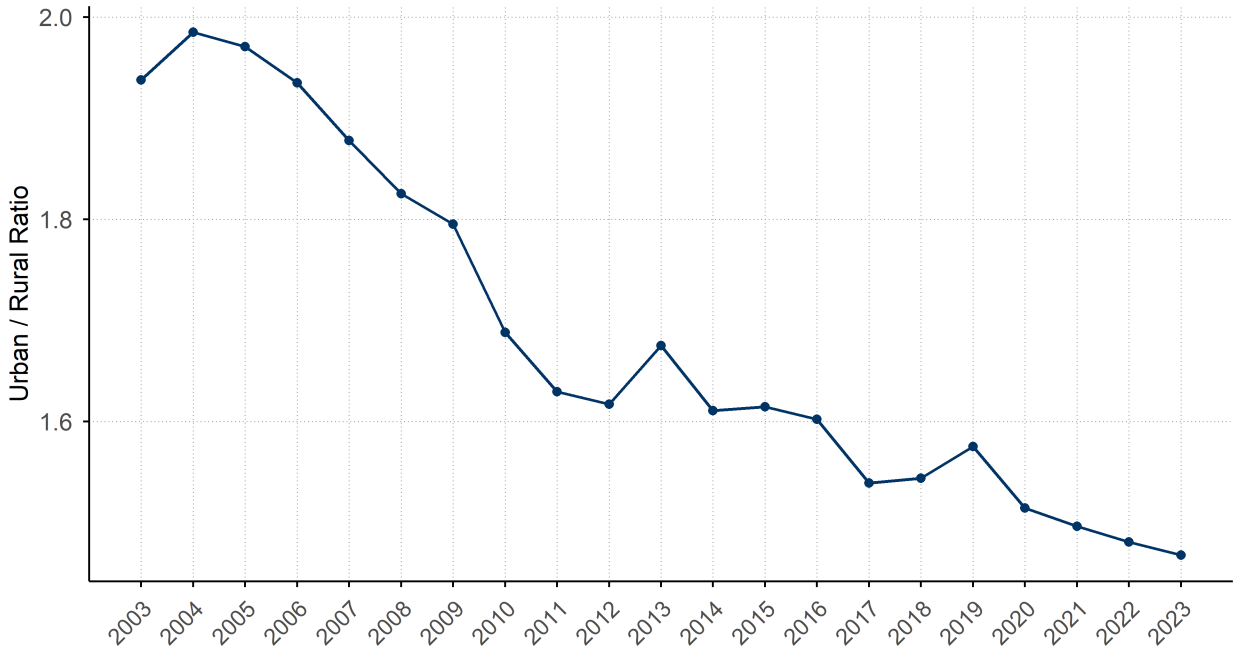
[1] Settlement type follows the survey's MEST variable (1 = urban, 2 = rural).

Figure A.3.1: Income by Settlement Type in Russia

(a) Mean Per Capita Income by Settlement Type



(b) Urban/Rural Income Ratio



Notes: Panel (a) displays weighted mean nominal monthly per capita household income (in rubles) for urban and rural households separately, together with the national mean. Panel (b) displays the ratio of mean urban to mean rural per capita income implied by Panel (a). Estimates are calculated from HBS (OBDH) microdata. See Table A.3.1 for full year-by-year estimates, including the urban–rural income ratio.

Table A.3.1: Mean Per Capita Income by Settlement Type

Year	National (RUB)	Urban (RUB)	Rural (RUB)	Urban/Rural ratio
2003	3,156	3,625	1,871	1.94
2004	3,895	4,480	2,257	1.98
2005	4,963	5,717	2,901	1.97
2006	6,093	6,998	3,617	1.93
2007	7,742	8,847	4,711	1.88
2008	10,047	11,421	6,257	1.83
2009	11,066	12,544	6,987	1.8
2010	12,778	14,335	8,492	1.69
2011	14,340	15,937	9,781	1.63
2012	15,979	17,723	10,959	1.62
2013	17,903	19,990	11,934	1.68
2014	19,421	21,526	13,363	1.61
2015	21,133	23,445	14,521	1.61
2016	21,629	23,952	14,951	1.6
2017	22,170	24,360	15,826	1.54
2018	23,186	25,473	16,501	1.54
2019	25,147	27,718	17,597	1.58
2020	25,424	27,807	18,362	1.51
2021	27,641	30,158	20,153	1.5
2022	30,413	33,108	22,359	1.48
2023	34,647	37,664	25,662	1.47

Notes: Weighted mean nominal monthly per capita household income in rubles, computed from Rosstat HBS (OBDH) microdata. Not adjusted for inflation. Urban: MEST $= 1$; Rural: MEST $= 2$.

B Income Inequality

This appendix reports the full numerical results underlying the analysis of income inequality in Section 4: the international and literature comparisons (Section 4.1), the regional decomposition (Section 4.2), the education- and occupation-based decomposition (Section 4.3), and the household- and income-source decompositions (Sections 4.4 and 4.5).

B.1 Existing Literature on Income Inequality in Russia

This subsection presents an overview of some key studies on income inequality in Russia starting from the end of the 1980s, discussed in Section 4.

Table B.1.1: Gini Coefficients by Source and Welfare Measure, 1991–2025

Year	Rosstat					World Bank		SWIID		UNU-WIDER	LIS		WID
	Disp. inc.	Disp. inc. (PPP)	Equiv. disp.	Equiv. mkt.	Gross earn.	Cons.	Disp. inc.	Disp. inc.	Mkt. inc.	Equiv. disp.	Equiv. disp.	Gross wages	Pre-tax nat'l inc.
1991	0.260				0.317			0.262	0.374	0.413			0.319
1992	0.289							0.291	0.398	0.456			0.435
1993	0.407					0.454		0.331	0.429	0.499			0.459
1994	0.409				0.439			0.360	0.453	0.501			0.538
1995	0.387				0.454			0.376	0.468	0.503			0.562
1996	0.387				0.445	0.461		0.380	0.475	0.504			0.634
1997	0.390				0.447	0.384		0.374	0.475	0.437			0.592
1998	0.394					0.381		0.376	0.478	0.435			0.564
1999	0.400				0.480	0.374		0.373	0.479	0.429			0.582
2000	0.395				0.483	0.371		0.376	0.484	0.426	0.427		0.601
2001	0.397				0.508	0.369		0.374	0.483	0.416			0.608
2002	0.397				0.477	0.373		0.371	0.482	0.406			0.593
2003	0.403				0.481	0.400		0.376	0.484	0.396			0.596
2004	0.409				0.467	0.403		0.379	0.486	0.386	0.386		0.589
2005	0.409				0.456	0.413		0.378	0.483	0.373			0.583
2006	0.415				0.459	0.410		0.376	0.481	0.359			0.597
2007	0.422				0.447	0.423		0.369	0.475	0.346	0.346		0.598
2008	0.421				0.439	0.416		0.373	0.478	0.346			0.612
2009	0.421				0.418	0.398		0.368	0.474	0.346			0.586
2010	0.421				0.413	0.395		0.360	0.469	0.346	0.345		0.549
2011	0.417				0.425	0.397		0.358	0.467	0.346	0.364	0.413	0.565
2012	0.420					0.407		0.354	0.463	0.377			0.547

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Table B.1.1 – *continued from previous page*

Year	Rosstat					World Bank		SWIID		UNU-WIDER	LIS		WID
	Disp. inc.	Disp. inc. (PPP)	Equiv. disp.	Equiv. mkt.	Gross earn.	Cons.	Disp. inc.	Disp. inc.	Mkt. inc.	Equiv. disp.	Equiv. disp.	Gross wages	Pre-tax nat'l inc.
2013	0.417				0.420	0.409		0.348	0.457	0.372	0.351	0.409	0.561
2014	0.414					0.399	0.369	0.340	0.450	0.366	0.340	0.395	0.544
2015	0.411				0.413	0.377	0.365	0.334	0.444	0.360	0.331	0.398	0.541
2016	0.411					0.369	0.367	0.329	0.442	0.355	0.332	0.389	0.543
2017	0.410		0.316	0.474	0.415	0.372	0.355	0.322	0.437	0.358	0.318	0.372	0.540
2018	0.414		0.304			0.375	0.353	0.319	0.435	0.346	0.321	0.377	0.547
2019	0.412		0.315		0.410	0.377	0.357	0.315	0.434	0.346	0.323	0.365	0.548
2020	0.406		0.299			0.360	0.337	0.310	0.432	0.350	0.302	0.358	0.582
2021	0.409		0.307		0.414		0.351	0.311	0.431	0.331	0.313	0.353	0.582
2022	0.398		0.296	0.421			0.339	0.310	0.429	0.342	0.300	0.339	0.582
2023	0.405		0.291		0.404		0.330			0.332			0.582
2024	0.410		0.308							0.324			0.582
2025	0.422	0.375			0.397					0.324			

Notes: The table reports Gini coefficient estimates for per capita household income in Russia from Rosstat, the World Bank, and other international databases (Luxembourg Income Study, Standardized World Income Inequality Database, UNU-WIDER, and the World Inequality Database).

Table B.1.2: Gini Coefficients Reported in the Empirical Literature, Part I (1980–1998)

Source	Data	Welfare Measure	**1980**	**1985**	**1988**	**1989**	**1990**	**1991**	**1992**	**1993**	**1994**	**1995**	**1996**	**1997**	**1998**
Atkinson and Micklewright (1992)	Various	Gross monthly earnings	0.258[S]	0.276[S]		0.272[S]									
	FBS	Per capita income	0.245[S]	0.256[S]	0.262[S]	0.289[S]									
Alexeev and Gaddy (1993)	Goskomstat	Per capita income	0.29[S]	0.284[S]	0.29[S]	0.275[S]	0.281[S]								
	Goskomstat	Per capita income			0.264		0.259								
Doyle (1996)	Goskomstat	Per capita income	0.245[S]	0.256[S]	0.279		0.269	0.272	0.322						
Milanovic (1998)	FBS, RLMS	Per capita dis. income			0.238					0.48					
	RLMS	Per capita expenditure								0.5					
Milanovic (1999)	FBS, RLMS	Per capita disp. income				0.219			0.543		0.455	0.48	0.518		
Commander et al. (1999)[a]	RLMS	Per capita income							0.426	0.439	0.453	0.449	0.481		
	RLMS	Household income							0.484	0.475	0.477	0.479	0.507		
	RLMS	Equiv. income							0.457	0.451	0.457	0.457	0.488		
	RLMS	Equiv. income							0.436	0.436	0.446	0.444	0.477		
	RLMS	Equiv. income							0.426	0.433	0.445	0.442	0.475		
Flemming and Micklewright (2000)	Various	Per capita income				0.265			0.289	0.398	0.409	0.381	0.375	0.375	
Jovanovic (2001)	RLMS	Equiv. expenditure									0.47	0.46	0.47		0.48
Kislitsyna (2003, 2005)	RLMS	Equiv. disp. income							0.430		0.475		0.563		0.51

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Table B.1.2 – *continued from previous page*

Source	Data	Welfare Measure	**1980**	**1985**	**1988**	**1989**	**1990**	**1991**	**1992**	**1993**	**1994**	**1995**	**1996**	**1997**	**1998**
Gustafsson and Nivorozhkina (2004)	Taganrog Study	Gross monthly earnings				0.251									
	Taganrog Study	Per capita income				0.235									
	Taganrog Study	Equiv. disp. income				0.22									
Gorodnichenko et al. (2010)	RLMS	Individual monthly earnings									0.49	0.485	0.51		0.515
	RLMS	Per capita monthly earnings									0.48	0.48	0.475		0.45
	RLMS	Equiv. monthly earnings									0.44	0.45	0.46		0.435
	RLMS	Equiv. disp. income									0.415	0.415	0.44		0.41
	RLMS	Equiv. expenditure									0.42	0.425	0.455		0.455
	RLMS	Equiv. expenditure and consumption of home-grown food									0.405	0.405	0.43		0.425
Lukiyanova (2010)	TransMonEE	Gross monthly earnings				0.271	0.269	0.325	0.371	0.461	0.446	0.471	0.483		
	RLMS	Gross monthly earnings									0.458	0.462	0.472		0.477
Gustafsson et al. (2011)	NOBUS	Per capita income													
Denisova (2012)	RLMS	Per capita disp. income									0.46	0.44	0.49		0.44

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Table B.1.2 – *continued from previous page*

Source	Data	Welfare Measure	**1980**	**1985**	**1988**	**1989**	**1990**	**1991**	**1992**	**1993**	**1994**	**1995**	**1996**	**1997**	**1998**
	RLMS	Per capita expenditure									0.48	0.45	0.46		0.47
Ovcharova et al. (2014)[a]	RLMS	Per capita expenditure							0.455	0.478	0.475	0.484	0.51		0.497
Ovcharova et al. (2016)[a]	RLMS	Per capita expenditure									0.602	0.602	0.612		0.585
Calvo et al. (2015)[a]	RLMS	Per capita income										0.438	0.475		0.48
	RLMS	Hourly wages										0.448	0.46		0.47
Gustafsson et al. (2015)	NOBUS, Taganrog Study	Gross monthly earnings				0.251									
Nissanov and Pittau (2016)	RLMS	Equiv. disp. income							0.415	0.446	0.481	0.492	0.54		0.492
Novokmet et al. (2018b)	HBS, Tax, adj.	National Income	0.278	0.283	0.281	0.296	0.309	0.319	0.433	0.463	0.541	0.567	0.637	0.594	0.565
	HBS, Tax	Fiscal Income	0.2779	0.283	0.281	0.296	0.309	0.316	0.429	0.458	0.537	0.564	0.637	0.588	0.554
	HBS	Survey Income	0.269	0.269	0.271	0.285		0.305	0.358	0.386	0.408		0.361	0.378	0.435
Dang et al. (2020)	RLMS	Total household incomes									0.485	0.47	0.485		0.47
	RLMS	Per capita income									0.47	0.451	0.474		0.46
	HBS	Per capita income													
	HBS adj.	Per capita income													
	WIID	Per capita income							0.437	0.44	0.442	0.439	0.50	0.479	0.447
Vishnevskaya et al. (2021)	RLMS	Gross monthly earnings									0.47	0.47	0.49		0.50

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Table B.1.2 – *continued from previous page*

Source	Data	Welfare Measure	**1980**	**1985**	**1988**	**1989**	**1990**	**1991**	**1992**	**1993**	**1994**	**1995**	**1996**	**1997**	**1998**
Lisina and Van Kerm (2022)[a]	RLMS	Equiv. disp. income									0.418	0.422	0.48		0.49
Bryukhanov and Hryshko (2024)[a]	RLMS	Equiv. disp. income									0.42	0.446	0.471		0.448
	RLMS	Equiv. expenditure									0.375	0.378	0.395		0.41
	HBS	Equiv. expenditure													
Lukyanova (2024)[a]	RLMS	Gross monthly earnings									0.466	0.47	0.485		0.488
	PIS	Gross monthly earnings													

Notes: The table compiles Gini coefficients reported in various studies. Sources are indicated in the corresponding column. Values marked with [a] are approximate, as they were extracted from figures in the original publications because the underlying numerical values were not reported in tables or text. Differences in data sources and estimation methods should be taken into account when comparing the reported estimates. Data marked with [S] pertains to the entire Soviet Union. Overall inequality in the USSR was higher than in Russia, due to the inclusion of poorer and more unequal southern republics.

Table B.1.3: Gini Coefficients Reported in the Empirical Literature, Part II (1999–2011)

Source	Data	Welfare Measure	1999	2000	2001	2002	2003	2004	2005	2006	2007	2008	2009	2010	2011
Kislitsyna (2003, 2005)	RLMS	Equiv. disp. income		0.474											
Gustafsson and Nivorozhkina (2004)	Taganrog Study	Gross monthly earnings		0.45											
	Taganrog Study	Per capita income		0.356											
	Taganrog Study	Equiv. disp. income		0.346											
Gorodnichenko et al. (2010)	RLMS	Individual monthly earnings		0.505	0.50	0.47	0.465	0.44	0.425						
	RLMS	Per capita monthly earnings		0.485	0.47	0.445	0.445	0.42	0.405						
	RLMS	Equiv. monthly earnings		0.47	0.44	0.435	0.43	0.415	0.40						
	RLMS	Equiv. disp. income		0.435	0.405	0.41	0.405	0.395	0.38						
	RLMS	Equiv. expenditure		0.44	0.415	0.41	0.40	0.405	0.395						
	RLMS	Equiv. expenditure and consumption of home-grown food		0.415	0.40	0.395	0.39	0.39	0.38						
Lukiyanova (2010)	TransMonEE	Gross monthly earnings			0.521	0.491		0.469	0.445	0.451	0.439	0.423			
	RLMS	Gross monthly earnings		0.476	0.462	0.43	0.43	0.413	0.403	0.395	0.375	0.38			

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Table B.1.3 – *continued from previous page*

Source	Data	Welfare Measure	**1999**	**2000**	**2001**	**2002**	**2003**	**2004**	**2005**	**2006**	**2007**	**2008**	**2009**	**2010**	**2011**
Gustafsson et al. (2011)	NOBUS	Per capita income					0.336								
Denisova (2012)	RLMS	Per capita disp. income		0.50	0.49	0.49	0.48	0.50	0.37	0.39	0.38	0.48	0.35		
	RLMS	Per capita expenditure		0.52	0.49	0.49	0.51	0.51	0.43	0.50	0.48	0.50	0.42		
Lukiyanova and Oshchepkov (2012)	RLMS	Household incomes		0.409	0.407	0.387	0.388	0.375	0.368						
	RLMS	Reported household incomes		0.41	0.408	0.392	0.389	0.374	0.374						
	RLMS	Total household incomes		0.394	0.404	0.382	0.378	0.366	0.365						
	RLMS	Equiv. disp. income		0.392	0.404	0.379	0.376	0.365	0.363						
	RLMS	Equiv. disp. income		0.391	0.403	0.378	0.375	0.363	0.363						
Ovcharova et al. (2014)[a]	RLMS	Per capita expenditure		0.485	0.44	0.446	0.461	0.475	0.436	0.482	0.449	0.462	0.429	0.422	0.434
Ovcharova et al. (2016)[a]	RLMS	Per capita expenditure		0.565	0.572	0.585	0.596	0.596	0.596	0.58	0.585	0.576	0.576	0.574	0.572
Calvo et al. (2015)[a]	RLMS	Per capita income		0.41	0.412	0.408	0.392	0.372	0.358	0.365	0.338	0.345	0.332	0.325	0.325
	RLMS	Hourly wages		0.465	0.458	0.425	0.428	0.398	0.395	0.388	0.365	0.368	0.362	0.342	0.348
Lukiyanova (2015)	RLMS	Gross monthly earnings (formal)		0.481		0.434	0.435	0.417	0.409	0.396	0.375	0.381	0.37	0.365	

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Table B.1.3 – *continued from previous page*

Source	Data	Welfare Measure	**1999**	**2000**	**2001**	**2002**	**2003**	**2004**	**2005**	**2006**	**2007**	**2008**	**2009**	**2010**	**2011**
	RLMS	Gross monthly earnings (informal)		0.568		0.539	0.556	0.508	0.492	0.497	0.465	0.478	0.461	0.439	
Gustafsson et al. (2015)	NOBUS, Taganrog Study	Gross monthly earnings					0.374								
Nissanov and Pittau (2016)	RLMS	Equiv. disp. income		0.468	0.445	0.435	0.426	0.423	0.409	0.432	0.399	0.404			
Ibragimov and Ibragimov (2018)	HBS	Total household incomes							0.412	0.407	0.413				
Nartikoev and Peresetsky (2019)[a]	HBS	Equiv. disp. income					0.402	0.427	0.425	0.43	0.47	0.427	0.416	0.417	0.444
Novokmet et al. (2018b)	HBS, Tax, adj.	National Income	0.580	0.595	0.605	0.592	0.597	0.590	0.583	0.595	0.5978	0.6102	0.588	0.562	0.566
	HBS, Tax	Fiscal Income	0.566	0.582	0.591	0.579	0.582	0.574	0.568	0.583	0.587	0.596	0.574	0.541	0.546
	HBS	Survey Income	0.389	0.433	0.445	0.462	0.447	0.475		0.452	0.479	0.466	0.454	0.45	0.451
Dang et al. (2020)	RLMS	Total household incomes		0.465	0.47	0.44	0.45	0.475	0.43	0.445	0.42	0.415	0.39	0.385	0.38
	RLMS	Per capita income		0.44	0.444	0.419	0.416	0.433	0.385	0.402	0.375	0.367	0.348	0.346	0.34
	HBS	Per capita income					0.384	0.385	0.375	0.368	0.375	0.358	0.347	0.343	0.346
	HBS adj.	Per capita income					0.445	0.467	0.44	0.435	0.466	0.425	0.427	0.424	0.442
	WIID	Per capita income	0.435	0.422	0.422	0.41	0.397	0.385	0.371	0.358	0.347	0.429	0.389	0.344	0.376
Vishnevskaya et al. (2021)	RLMS	Gross monthly earnings		0.49	0.49	0.45	0.45	0.42	0.42	0.40	0.38	0.39	0.38	0.37	0.37

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Table B.1.3 – *continued from previous page*

Source	Data	Welfare Measure	**1999**	**2000**	**2001**	**2002**	**2003**	**2004**	**2005**	**2006**	**2007**	**2008**	**2009**	**2010**	**2011**
Lisina and Van Kerm (2022)[a]	RLMS	Equiv. disp. income		0.418	0.392	0.389	0.378	0.368	0.347	0.35	0.321	0.352	0.308	0.302	0.307
Hlasny (2022)	RLMS, PIS	Equiv. income		0.420				0.386			0.344			0.339	0.364
Bryukhanov and Hryshko (2024)[a]	RLMS	Equiv. disp. income		0.435	0.436	0.403	0.399	0.38	0.362	0.364	0.342	0.334	0.33	0.329	0.328
	RLMS	Equiv. expenditure		0.352	0.343	0.338	0.336	0.334	0.332	0.35	0.325	0.323	0.305	0.293	0.286
	HBS	Equiv. expenditure					0.365	0.352	0.346	0.342	0.357	0.33	0.318	0.322	0.335
Zasimova (2024)	RLMS	Per capita income								0.45	0.416	0.415	0.38	0.383	0.384
	RLMS	Per capita income without social transfers								0.445	0.441	0.442	0.438	0.439	0.436
	RLMS	Equiv. income								0.448	0.415	0.414	0.377	0.379	0.381
Lukyanova (2024)[a]	RLMS	Gross monthly earnings		0.477	0.479	0.439	0.439	0.418	0.412	0.395	0.375	0.383	0.376	0.363	0.364
	PIS	Gross monthly earnings													0.389

Notes: The table compiles Gini coefficients reported in various studies. Sources are indicated in the corresponding column. Values marked with [a] are approximate, as they were extracted from figures in the original publications because the underlying numerical values were not reported in tables or text. Differences in data sources and estimation methods should be taken into account when comparing the reported estimates.

Table B.1.4: Gini Coefficients Reported in the Empirical Literature, Part III (2012–2023)

Source	Data	Welfare Measure	**2012**	**2013**	**2014**	**2015**	**2016**	**2017**	**2018**	**2019**	**2020**	**2021**	**2022**	**2023**
Ovcharova et al. (2014)[a]	RLMS	Per capita expenditure	0.443											
Ovcharova et al. (2016)[a]	RLMS	Per capita expenditure	0.564	0.556	0.548									
Calvo et al. (2015)[a]	RLMS	Per capita income	0.322											
	RLMS	Hourly wages	0.348											
Nartikoev and Peresetsky (2019)[a]	HBS	Equiv. disp. income	0.445	0.46	0.458	0.425								
Novokmet et al. (2018b)	HBS, Tax, adj.	National Income	0.549	0.561	0.547	0.545								
	HBS, Tax	Fiscal Income	0.526	0.539	0.524	0.52								
	HBS	Survey Income	0.444	0.446	0.448	0.452								
Dang et al. (2020)	RLMS	Total household incomes	0.38	0.375	0.37	0.355								
	RLMS	Per capita income	0.338	0.334	0.32	0.312								
	HBS	Per capita income	0.339	0.338	0.337	0.324								
	HBS adj.	Per capita income	0.438	0.439	0.439	0.433								
	WIID	Per capita income	0.355	0.334										
Surinov and Luppov (2020)	PIS	Equiv. income						0.327	0.322					
	PIS	Equiv. income						0.329	0.325					
	PIS	Equiv. income						0.330	0.326					
	PIS	Equiv. income						0.326	0.321					
	PIS	Per capita income						0.336	0.331					

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Table B.1.4 – *continued from previous page*

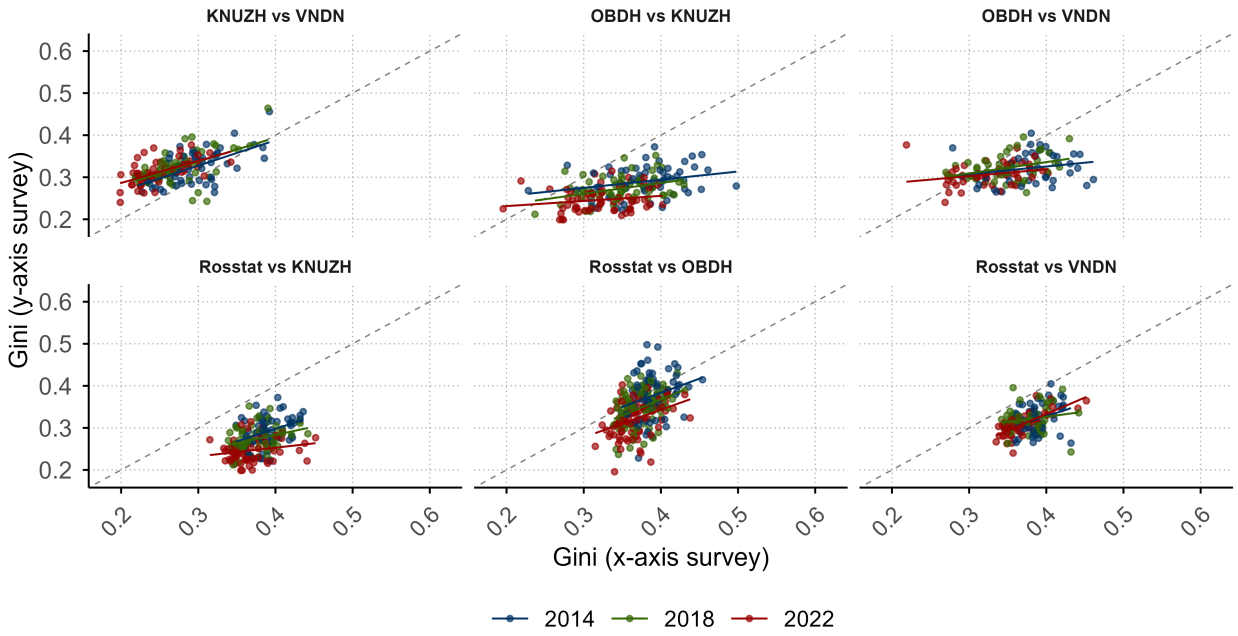
Source	Data	Welfare Measure	**2012**	**2013**	**2014**	**2015**	**2016**	**2017**	**2018**	**2019**	**2020**	**2021**	**2022**	**2023**
Vishnevskaya et al. (2021)	RLMS	Gross monthly earnings	0.37	0.36	0.35	0.35	0.35							
Lisina and Van Kerm (2022)[a]	RLMS	Equiv. disp. income	0.306	0.303	0.297	0.29								
Hlasny (2022)	RLMS, PIS	Equiv. income		0.351	0.339	0.331	0.331							
Bryukhanov and Hryshko (2024)[a]	RLMS	Equiv. disp. income	0.33	0.315	0.31	0.304	0.296	0.294	0.289					
	RLMS	Equiv. expenditure	0.307	0.287	0.284	0.273	0.278	0.282	0.262					
	HBS	Equiv. expenditure	0.319	0.331	0.306									
Zasimova (2024)	RLMS	Per capita income	0.39	0.37	0.35	0.34	0.346	0.351	0.346	0.34	0.327	0.308	0.30	
	RLMS	Per capita income without social transfers	0.434	0.43	0.429	0.425	0.427	0.425	0.427	0.426	0.424	0.421	0.42	
	RLMS	Equiv. income	0.387	0.365	0.345	0.333	0.34	0.345	0.34	0.333	0.321	0.302	0.295	
Lukyanova (2024)[a]	RLMS	Gross monthly earnings	0.361	0.349	0.343	0.341	0.34	0.335	0.322	0.319	0.311	0.312	0.303	0.309
	PIS	Gross monthly earnings		0.372	0.366	0.361	0.353	0.342	0.339	0.332	0.326	0.321	0.308	
Kuzin and Surinov (2025)	PIS	Per capita income												0.348
	PIS, Tax	Per capita income												0.363

Notes: The table compiles Gini coefficients reported in various studies. Sources are indicated in the corresponding column. Values marked with [a] are approximate, as they were extracted from figures in the original publications because the underlying numerical values were not reported in tables or text. Differences in data sources and estimation methods should be taken into account when comparing the reported estimates.

B.2 Spatial Heterogeneity in Income Inequality

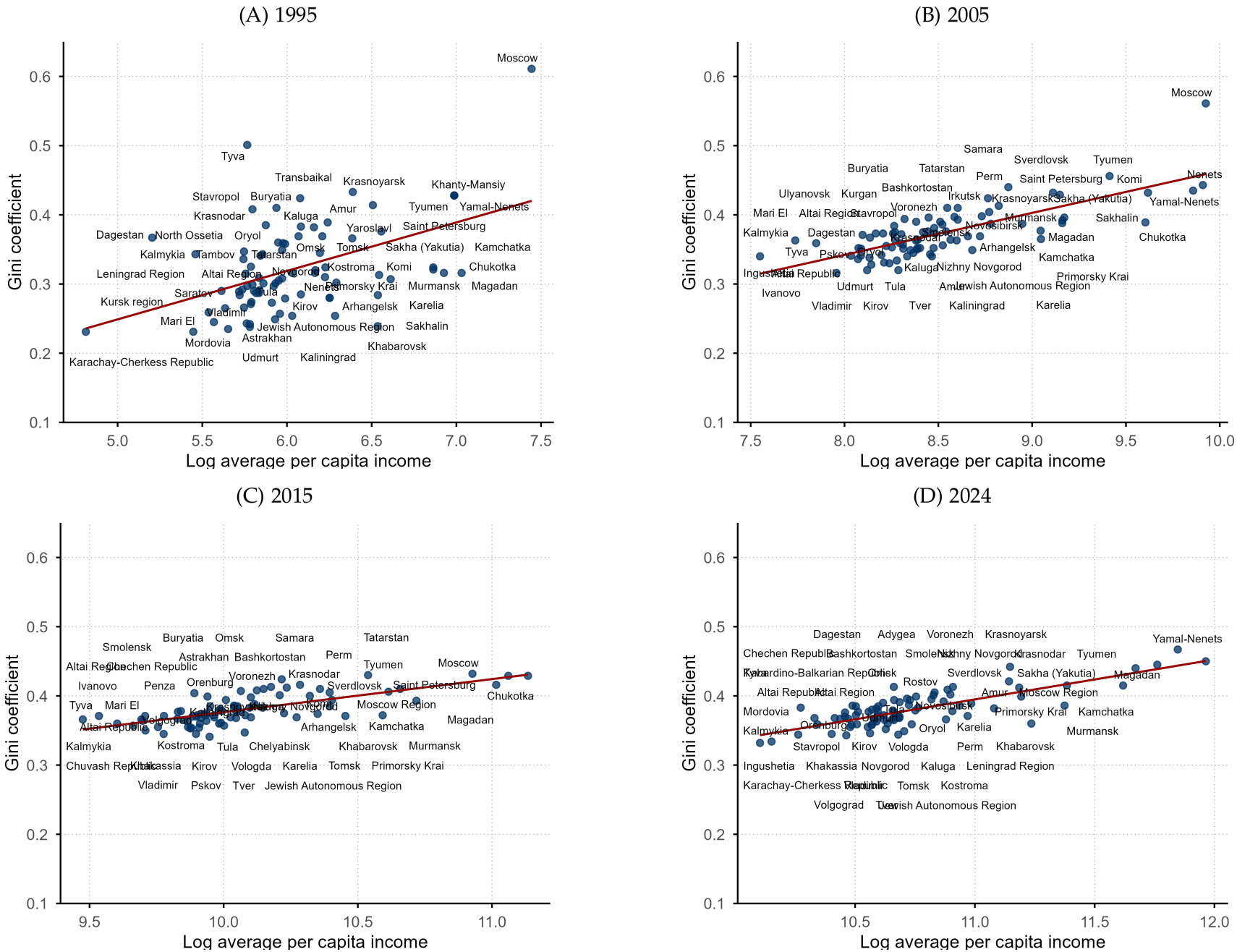
This subsection reports the full numerical results and supplementary figures underlying the regional inequality decomposition of Section 4.2.

Figure B.2.1: Regional Gini Coefficients: Pairwise Survey Comparison



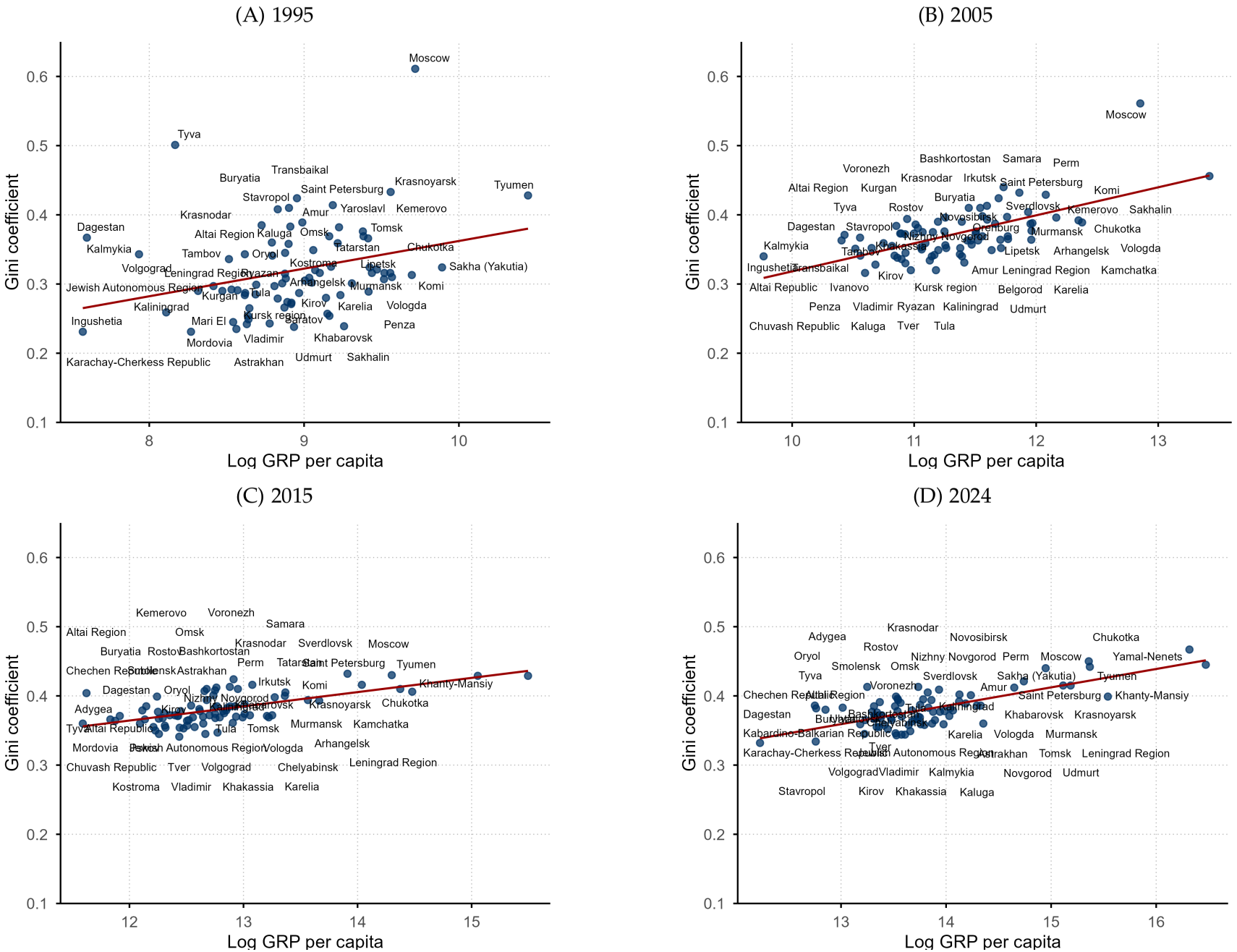
Notes: Each panel plots regional Gini coefficients from two surveys against each other for three cross-sections (2014, 2018, 2022). Each point represents one Russian region. The dashed line indicates perfect agreement between the two surveys (45-degree line); colored lines show OLS fits by year. The six panels cover all pairwise combinations of four data sources: Rosstat, HBS (OBDH), CSLCP (KNUZH), and PIS (VNDN).

Figure B.2.2: Income Inequality versus Average income across Russian Regions



Notes: The scatter plots display regional Gini coefficients for per capita household monetary income across Russian regions versus average income in 1995, 2005, 2015, and 2024, based on official Rosstat statistics. Correlation: 47% in 1995, 76% in 2005, 71% in 2015, and 79% in 2024.

Figure B.2.3: Income Inequality versus GRP per capita across Russian Regions



Notes: The scatter plots display regional Gini coefficients for per capita household monetary income across Russian regions versus GRP per capita in 1995, 2005, 2015, and 2024, based on official Rosstat statistics. Correlation: 30% in 1995, 64% in 2005, 63% in 2015, and 73% in 2024.

Table B.2.1: Regional Gini Coefficients

Region	2003	2004	2005	2006	2007	2008	2009	2010	2011	2012	2013
Adygey	0.353	0.328	0.327	0.322	0.331	0.318	0.301	0.313	0.311	0.323	0.327
	[0.331, 0.377]	[0.309, 0.347]	[0.310, 0.344]	[0.303, 0.342]	[0.302, 0.370]	[0.299, 0.338]	[0.285, 0.318]	[0.293, 0.336]	[0.283, 0.338]	[0.300, 0.348]	[0.306, 0.346]
Altay	0.438	0.446	0.422	0.409	0.422	0.425	0.409	0.393	0.410	0.412	0.408
	[0.418, 0.461]	[0.423, 0.467]	[0.392, 0.457]	[0.388, 0.432]	[0.393, 0.452]	[0.396, 0.456]	[0.375, 0.443]	[0.367, 0.421]	[0.382, 0.439]	[0.377, 0.448]	[0.381, 0.433]
Amur	0.380	0.386	0.398	0.356	0.346	0.375	0.353	0.323	0.331	0.341	0.358
	[0.355, 0.410]	[0.358, 0.416]	[0.361, 0.438]	[0.335, 0.375]	[0.331, 0.360]	[0.352, 0.396]	[0.331, 0.377]	[0.305, 0.338]	[0.299, 0.360]	[0.317, 0.362]	[0.330, 0.391]
Arkhangel'sk	0.408	0.409	0.404	0.384	0.386	0.396	0.350	0.378	0.379	0.375	0.364
	[0.386, 0.433]	[0.388, 0.430]	[0.381, 0.428]	[0.363, 0.404]	[0.370, 0.403]	[0.363, 0.427]	[0.335, 0.362]	[0.359, 0.395]	[0.358, 0.402]	[0.356, 0.395]	[0.340, 0.392]
Astrakhan'	0.449	0.472	0.450	0.412	0.418	0.414	0.377	0.357	0.377	0.358	0.349
	[0.423, 0.472]	[0.434, 0.508]	[0.416, 0.483]	[0.391, 0.433]	[0.389, 0.445]	[0.377, 0.457]	[0.358, 0.395]	[0.337, 0.376]	[0.347, 0.412]	[0.340, 0.376]	[0.325, 0.373]
Bashkortostan	0.472	0.472	0.484	0.474	0.483	0.450	0.427	0.405	0.451	0.424	0.433
	[0.449, 0.495]	[0.449, 0.492]	[0.456, 0.510]	[0.451, 0.498]	[0.453, 0.512]	[0.425, 0.474]	[0.406, 0.445]	[0.377, 0.430]	[0.420, 0.480]	[0.393, 0.457]	[0.407, 0.457]
Belgorod	0.339	0.324	0.360	0.345	0.335	0.320	0.349	0.338	0.390	0.394	0.373
	[0.320, 0.357]	[0.309, 0.342]	[0.334, 0.387]	[0.318, 0.369]	[0.308, 0.363]	[0.292, 0.350]	[0.300, 0.405]	[0.319, 0.356]	[0.351, 0.425]	[0.362, 0.423]	[0.341, 0.405]
Bryansk	0.378	0.398	0.385	0.347	0.399	0.338	0.356	0.335	0.319	0.334	0.324
	[0.351, 0.407]	[0.378, 0.419]	[0.357, 0.412]	[0.331, 0.363]	[0.340, 0.474]	[0.317, 0.359]	[0.330, 0.383]	[0.308, 0.366]	[0.299, 0.337]	[0.312, 0.354]	[0.307, 0.341]
Buryat	0.412	0.404	0.462	0.394	0.403	0.428	0.393	0.387	0.347	0.364	0.340
	[0.390, 0.432]	[0.382, 0.429]	[0.426, 0.498]	[0.372, 0.415]	[0.379, 0.426]	[0.396, 0.462]	[0.366, 0.421]	[0.360, 0.412]	[0.316, 0.378]	[0.330, 0.403]	[0.322, 0.355]
Chechnya											0.238
											[0.199, 0.282]
Chelyabinsk	0.395	0.381	0.386	0.380	0.383	0.383	0.367	0.337	0.337	0.358	0.357
	[0.376, 0.414]	[0.358, 0.407]	[0.367, 0.403]	[0.359, 0.400]	[0.362, 0.406]	[0.354, 0.415]	[0.344, 0.390]	[0.319, 0.353]	[0.317, 0.358]	[0.324, 0.395]	[0.338, 0.375]
Chukot	0.431	0.403	0.488	0.490	0.454	0.411	0.373	0.401	0.442	0.426	0.422
	[0.392, 0.471]	[0.381, 0.422]	[0.441, 0.520]	[0.460, 0.514]	[0.429, 0.479]	[0.380, 0.436]	[0.342, 0.402]	[0.375, 0.424]	[0.411, 0.470]	[0.392, 0.459]	[0.394, 0.449]

Continued on next page

Table B.2.1 – *continued from previous page*

Region	2003	2004	2005	2006	2007	2008	2009	2010	2011	2012	2013
Chuvash	0.349	0.332	0.335	0.304	0.293	0.325	0.291	0.365	0.378	0.359	0.321
	[0.331, 0.364]	[0.316, 0.346]	[0.311, 0.356]	[0.284, 0.320]	[0.270, 0.317]	[0.294, 0.356]	[0.268, 0.314]	[0.327, 0.399]	[0.330, 0.429]	[0.330, 0.388]	[0.302, 0.341]
City of St. Petersburg	0.345	0.325	0.344	0.347	0.389	0.319	0.312	0.309	0.298	0.315	0.321
	[0.325, 0.364]	[0.301, 0.347]	[0.309, 0.374]	[0.318, 0.375]	[0.351, 0.425]	[0.297, 0.340]	[0.296, 0.327]	[0.291, 0.328]	[0.278, 0.319]	[0.291, 0.338]	[0.299, 0.337]
Dagestan	0.349	0.417	0.419	0.478	0.504	0.430	0.348	0.293	0.301	0.266	0.264
	[0.331, 0.367]	[0.370, 0.475]	[0.389, 0.451]	[0.443, 0.507]	[0.441, 0.572]	[0.411, 0.451]	[0.322, 0.376]	[0.271, 0.312]	[0.258, 0.348]	[0.244, 0.288]	[0.239, 0.294]
Gorno-Altay	0.429	0.427	0.475	0.448	0.421	0.399	0.393	0.411	0.381	0.396	0.376
	[0.397, 0.466]	[0.406, 0.448]	[0.449, 0.498]	[0.418, 0.477]	[0.401, 0.436]	[0.379, 0.417]	[0.373, 0.414]	[0.386, 0.438]	[0.359, 0.401]	[0.371, 0.421]	[0.355, 0.398]
Ingush	0.235	0.263	0.342	0.285	0.295	0.272	0.216	0.314	0.175	0.183	0.182
	[0.220, 0.252]	[0.247, 0.278]	[0.245, 0.449]	[0.265, 0.304]	[0.272, 0.320]	[0.248, 0.293]	[0.197, 0.237]	[0.289, 0.338]	[0.157, 0.192]	[0.163, 0.202]	[0.166, 0.198]
Irkutsk	0.451	0.458	0.447	0.455	0.470	0.444	0.402	0.412	0.438	0.395	0.397
	[0.433, 0.469]	[0.440, 0.475]	[0.430, 0.466]	[0.431, 0.479]	[0.446, 0.492]	[0.417, 0.474]	[0.381, 0.423]	[0.387, 0.441]	[0.400, 0.478]	[0.366, 0.430]	[0.379, 0.415]
Ivanovo	0.290	0.314	0.295	0.323	0.333	0.322	0.286	0.317	0.308	0.357	0.365
	[0.276, 0.305]	[0.288, 0.352]	[0.279, 0.311]	[0.301, 0.347]	[0.299, 0.367]	[0.297, 0.352]	[0.271, 0.300]	[0.299, 0.332]	[0.292, 0.322]	[0.319, 0.397]	[0.320, 0.409]
Kabardin-Balkar	0.392	0.478	0.444	0.384	0.388	0.371	0.352	0.350	0.322	0.362	0.339
	[0.368, 0.417]	[0.387, 0.551]	[0.381, 0.507]	[0.352, 0.412]	[0.344, 0.433]	[0.339, 0.404]	[0.318, 0.385]	[0.326, 0.375]	[0.302, 0.340]	[0.332, 0.393]	[0.319, 0.356]
Kaliningrad	0.395	0.410	0.440	0.446	0.432	0.416	0.429	0.437	0.403	0.416	0.402
	[0.369, 0.420]	[0.376, 0.444]	[0.399, 0.483]	[0.402, 0.493]	[0.399, 0.464]	[0.383, 0.449]	[0.376, 0.478]	[0.370, 0.497]	[0.368, 0.433]	[0.387, 0.442]	[0.371, 0.432]
Kalmyk	0.387	0.399	0.392	0.402	0.414	0.373	0.347	0.392	0.391	0.424	0.380
	[0.369, 0.403]	[0.378, 0.421]	[0.374, 0.409]	[0.381, 0.424]	[0.381, 0.446]	[0.350, 0.399]	[0.331, 0.363]	[0.363, 0.423]	[0.361, 0.425]	[0.385, 0.466]	[0.362, 0.400]
Kaluga	0.321	0.323	0.347	0.342	0.363	0.413	0.353	0.355	0.364	0.398	0.332
	[0.304, 0.338]	[0.311, 0.334]	[0.327, 0.366]	[0.324, 0.360]	[0.343, 0.385]	[0.351, 0.470]	[0.335, 0.372]	[0.336, 0.370]	[0.348, 0.381]	[0.368, 0.429]	[0.312, 0.351]
Kamchatka	0.388	0.371	0.379	0.367	0.372	0.319	0.298	0.324	0.326	0.375	0.319
	[0.364, 0.411]	[0.341, 0.404]	[0.359, 0.400]	[0.347, 0.386]	[0.352, 0.391]	[0.306, 0.333]	[0.282, 0.312]	[0.305, 0.344]	[0.299, 0.354]	[0.338, 0.412]	[0.295, 0.343]
Karachay-Cherkess	0.402	0.372	0.380	0.383	0.405	0.470	0.456	0.383	0.346	0.342	0.306
	[0.372, 0.434]	[0.334, 0.421]	[0.359, 0.399]	[0.353, 0.410]	[0.383, 0.426]	[0.443, 0.493]	[0.408, 0.516]	[0.314, 0.470]	[0.328, 0.362]	[0.320, 0.360]	[0.290, 0.321]

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Table B.2.1 – *continued from previous page*

Region	2003	2004	2005	2006	2007	2008	2009	2010	2011	2012	2013
Karelia	0.383	0.388	0.401	0.373	0.381	0.379	0.354	0.370	0.373	0.406	0.348
	[0.362, 0.402]	[0.365, 0.409]	[0.375, 0.425]	[0.350, 0.392]	[0.360, 0.399]	[0.359, 0.398]	[0.327, 0.388]	[0.349, 0.391]	[0.345, 0.401]	[0.375, 0.440]	[0.318, 0.376]
Kemerovo	0.416	0.431	0.438	0.430	0.396	0.420	0.355	0.376	0.346	0.356	0.354
	[0.390, 0.440]	[0.396, 0.474]	[0.412, 0.463]	[0.408, 0.452]	[0.372, 0.419]	[0.385, 0.463]	[0.342, 0.368]	[0.353, 0.400]	[0.329, 0.360]	[0.332, 0.380]	[0.325, 0.386]
Khabarovsk	0.434	0.424	0.406	0.378	0.418	0.425	0.402	0.360	0.364	0.343	0.390
	[0.407, 0.460]	[0.402, 0.445]	[0.379, 0.436]	[0.349, 0.407]	[0.391, 0.447]	[0.389, 0.463]	[0.368, 0.440]	[0.339, 0.381]	[0.334, 0.393]	[0.323, 0.361]	[0.343, 0.431]
Khakass	0.380	0.401	0.365	0.364	0.338	0.362	0.351	0.374	0.358	0.348	0.341
	[0.361, 0.400]	[0.361, 0.443]	[0.337, 0.397]	[0.338, 0.397]	[0.324, 0.353]	[0.343, 0.381]	[0.331, 0.367]	[0.355, 0.394]	[0.340, 0.374]	[0.320, 0.379]	[0.320, 0.363]
Kirov	0.379	0.365	0.372	0.369	0.367	0.373	0.449	0.408	0.419	0.437	0.399
	[0.364, 0.393]	[0.349, 0.382]	[0.345, 0.399]	[0.348, 0.390]	[0.345, 0.394]	[0.349, 0.398]	[0.404, 0.489]	[0.380, 0.437]	[0.383, 0.457]	[0.399, 0.479]	[0.372, 0.424]
Komi	0.474	0.428	0.427	0.416	0.423	0.467	0.395	0.392	0.382	0.391	0.426
	[0.436, 0.507]	[0.405, 0.451]	[0.397, 0.453]	[0.386, 0.443]	[0.396, 0.445]	[0.414, 0.510]	[0.371, 0.416]	[0.363, 0.418]	[0.364, 0.400]	[0.370, 0.410]	[0.389, 0.463]
Kostroma	0.327	0.298	0.306	0.309	0.312	0.293	0.284	0.333	0.319	0.336	0.360
	[0.291, 0.374]	[0.282, 0.314]	[0.286, 0.325]	[0.288, 0.326]	[0.293, 0.333]	[0.280, 0.305]	[0.270, 0.299]	[0.284, 0.397]	[0.291, 0.349]	[0.306, 0.371]	[0.317, 0.409]
Krasnodar	0.396	0.430	0.407	0.436	0.445	0.411	0.402	0.363	0.359	0.373	0.380
	[0.365, 0.427]	[0.381, 0.477]	[0.385, 0.426]	[0.402, 0.473]	[0.406, 0.485]	[0.379, 0.444]	[0.380, 0.424]	[0.342, 0.382]	[0.340, 0.378]	[0.352, 0.393]	[0.354, 0.405]
Krasnoyarsk	0.419	0.435	0.441	0.455	0.386	0.380	0.371	0.372	0.385	0.366	0.395
	[0.401, 0.437]	[0.410, 0.456]	[0.416, 0.465]	[0.427, 0.482]	[0.371, 0.402]	[0.366, 0.393]	[0.359, 0.384]	[0.358, 0.385]	[0.368, 0.404]	[0.353, 0.378]	[0.375, 0.416]
Kurgan	0.426	0.447	0.443	0.406	0.477	0.394	0.348	0.375	0.366	0.435	0.362
	[0.400, 0.451]	[0.397, 0.510]	[0.410, 0.476]	[0.384, 0.427]	[0.388, 0.569]	[0.370, 0.417]	[0.329, 0.365]	[0.353, 0.396]	[0.340, 0.393]	[0.374, 0.484]	[0.338, 0.386]
Kursk	0.362	0.359	0.317	0.368	0.380	0.382	0.348	0.399	0.334	0.364	0.360
	[0.341, 0.381]	[0.342, 0.376]	[0.297, 0.335]	[0.343, 0.393]	[0.352, 0.409]	[0.340, 0.426]	[0.333, 0.362]	[0.352, 0.447]	[0.308, 0.357]	[0.327, 0.400]	[0.318, 0.399]
Leningrad	0.295	0.305	0.279	0.324	0.311	0.359	0.307	0.304	0.290	0.322	0.330
	[0.282, 0.308]	[0.292, 0.317]	[0.268, 0.290]	[0.299, 0.353]	[0.292, 0.331]	[0.314, 0.409]	[0.291, 0.322]	[0.275, 0.337]	[0.270, 0.308]	[0.289, 0.356]	[0.280, 0.390]
Lipetsk	0.410	0.397	0.397	0.357	0.353	0.345	0.332	0.340	0.404	0.370	0.355
	[0.377, 0.445]	[0.365, 0.437]	[0.356, 0.448]	[0.340, 0.372]	[0.334, 0.370]	[0.324, 0.364]	[0.313, 0.350]	[0.316, 0.360]	[0.352, 0.453]	[0.345, 0.397]	[0.329, 0.383]

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Table B.2.1 – *continued from previous page*

Region	2003	2004	2005	2006	2007	2008	2009	2010	2011	2012	2013
Magadan	0.428	0.434	0.453	0.431	0.436	0.393	0.404	0.390	0.378	0.442	0.389
	[0.403, 0.449]	[0.408, 0.457]	[0.427, 0.474]	[0.405, 0.451]	[0.403, 0.463]	[0.368, 0.414]	[0.369, 0.435]	[0.358, 0.418]	[0.328, 0.427]	[0.396, 0.483]	[0.355, 0.421]
Mariy-El	0.406	0.397	0.431	0.400	0.418	0.412	0.389	0.394	0.456	0.425	0.481
	[0.385, 0.426]	[0.378, 0.416]	[0.380, 0.490]	[0.369, 0.434]	[0.377, 0.459]	[0.376, 0.445]	[0.352, 0.431]	[0.364, 0.431]	[0.395, 0.511]	[0.378, 0.473]	[0.407, 0.538]
Mordovia	0.403	0.380	0.411	0.383	0.386	0.410	0.368	0.377	0.424	0.335	0.341
	[0.385, 0.420]	[0.354, 0.404]	[0.378, 0.441]	[0.357, 0.407]	[0.357, 0.416]	[0.379, 0.449]	[0.348, 0.390]	[0.349, 0.403]	[0.350, 0.495]	[0.313, 0.355]	[0.310, 0.379]
Moscow City	0.359	0.383	0.393	0.363	0.374	0.360	0.381	0.373	0.341	0.375	0.399
	[0.330, 0.384]	[0.352, 0.409]	[0.348, 0.429]	[0.325, 0.395]	[0.339, 0.409]	[0.340, 0.377]	[0.356, 0.405]	[0.338, 0.403]	[0.317, 0.363]	[0.346, 0.401]	[0.377, 0.417]
Moskva	0.382	0.390	0.403	0.425	0.447	0.439	0.419	0.455	0.448	0.458	0.457
	[0.363, 0.401]	[0.363, 0.418]	[0.376, 0.426]	[0.392, 0.453]	[0.408, 0.484]	[0.409, 0.466]	[0.390, 0.445]	[0.413, 0.494]	[0.417, 0.475]	[0.422, 0.490]	[0.428, 0.481]
Murmansk	0.353	0.340	0.321	0.322	0.317	0.297	0.337	0.313	0.311	0.311	0.289
	[0.338, 0.369]	[0.326, 0.353]	[0.308, 0.333]	[0.309, 0.335]	[0.301, 0.331]	[0.284, 0.309]	[0.316, 0.359]	[0.292, 0.337]	[0.289, 0.337]	[0.286, 0.338]	[0.274, 0.304]
Nizhegorod	0.362	0.384	0.385	0.390	0.445	0.339	0.340	0.335	0.399	0.398	0.389
	[0.346, 0.377]	[0.362, 0.408]	[0.355, 0.421]	[0.344, 0.445]	[0.381, 0.508]	[0.320, 0.358]	[0.315, 0.361]	[0.312, 0.357]	[0.361, 0.432]	[0.355, 0.443]	[0.352, 0.433]
North Ossetia	0.387	0.368	0.455	0.394	0.423	0.421	0.366	0.357	0.359	0.319	0.386
	[0.357, 0.416]	[0.342, 0.395]	[0.390, 0.514]	[0.366, 0.418]	[0.394, 0.450]	[0.395, 0.445]	[0.345, 0.386]	[0.330, 0.382]	[0.333, 0.382]	[0.299, 0.340]	[0.350, 0.422]
Novgorod	0.436	0.408	0.396	0.452	0.455	0.417	0.379	0.418	0.376	0.377	0.376
	[0.396, 0.473]	[0.381, 0.432]	[0.367, 0.425]	[0.406, 0.491]	[0.419, 0.498]	[0.391, 0.447]	[0.359, 0.396]	[0.395, 0.441]	[0.353, 0.395]	[0.348, 0.404]	[0.331, 0.427]
Novosibirsk	0.416	0.383	0.406	0.370	0.408	0.433	0.372	0.394	0.402	0.402	0.402
	[0.387, 0.449]	[0.366, 0.398]	[0.378, 0.435]	[0.351, 0.387]	[0.368, 0.456]	[0.368, 0.494]	[0.349, 0.394]	[0.374, 0.414]	[0.374, 0.426]	[0.374, 0.434]	[0.370, 0.429]
Omsk	0.457	0.437	0.417	0.439	0.425	0.410	0.398	0.397	0.373	0.395	0.420
	[0.414, 0.501]	[0.408, 0.468]	[0.388, 0.444]	[0.407, 0.470]	[0.387, 0.461]	[0.382, 0.436]	[0.377, 0.419]	[0.366, 0.426]	[0.351, 0.394]	[0.372, 0.417]	[0.396, 0.440]
Orel	0.393	0.422	0.414	0.412	0.397	0.399	0.380	0.361	0.360	0.397	0.379
	[0.374, 0.410]	[0.386, 0.462]	[0.386, 0.442]	[0.382, 0.441]	[0.375, 0.420]	[0.370, 0.426]	[0.357, 0.405]	[0.334, 0.385]	[0.336, 0.380]	[0.363, 0.428]	[0.354, 0.399]
Orenburg	0.411	0.408	0.436	0.438	0.429	0.404	0.378	0.377	0.420	0.400	0.390
	[0.390, 0.431]	[0.389, 0.428]	[0.406, 0.463]	[0.412, 0.461]	[0.397, 0.458]	[0.378, 0.430]	[0.362, 0.394]	[0.361, 0.393]	[0.387, 0.453]	[0.370, 0.433]	[0.367, 0.416]

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Table B.2.1 – *continued from previous page*

Region	2003	2004	2005	2006	2007	2008	2009	2010	2011	2012	2013
Penza	0.356	0.369	0.373	0.382	0.391	0.392	0.393	0.353	0.363	0.341	0.351
	[0.332, 0.380]	[0.342, 0.400]	[0.345, 0.401]	[0.361, 0.401]	[0.359, 0.419]	[0.350, 0.435]	[0.361, 0.422]	[0.334, 0.370]	[0.330, 0.393]	[0.324, 0.357]	[0.328, 0.372]
Perm'	0.470	0.479	0.492	0.464	0.450	0.433	0.401	0.435	0.417	0.430	0.418
	[0.436, 0.502]	[0.441, 0.511]	[0.451, 0.530]	[0.439, 0.486]	[0.434, 0.465]	[0.406, 0.462]	[0.383, 0.420]	[0.405, 0.461]	[0.384, 0.456]	[0.397, 0.457]	[0.386, 0.442]
Primor'ye	0.370	0.445	0.389	0.389	0.360	0.362	0.361	0.348	0.376	0.305	0.331
	[0.354, 0.385]	[0.391, 0.498]	[0.372, 0.406]	[0.371, 0.405]	[0.343, 0.375]	[0.340, 0.391]	[0.344, 0.378]	[0.335, 0.360]	[0.355, 0.398]	[0.294, 0.316]	[0.312, 0.349]
Pskov	0.427	0.401	0.393	0.387	0.372	0.368	0.367	0.400	0.353	0.421	0.400
	[0.389, 0.465]	[0.364, 0.441]	[0.355, 0.439]	[0.364, 0.411]	[0.351, 0.392]	[0.350, 0.388]	[0.341, 0.393]	[0.370, 0.433]	[0.338, 0.368]	[0.380, 0.459]	[0.366, 0.437]
Rostov	0.376	0.414	0.410	0.371	0.378	0.371	0.353	0.346	0.344	0.336	0.338
	[0.357, 0.394]	[0.370, 0.464]	[0.374, 0.451]	[0.350, 0.392]	[0.360, 0.397]	[0.350, 0.394]	[0.325, 0.382]	[0.323, 0.368]	[0.324, 0.364]	[0.315, 0.356]	[0.313, 0.360]
Ryazan'	0.397	0.360	0.382	0.354	0.371	0.346	0.336	0.378	0.329	0.314	0.314
	[0.377, 0.416]	[0.344, 0.377]	[0.355, 0.414]	[0.331, 0.376]	[0.349, 0.392]	[0.321, 0.371]	[0.306, 0.370]	[0.333, 0.420]	[0.303, 0.351]	[0.290, 0.338]	[0.291, 0.335]
Sakha	0.459	0.434	0.425	0.408	0.408	0.393	0.418	0.352	0.372	0.365	0.357
	[0.431, 0.483]	[0.407, 0.458]	[0.403, 0.445]	[0.390, 0.425]	[0.383, 0.427]	[0.370, 0.412]	[0.382, 0.450]	[0.331, 0.371]	[0.351, 0.392]	[0.348, 0.380]	[0.335, 0.374]
Sakhalin	0.394	0.404	0.365	0.394	0.418	0.405	0.386	0.402	0.369	0.385	0.396
	[0.371, 0.414]	[0.364, 0.441]	[0.339, 0.389]	[0.363, 0.426]	[0.384, 0.454]	[0.370, 0.433]	[0.354, 0.419]	[0.380, 0.421]	[0.346, 0.387]	[0.353, 0.413]	[0.368, 0.425]
Samara	0.397	0.404	0.425	0.472	0.453	0.397	0.414	0.413	0.416	0.384	0.405
	[0.373, 0.418]	[0.380, 0.428]	[0.402, 0.443]	[0.417, 0.512]	[0.390, 0.518]	[0.372, 0.419]	[0.381, 0.442]	[0.382, 0.436]	[0.382, 0.448]	[0.345, 0.421]	[0.360, 0.443]
Saratov	0.404	0.415	0.439	0.397	0.427	0.409	0.391	0.373	0.369	0.371	0.375
	[0.387, 0.420]	[0.396, 0.433]	[0.407, 0.475]	[0.381, 0.411]	[0.380, 0.488]	[0.360, 0.465]	[0.361, 0.421]	[0.354, 0.389]	[0.349, 0.390]	[0.353, 0.389]	[0.349, 0.402]
Smolensk	0.333	0.354	0.318	0.333	0.334	0.403	0.313	0.420	0.389	0.409	0.362
	[0.307, 0.357]	[0.313, 0.403]	[0.287, 0.358]	[0.306, 0.359]	[0.307, 0.359]	[0.345, 0.467]	[0.290, 0.332]	[0.383, 0.458]	[0.358, 0.422]	[0.366, 0.447]	[0.332, 0.395]
Stavropol'	0.476	0.423	0.429	0.420	0.412	0.464	0.369	0.377	0.382	0.386	0.400
	[0.419, 0.530]	[0.382, 0.462]	[0.391, 0.463]	[0.394, 0.443]	[0.378, 0.445]	[0.411, 0.512]	[0.343, 0.396]	[0.349, 0.405]	[0.348, 0.416]	[0.356, 0.415]	[0.368, 0.431]
Sverdlovsk	0.410	0.415	0.413	0.420	0.422	0.406	0.395	0.407	0.419	0.412	0.414
	[0.390, 0.431]	[0.397, 0.432]	[0.394, 0.430]	[0.397, 0.445]	[0.406, 0.437]	[0.389, 0.423]	[0.368, 0.421]	[0.386, 0.426]	[0.389, 0.441]	[0.385, 0.439]	[0.391, 0.433]

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Table B.2.1 – *continued from previous page*

Region	2003	2004	2005	2006	2007	2008	2009	2010	2011	2012	2013
Tambov	0.433	0.361	0.412	0.395	0.410	0.384	0.394	0.383	0.474	0.412	0.456
	[0.370, 0.506]	[0.346, 0.375]	[0.368, 0.458]	[0.362, 0.432]	[0.381, 0.439]	[0.360, 0.406]	[0.347, 0.446]	[0.361, 0.403]	[0.411, 0.525]	[0.372, 0.457]	[0.370, 0.535]
Tatarstan	0.399	0.462	0.410	0.527	0.522	0.522	0.500	0.477	0.513	0.490	0.462
	[0.371, 0.424]	[0.418, 0.503]	[0.383, 0.435]	[0.487, 0.558]	[0.487, 0.550]	[0.488, 0.550]	[0.468, 0.525]	[0.420, 0.519]	[0.441, 0.561]	[0.443, 0.528]	[0.425, 0.494]
Tomsk	0.449	0.447	0.407	0.419	0.471	0.428	0.369	0.387	0.383	0.365	0.473
	[0.422, 0.476]	[0.412, 0.482]	[0.381, 0.436]	[0.376, 0.462]	[0.420, 0.516]	[0.394, 0.457]	[0.350, 0.388]	[0.350, 0.424]	[0.358, 0.410]	[0.343, 0.388]	[0.429, 0.514]
Tula	0.306	0.316	0.280	0.288	0.307	0.333	0.329	0.320	0.306	0.312	0.340
	[0.291, 0.319]	[0.296, 0.334]	[0.265, 0.293]	[0.273, 0.302]	[0.289, 0.326]	[0.310, 0.359]	[0.299, 0.359]	[0.298, 0.339]	[0.287, 0.325]	[0.293, 0.333]	[0.311, 0.372]
Tuva	0.466	0.497	0.483	0.507	0.525	0.466	0.475	0.497	0.482	0.485	0.441
	[0.437, 0.495]	[0.456, 0.534]	[0.459, 0.506]	[0.480, 0.534]	[0.495, 0.554]	[0.445, 0.487]	[0.459, 0.491]	[0.475, 0.519]	[0.458, 0.503]	[0.463, 0.507]	[0.422, 0.460]
Tver'	0.385	0.385	0.400	0.345	0.343	0.426	0.414	0.410	0.381	0.398	0.371
	[0.358, 0.416]	[0.345, 0.440]	[0.354, 0.449]	[0.331, 0.360]	[0.329, 0.355]	[0.365, 0.478]	[0.380, 0.444]	[0.377, 0.442]	[0.338, 0.419]	[0.346, 0.446]	[0.317, 0.430]
Tyumen'	0.428	0.440	0.448	0.402	0.423	0.421	0.390	0.409	0.387	0.381	0.412
	[0.413, 0.442]	[0.426, 0.453]	[0.430, 0.467]	[0.388, 0.416]	[0.403, 0.441]	[0.392, 0.450]	[0.376, 0.404]	[0.390, 0.428]	[0.369, 0.405]	[0.362, 0.403]	[0.390, 0.433]
Udmurt	0.351	0.368	0.354	0.369	0.361	0.349	0.340	0.347	0.363	0.329	0.346
	[0.336, 0.365]	[0.349, 0.388]	[0.340, 0.369]	[0.349, 0.388]	[0.346, 0.375]	[0.334, 0.364]	[0.319, 0.365]	[0.328, 0.366]	[0.342, 0.381]	[0.308, 0.349]	[0.324, 0.369]
Ul'yanovsk	0.383	0.379	0.387	0.373	0.362	0.343	0.372	0.346	0.342	0.398	0.416
	[0.357, 0.413]	[0.360, 0.398]	[0.360, 0.418]	[0.354, 0.392]	[0.340, 0.382]	[0.324, 0.360]	[0.348, 0.395]	[0.324, 0.366]	[0.323, 0.358]	[0.326, 0.482]	[0.367, 0.463]
Vladimir	0.323	0.341	0.335	0.318	0.364	0.367	0.315	0.366	0.367	0.386	0.390
	[0.307, 0.341]	[0.318, 0.365]	[0.311, 0.359]	[0.299, 0.335]	[0.332, 0.397]	[0.339, 0.394]	[0.297, 0.333]	[0.324, 0.412]	[0.328, 0.415]	[0.337, 0.431]	[0.337, 0.445]
Volgograd	0.407	0.383	0.400	0.369	0.381	0.374	0.320	0.363	0.336	0.368	0.383
	[0.384, 0.428]	[0.363, 0.399]	[0.367, 0.435]	[0.342, 0.392]	[0.352, 0.405]	[0.336, 0.412]	[0.300, 0.337]	[0.329, 0.403]	[0.317, 0.353]	[0.332, 0.406]	[0.345, 0.422]
Vologda	0.400	0.370	0.374	0.387	0.378	0.367	0.349	0.334	0.337	0.401	0.385
	[0.377, 0.425]	[0.354, 0.389]	[0.355, 0.395]	[0.366, 0.406]	[0.352, 0.401]	[0.343, 0.391]	[0.331, 0.368]	[0.311, 0.362]	[0.313, 0.362]	[0.348, 0.443]	[0.327, 0.439]
Voronezh	0.415	0.392	0.409	0.404	0.436	0.451	0.430	0.379	0.380	0.334	0.415
	[0.392, 0.435]	[0.372, 0.412]	[0.387, 0.432]	[0.376, 0.434]	[0.406, 0.463]	[0.401, 0.492]	[0.376, 0.481]	[0.356, 0.404]	[0.353, 0.404]	[0.314, 0.354]	[0.334, 0.481]

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Table B.2.1 – *continued from previous page*

Region	2003	2004	2005	2006	2007	2008	2009	2010	2011	2012	2013
Yaroslavl'	0.372	0.375	0.413	0.382	0.412	0.411	0.349	0.360	0.383	0.388	0.400
	[0.353, 0.389]	[0.358, 0.392]	[0.388, 0.436]	[0.361, 0.400]	[0.377, 0.451]	[0.357, 0.464]	[0.324, 0.372]	[0.339, 0.378]	[0.344, 0.420]	[0.357, 0.424]	[0.356, 0.444]
Yevrey	0.379	0.392	0.413	0.409	0.385	0.382	0.347	0.347	0.381	0.410	0.412
	[0.352, 0.404]	[0.366, 0.415]	[0.384, 0.438]	[0.371, 0.446]	[0.359, 0.412]	[0.353, 0.409]	[0.324, 0.367]	[0.327, 0.366]	[0.357, 0.405]	[0.378, 0.439]	[0.382, 0.443]
Zabaykal'ye	0.446	0.421	0.426	0.433	0.424	0.397	0.419	0.378	0.380	0.377	0.400
	[0.425, 0.469]	[0.405, 0.437]	[0.406, 0.446]	[0.410, 0.460]	[0.406, 0.441]	[0.379, 0.415]	[0.385, 0.464]	[0.362, 0.392]	[0.357, 0.407]	[0.361, 0.391]	[0.364, 0.447]

Notes: The table reports estimates from Rosstat HBS (OBDH) microdata. Brackets = [2.5th percentile, 97.5th percentile] bootstrap CI from 1,000 replications. Income winsorized at 0.05th/99.95th percentiles within each year.

Table B.2.2: Regional Gini Coefficients

Region	2014	2015	2016	2017	2018	2019	2020	2021	2022	2023
Adygey	0.317	0.319	0.327	0.298	0.289	0.295	0.301	0.314	0.301	0.301
	[0.292, 0.341]	[0.292, 0.351]	[0.285, 0.375]	[0.276, 0.323]	[0.267, 0.310]	[0.265, 0.326]	[0.278, 0.320]	[0.290, 0.336]	[0.279, 0.325]	[0.281, 0.323]
Altay	0.413	0.388	0.376	0.350	0.351	0.359	0.355	0.368	0.339	0.350
	[0.379, 0.445]	[0.354, 0.420]	[0.350, 0.404]	[0.331, 0.367]	[0.329, 0.373]	[0.341, 0.379]	[0.329, 0.383]	[0.341, 0.403]	[0.320, 0.357]	[0.319, 0.381]
Amur	0.431	0.332	0.355	0.349	0.349	0.365	0.389	0.377	0.349	0.371
	[0.367, 0.494]	[0.310, 0.353]	[0.318, 0.389]	[0.315, 0.385]	[0.316, 0.382]	[0.329, 0.396]	[0.350, 0.427]	[0.342, 0.411]	[0.314, 0.384]	[0.335, 0.400]
Arkhangel'sk	0.367	0.357	0.341	0.365	0.366	0.373	0.407	0.355	0.364	0.380
	[0.349, 0.386]	[0.327, 0.394]	[0.322, 0.361]	[0.341, 0.387]	[0.341, 0.392]	[0.340, 0.404]	[0.360, 0.451]	[0.334, 0.379]	[0.325, 0.402]	[0.347, 0.408]
Astrakhan'	0.320	0.304	0.315	0.306	0.299	0.319	0.297	0.288	0.305	0.323
	[0.302, 0.337]	[0.282, 0.323]	[0.296, 0.331]	[0.292, 0.320]	[0.284, 0.313]	[0.294, 0.349]	[0.280, 0.311]	[0.275, 0.301]	[0.285, 0.330]	[0.297, 0.354]
Bashkortostan	0.444	0.398	0.404	0.418	0.392	0.369	0.401	0.353	0.346	0.361
	[0.411, 0.474]	[0.370, 0.423]	[0.378, 0.431]	[0.389, 0.447]	[0.367, 0.417]	[0.352, 0.387]	[0.366, 0.437]	[0.328, 0.380]	[0.325, 0.367]	[0.335, 0.386]
Belgorod	0.377	0.378	0.325	0.330	0.358	0.317	0.299	0.303	0.272	0.259
	[0.316, 0.452]	[0.335, 0.419]	[0.299, 0.348]	[0.311, 0.346]	[0.315, 0.401]	[0.280, 0.363]	[0.281, 0.313]	[0.262, 0.355]	[0.252, 0.288]	[0.244, 0.272]
Bryansk	0.343	0.311	0.287	0.281	0.310	0.274	0.277	0.272	0.279	0.252
	[0.320, 0.361]	[0.283, 0.339]	[0.257, 0.325]	[0.260, 0.300]	[0.288, 0.328]	[0.252, 0.298]	[0.250, 0.306]	[0.244, 0.307]	[0.243, 0.315]	[0.232, 0.271]
Buryat	0.349	0.388	0.416	0.400	0.395	0.385	0.345	0.339	0.336	0.384
	[0.328, 0.367]	[0.342, 0.436]	[0.389, 0.443]	[0.375, 0.426]	[0.368, 0.420]	[0.351, 0.422]	[0.323, 0.365]	[0.316, 0.358]	[0.313, 0.360]	[0.347, 0.421]
Chechnya	0.303	0.269	0.258	0.261	0.261	0.298	0.272	0.250	0.240	0.198
	[0.262, 0.342]	[0.231, 0.308]	[0.229, 0.287]	[0.230, 0.291]	[0.234, 0.287]	[0.254, 0.339]	[0.244, 0.308]	[0.228, 0.271]	[0.218, 0.261]	[0.178, 0.219]
Chelyabinsk	0.355	0.369	0.331	0.322	0.333	0.333	0.302	0.321	0.292	0.297
	[0.331, 0.380]	[0.344, 0.392]	[0.314, 0.348]	[0.306, 0.338]	[0.314, 0.352]	[0.310, 0.356]	[0.279, 0.332]	[0.304, 0.336]	[0.278, 0.305]	[0.274, 0.328]
Chukot	0.425	0.429	0.409	0.400	0.347	0.330	0.329	0.330	0.324	0.294
	[0.391, 0.458]	[0.387, 0.462]	[0.366, 0.446]	[0.365, 0.429]	[0.315, 0.382]	[0.303, 0.355]	[0.302, 0.356]	[0.301, 0.359]	[0.298, 0.348]	[0.272, 0.315]

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Table B.2.2 – *continued from previous page*

Region	2014	2015	2016	2017	2018	2019	2020	2021	2022	2023
Chuvash	0.315	0.342	0.314	0.331	0.249	0.252	0.238	0.269	0.249	0.260
	[0.292, 0.338]	[0.311, 0.371]	[0.291, 0.336]	[0.271, 0.401]	[0.231, 0.263]	[0.226, 0.277]	[0.221, 0.253]	[0.246, 0.292]	[0.230, 0.268]	[0.238, 0.280]
City of St. Petersburg	0.325	0.294	0.293	0.288	0.325	0.292	0.321	0.302	0.318	0.308
	[0.304, 0.344]	[0.280, 0.308]	[0.279, 0.306]	[0.269, 0.304]	[0.276, 0.375]	[0.274, 0.309]	[0.299, 0.340]	[0.278, 0.323]	[0.293, 0.340]	[0.292, 0.322]
Dagestan	0.279	0.253	0.292	0.251	0.276	0.286	0.255	0.273	0.219	0.253
	[0.248, 0.309]	[0.225, 0.287]	[0.255, 0.334]	[0.226, 0.276]	[0.244, 0.308]	[0.248, 0.327]	[0.233, 0.278]	[0.241, 0.307]	[0.198, 0.241]	[0.225, 0.277]
Gorno-Altay	0.385	0.364	0.357	0.378	0.385	0.357	0.376	0.352	0.334	0.355
	[0.365, 0.405]	[0.343, 0.384]	[0.336, 0.379]	[0.344, 0.414]	[0.333, 0.439]	[0.334, 0.379]	[0.345, 0.407]	[0.330, 0.374]	[0.309, 0.359]	[0.300, 0.412]
Ingush	0.228	0.279	0.233	0.255	0.237	0.197	0.182	0.227	0.196	0.173
	[0.206, 0.248]	[0.249, 0.306]	[0.201, 0.265]	[0.228, 0.277]	[0.195, 0.277]	[0.178, 0.215]	[0.167, 0.197]	[0.207, 0.246]	[0.176, 0.215]	[0.153, 0.190]
Irkutsk	0.382	0.416	0.374	0.385	0.393	0.402	0.394	0.386	0.378	0.391
	[0.366, 0.400]	[0.384, 0.450]	[0.359, 0.387]	[0.362, 0.407]	[0.370, 0.419]	[0.377, 0.429]	[0.366, 0.428]	[0.363, 0.408]	[0.358, 0.399]	[0.366, 0.413]
Ivanovo	0.310	0.345	0.345	0.287	0.270	0.250	0.294	0.283	0.274	0.307
	[0.290, 0.327]	[0.303, 0.385]	[0.300, 0.397]	[0.267, 0.309]	[0.252, 0.287]	[0.234, 0.263]	[0.260, 0.333]	[0.265, 0.300]	[0.256, 0.292]	[0.279, 0.332]
Kabardin-Balkar	0.306	0.295	0.337	0.315	0.298	0.290	0.271	0.252	0.245	0.282
	[0.287, 0.325]	[0.278, 0.312]	[0.320, 0.352]	[0.295, 0.336]	[0.280, 0.314]	[0.275, 0.304]	[0.257, 0.285]	[0.240, 0.264]	[0.235, 0.255]	[0.245, 0.326]
Kaliningrad	0.409	0.400	0.380	0.416	0.417	0.374	0.378	0.380	0.348	0.394
	[0.377, 0.436]	[0.356, 0.444]	[0.334, 0.438]	[0.361, 0.462]	[0.366, 0.462]	[0.341, 0.414]	[0.334, 0.424]	[0.322, 0.439]	[0.314, 0.383]	[0.334, 0.450]
Kalmyk	0.453	0.374	0.357	0.327	0.307	0.308	0.331	0.285	0.256	0.274
	[0.414, 0.489]	[0.353, 0.396]	[0.332, 0.381]	[0.305, 0.347]	[0.290, 0.324]	[0.288, 0.326]	[0.283, 0.392]	[0.265, 0.304]	[0.239, 0.273]	[0.238, 0.317]
Kaluga	0.387	0.328	0.301	0.369	0.309	0.349	0.300	0.361	0.302	0.327
	[0.331, 0.447]	[0.308, 0.346]	[0.283, 0.316]	[0.313, 0.425]	[0.285, 0.330]	[0.299, 0.407]	[0.280, 0.320]	[0.302, 0.422]	[0.278, 0.324]	[0.297, 0.357]
Kamchatka	0.313	0.351	0.365	0.360	0.339	0.342	0.335	0.304	0.283	0.313
	[0.298, 0.326]	[0.323, 0.380]	[0.334, 0.392]	[0.323, 0.394]	[0.311, 0.365]	[0.311, 0.373]	[0.300, 0.364]	[0.275, 0.331]	[0.255, 0.308]	[0.273, 0.356]
Karachay-Cherkess	0.319	0.303	0.329	0.333	0.347	0.317	0.286	0.307	0.307	0.298
	[0.301, 0.335]	[0.285, 0.321]	[0.307, 0.349]	[0.309, 0.354]	[0.308, 0.392]	[0.296, 0.335]	[0.270, 0.301]	[0.275, 0.346]	[0.283, 0.329]	[0.276, 0.321]

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Table B.2.2 – *continued from previous page*

Region	2014	2015	2016	2017	2018	2019	2020	2021	2022	2023
Karelia	0.355	0.332	0.326	0.344	0.360	0.397	0.356	0.368	0.402	0.359
	[0.331, 0.377]	[0.310, 0.356]	[0.307, 0.343]	[0.320, 0.371]	[0.325, 0.393]	[0.334, 0.459]	[0.306, 0.410]	[0.306, 0.440]	[0.345, 0.456]	[0.332, 0.386]
Kemerovo	0.400	0.364	0.362	0.377	0.350	0.375	0.337	0.334	0.364	0.351
	[0.349, 0.450]	[0.326, 0.404]	[0.341, 0.384]	[0.336, 0.430]	[0.332, 0.367]	[0.343, 0.408]	[0.321, 0.353]	[0.316, 0.352]	[0.329, 0.399]	[0.322, 0.383]
Khabarovsk	0.364	0.346	0.371	0.372	0.412	0.370	0.383	0.339	0.310	0.329
	[0.336, 0.391]	[0.324, 0.368]	[0.349, 0.394]	[0.348, 0.399]	[0.367, 0.457]	[0.340, 0.398]	[0.333, 0.432]	[0.305, 0.375]	[0.288, 0.337]	[0.308, 0.348]
Khakass	0.333	0.374	0.351	0.353	0.347	0.329	0.300	0.299	0.280	0.311
	[0.318, 0.346]	[0.346, 0.401]	[0.334, 0.369]	[0.333, 0.374]	[0.327, 0.370]	[0.314, 0.344]	[0.283, 0.316]	[0.283, 0.315]	[0.268, 0.290]	[0.293, 0.328]
Kirov	0.436	0.385	0.356	0.348	0.325	0.310	0.306	0.309	0.321	0.346
	[0.407, 0.462]	[0.363, 0.405]	[0.331, 0.380]	[0.314, 0.381]	[0.298, 0.352]	[0.288, 0.331]	[0.288, 0.326]	[0.289, 0.331]	[0.298, 0.345]	[0.322, 0.371]
Komi	0.392	0.332	0.339	0.341	0.353	0.361	0.338	0.329	0.322	0.351
	[0.371, 0.413]	[0.315, 0.349]	[0.325, 0.355]	[0.326, 0.357]	[0.335, 0.369]	[0.335, 0.389]	[0.318, 0.358]	[0.303, 0.367]	[0.308, 0.335]	[0.330, 0.375]
Kostroma	0.335	0.354	0.332	0.332	0.297	0.292	0.295	0.270	0.270	0.284
	[0.311, 0.360]	[0.305, 0.413]	[0.308, 0.355]	[0.306, 0.358]	[0.278, 0.314]	[0.269, 0.313]	[0.249, 0.358]	[0.247, 0.294]	[0.252, 0.288]	[0.257, 0.309]
Krasnodar	0.380	0.393	0.363	0.369	0.388	0.341	0.361	0.344	0.362	0.358
	[0.350, 0.408]	[0.359, 0.428]	[0.340, 0.384]	[0.342, 0.398]	[0.349, 0.430]	[0.321, 0.360]	[0.332, 0.389]	[0.318, 0.370]	[0.330, 0.391]	[0.325, 0.387]
Krasnoyarsk	0.380	0.374	0.370	0.378	0.362	0.365	0.366	0.378	0.358	0.384
	[0.363, 0.399]	[0.354, 0.392]	[0.355, 0.384]	[0.362, 0.396]	[0.348, 0.376]	[0.354, 0.376]	[0.349, 0.384]	[0.362, 0.396]	[0.341, 0.375]	[0.356, 0.412]
Kurgan	0.368	0.365	0.339	0.346	0.370	0.367	0.301	0.296	0.330	0.283
	[0.347, 0.387]	[0.322, 0.411]	[0.311, 0.364]	[0.321, 0.371]	[0.324, 0.425]	[0.313, 0.430]	[0.285, 0.317]	[0.275, 0.315]	[0.265, 0.416]	[0.259, 0.304]
Kursk	0.357	0.349	0.327	0.338	0.375	0.347	0.351	0.364	0.351	0.351
	[0.322, 0.389]	[0.312, 0.389]	[0.299, 0.354]	[0.305, 0.364]	[0.332, 0.424]	[0.313, 0.378]	[0.317, 0.381]	[0.324, 0.399]	[0.302, 0.394]	[0.309, 0.388]
Leningrad	0.283	0.291	0.262	0.314	0.252	0.260	0.265	0.255	0.262	0.262
	[0.263, 0.306]	[0.270, 0.312]	[0.249, 0.274]	[0.267, 0.370]	[0.239, 0.264]	[0.244, 0.276]	[0.245, 0.285]	[0.237, 0.274]	[0.243, 0.280]	[0.242, 0.280]
Lipetsk	0.350	0.351	0.331	0.296	0.321	0.320	0.307	0.315	0.294	0.327
	[0.332, 0.366]	[0.317, 0.387]	[0.308, 0.351]	[0.280, 0.310]	[0.279, 0.369]	[0.291, 0.351]	[0.280, 0.336]	[0.277, 0.358]	[0.272, 0.317]	[0.285, 0.381]

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Table B.2.2 – *continued from previous page*

Region	2014	2015	2016	2017	2018	2019	2020	2021	2022	2023
Magadan	0.399	0.401	0.353	0.354	0.342	0.386	0.392	0.408	0.378	0.405
	[0.367, 0.432]	[0.367, 0.435]	[0.331, 0.373]	[0.330, 0.376]	[0.320, 0.361]	[0.362, 0.407]	[0.370, 0.411]	[0.383, 0.431]	[0.350, 0.401]	[0.374, 0.430]
Mariy-El	0.498	0.392	0.374	0.378	0.389	0.371	0.395	0.337	0.312	0.316
	[0.423, 0.565]	[0.352, 0.431]	[0.342, 0.404]	[0.350, 0.413]	[0.362, 0.419]	[0.344, 0.398]	[0.340, 0.458]	[0.316, 0.355]	[0.297, 0.327]	[0.301, 0.331]
Mordovia	0.352	0.330	0.334	0.330	0.323	0.279	0.278	0.276	0.269	0.275
	[0.324, 0.381]	[0.308, 0.353]	[0.307, 0.365]	[0.306, 0.352]	[0.280, 0.379]	[0.257, 0.299]	[0.258, 0.298]	[0.255, 0.299]	[0.248, 0.290]	[0.253, 0.296]
Moscow City	0.415	0.382	0.356	0.348	0.369	0.383	0.360	0.355	0.346	0.391
	[0.386, 0.438]	[0.355, 0.404]	[0.327, 0.379]	[0.314, 0.379]	[0.336, 0.397]	[0.352, 0.407]	[0.332, 0.387]	[0.324, 0.380]	[0.312, 0.373]	[0.348, 0.425]
Moskva	0.492	0.460	0.392	0.392	0.411	0.389	0.427	0.365	0.341	0.377
	[0.465, 0.518]	[0.423, 0.492]	[0.358, 0.422]	[0.365, 0.417]	[0.366, 0.447]	[0.350, 0.428]	[0.382, 0.464]	[0.329, 0.402]	[0.320, 0.357]	[0.352, 0.400]
Murmansk	0.291	0.314	0.306	0.297	0.282	0.286	0.298	0.289	0.278	0.300
	[0.278, 0.303]	[0.300, 0.327]	[0.292, 0.321]	[0.285, 0.306]	[0.268, 0.295]	[0.273, 0.298]	[0.280, 0.318]	[0.274, 0.306]	[0.265, 0.293]	[0.280, 0.324]
Nizhegorod	0.388	0.448	0.380	0.417	0.399	0.411	0.371	0.351	0.351	0.347
	[0.362, 0.412]	[0.395, 0.490]	[0.354, 0.402]	[0.373, 0.452]	[0.358, 0.434]	[0.356, 0.464]	[0.319, 0.431]	[0.322, 0.380]	[0.318, 0.380]	[0.321, 0.372]
North Ossetia	0.382	0.343	0.327	0.301	0.304	0.279	0.301	0.280	0.296	0.260
	[0.339, 0.417]	[0.321, 0.365]	[0.309, 0.344]	[0.275, 0.326]	[0.279, 0.326]	[0.252, 0.307]	[0.257, 0.353]	[0.252, 0.308]	[0.264, 0.325]	[0.239, 0.281]
Novgorod	0.408	0.432	0.349	0.351	0.374	0.367	0.370	0.389	0.360	0.396
	[0.374, 0.439]	[0.393, 0.467]	[0.325, 0.374]	[0.332, 0.370]	[0.356, 0.392]	[0.347, 0.386]	[0.338, 0.400]	[0.351, 0.425]	[0.315, 0.415]	[0.315, 0.487]
Novosibirsk	0.414	0.385	0.410	0.376	0.401	0.439	0.412	0.395	0.395	0.384
	[0.366, 0.461]	[0.354, 0.415]	[0.387, 0.428]	[0.349, 0.403]	[0.363, 0.454]	[0.399, 0.480]	[0.384, 0.437]	[0.369, 0.419]	[0.365, 0.424]	[0.361, 0.405]
Omsk	0.409	0.413	0.370	0.365	0.372	0.376	0.358	0.327	0.345	0.361
	[0.375, 0.444]	[0.382, 0.440]	[0.345, 0.393]	[0.340, 0.395]	[0.341, 0.402]	[0.335, 0.427]	[0.320, 0.400]	[0.310, 0.344]	[0.319, 0.369]	[0.334, 0.386]
Orel	0.402	0.397	0.367	0.366	0.339	0.328	0.386	0.344	0.349	0.316
	[0.361, 0.445]	[0.355, 0.437]	[0.341, 0.390]	[0.339, 0.394]	[0.319, 0.359]	[0.303, 0.353]	[0.346, 0.421]	[0.320, 0.368]	[0.315, 0.383]	[0.292, 0.341]
Orenburg	0.405	0.372	0.423	0.440	0.385	0.394	0.370	0.378	0.358	0.348
	[0.372, 0.442]	[0.353, 0.388]	[0.374, 0.468]	[0.394, 0.484]	[0.358, 0.415]	[0.374, 0.413]	[0.347, 0.392]	[0.343, 0.415]	[0.326, 0.391]	[0.316, 0.385]

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Table B.2.2 – *continued from previous page*

Region	2014	2015	2016	2017	2018	2019	2020	2021	2022	2023
Penza	0.347	0.341	0.307	0.344	0.364	0.323	0.383	0.386	0.355	0.315
	[0.317, 0.379]	[0.311, 0.372]	[0.288, 0.325]	[0.313, 0.374]	[0.335, 0.391]	[0.301, 0.341]	[0.341, 0.428]	[0.338, 0.428]	[0.302, 0.404]	[0.272, 0.358]
Perm'	0.403	0.391	0.378	0.382	0.361	0.414	0.341	0.325	0.324	0.345
	[0.373, 0.434]	[0.360, 0.421]	[0.351, 0.402]	[0.354, 0.410]	[0.343, 0.379]	[0.372, 0.453]	[0.319, 0.362]	[0.304, 0.350]	[0.303, 0.347]	[0.315, 0.379]
Primor'ye	0.360	0.365	0.338	0.377	0.363	0.325	0.317	0.332	0.349	0.382
	[0.334, 0.388]	[0.342, 0.387]	[0.321, 0.353]	[0.340, 0.418]	[0.344, 0.381]	[0.310, 0.340]	[0.305, 0.329]	[0.316, 0.348]	[0.329, 0.366]	[0.352, 0.410]
Pskov	0.389	0.359	0.354	0.364	0.378	0.331	0.332	0.323	0.322	0.341
	[0.352, 0.434]	[0.333, 0.388]	[0.332, 0.373]	[0.334, 0.393]	[0.329, 0.426]	[0.310, 0.350]	[0.304, 0.361]	[0.295, 0.354]	[0.302, 0.341]	[0.317, 0.364]
Rostov	0.379	0.356	0.373	0.353	0.341	0.329	0.376	0.351	0.339	0.399
	[0.342, 0.411]	[0.331, 0.378]	[0.347, 0.395]	[0.330, 0.376]	[0.319, 0.366]	[0.308, 0.349]	[0.343, 0.406]	[0.330, 0.372]	[0.318, 0.357]	[0.354, 0.439]
Ryazan'	0.316	0.330	0.271	0.293	0.298	0.294	0.292	0.282	0.289	0.282
	[0.293, 0.336]	[0.296, 0.364]	[0.247, 0.292]	[0.266, 0.318]	[0.271, 0.326]	[0.265, 0.320]	[0.266, 0.313]	[0.256, 0.304]	[0.261, 0.316]	[0.256, 0.309]
Sakha	0.358	0.351	0.377	0.377	0.374	0.359	0.363	0.360	0.340	0.347
	[0.338, 0.376]	[0.332, 0.370]	[0.355, 0.400]	[0.357, 0.394]	[0.351, 0.395]	[0.341, 0.376]	[0.338, 0.384]	[0.342, 0.375]	[0.314, 0.363]	[0.318, 0.370]
Sakhalin	0.441	0.433	0.376	0.377	0.430	0.386	0.365	0.360	0.385	0.349
	[0.403, 0.476]	[0.405, 0.460]	[0.357, 0.394]	[0.354, 0.399]	[0.380, 0.466]	[0.351, 0.420]	[0.340, 0.388]	[0.330, 0.390]	[0.339, 0.424]	[0.324, 0.376]
Samara	0.386	0.391	0.388	0.352	0.346	0.350	0.310	0.345	0.319	0.315
	[0.357, 0.411]	[0.362, 0.422]	[0.351, 0.420]	[0.321, 0.385]	[0.321, 0.372]	[0.315, 0.384]	[0.287, 0.335]	[0.297, 0.401]	[0.290, 0.350]	[0.289, 0.336]
Saratov	0.372	0.351	0.343	0.359	0.349	0.294	0.308	0.320	0.273	0.266
	[0.344, 0.402]	[0.331, 0.370]	[0.325, 0.359]	[0.331, 0.386]	[0.325, 0.373]	[0.279, 0.306]	[0.288, 0.329]	[0.285, 0.358]	[0.260, 0.285]	[0.254, 0.277]
Smolensk	0.373	0.342	0.374	0.310	0.298	0.322	0.301	0.298	0.291	0.287
	[0.337, 0.405]	[0.300, 0.387]	[0.331, 0.415]	[0.284, 0.334]	[0.282, 0.314]	[0.293, 0.362]	[0.287, 0.314]	[0.282, 0.312]	[0.272, 0.307]	[0.263, 0.310]
Stavropol'	0.421	0.430	0.381	0.420	0.423	0.403	0.399	0.328	0.306	0.303
	[0.370, 0.469]	[0.379, 0.477]	[0.332, 0.428]	[0.365, 0.469]	[0.372, 0.473]	[0.357, 0.446]	[0.340, 0.450]	[0.304, 0.352]	[0.283, 0.330]	[0.268, 0.344]
Sverdlovsk	0.399	0.397	0.368	0.392	0.404	0.391	0.385	0.366	0.369	0.341
	[0.372, 0.429]	[0.372, 0.420]	[0.348, 0.388]	[0.366, 0.421]	[0.376, 0.431]	[0.368, 0.412]	[0.362, 0.405]	[0.347, 0.383]	[0.344, 0.391]	[0.324, 0.355]

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Table B.2.2 – *continued from previous page*

Region	2014	2015	2016	2017	2018	2019	2020	2021	2022	2023
Tambov	0.416	0.431	0.378	0.374	0.348	0.357	0.322	0.347	0.339	0.361
	[0.385, 0.443]	[0.380, 0.474]	[0.350, 0.411]	[0.345, 0.399]	[0.329, 0.366]	[0.314, 0.408]	[0.294, 0.349]	[0.292, 0.405]	[0.303, 0.372]	[0.306, 0.425]
Tatarstan	0.452	0.420	0.407	0.405	0.383	0.392	0.389	0.396	0.382	0.344
	[0.420, 0.479]	[0.395, 0.440]	[0.376, 0.434]	[0.372, 0.439]	[0.360, 0.405]	[0.367, 0.412]	[0.368, 0.412]	[0.370, 0.419]	[0.348, 0.417]	[0.326, 0.361]
Tomsk	0.461	0.369	0.377	0.372	0.353	0.329	0.354	0.364	0.314	0.297
	[0.409, 0.502]	[0.346, 0.390]	[0.345, 0.409]	[0.318, 0.432]	[0.330, 0.374]	[0.313, 0.344]	[0.331, 0.375]	[0.297, 0.440]	[0.293, 0.334]	[0.279, 0.315]
Tula	0.310	0.303	0.315	0.318	0.303	0.307	0.291	0.295	0.290	0.358
	[0.290, 0.329]	[0.285, 0.321]	[0.295, 0.333]	[0.294, 0.341]	[0.285, 0.318]	[0.286, 0.325]	[0.270, 0.314]	[0.281, 0.307]	[0.274, 0.304]	[0.311, 0.415]
Tuva	0.452	0.408	0.412	0.360	0.364	0.385	0.344	0.372	0.370	0.424
	[0.415, 0.490]	[0.389, 0.425]	[0.390, 0.434]	[0.343, 0.377]	[0.342, 0.384]	[0.366, 0.403]	[0.326, 0.362]	[0.349, 0.394]	[0.351, 0.391]	[0.389, 0.463]
Tver'	0.334	0.328	0.322	0.297	0.307	0.306	0.325	0.320	0.286	0.308
	[0.318, 0.350]	[0.298, 0.364]	[0.302, 0.342]	[0.283, 0.309]	[0.292, 0.325]	[0.292, 0.321]	[0.277, 0.378]	[0.287, 0.364]	[0.267, 0.303]	[0.283, 0.333]
Tyumen'	0.398	0.413	0.406	0.386	0.389	0.387	0.403	0.382	0.379	0.359
	[0.382, 0.412]	[0.387, 0.441]	[0.380, 0.433]	[0.356, 0.413]	[0.365, 0.413]	[0.366, 0.404]	[0.371, 0.434]	[0.359, 0.403]	[0.357, 0.399]	[0.335, 0.386]
Udmurt	0.321	0.325	0.314	0.309	0.308	0.304	0.308	0.289	0.283	0.262
	[0.303, 0.339]	[0.297, 0.357]	[0.300, 0.329]	[0.293, 0.325]	[0.289, 0.326]	[0.288, 0.321]	[0.289, 0.327]	[0.274, 0.303]	[0.255, 0.324]	[0.248, 0.275]
Ul'yanovsk	0.402	0.385	0.404	0.354	0.365	0.326	0.401	0.352	0.386	0.374
	[0.358, 0.438]	[0.335, 0.449]	[0.342, 0.460]	[0.329, 0.377]	[0.318, 0.420]	[0.307, 0.343]	[0.328, 0.479]	[0.325, 0.381]	[0.325, 0.464]	[0.344, 0.404]
Vladimir	0.333	0.344	0.307	0.323	0.310	0.307	0.285	0.322	0.340	0.348
	[0.300, 0.364]	[0.306, 0.384]	[0.290, 0.324]	[0.288, 0.374]	[0.287, 0.335]	[0.283, 0.334]	[0.266, 0.306]	[0.290, 0.356]	[0.306, 0.372]	[0.316, 0.381]
Volgograd	0.354	0.390	0.385	0.335	0.336	0.333	0.307	0.311	0.323	0.337
	[0.322, 0.385]	[0.345, 0.432]	[0.337, 0.436]	[0.308, 0.364]	[0.311, 0.362]	[0.313, 0.354]	[0.293, 0.320]	[0.290, 0.331]	[0.302, 0.343]	[0.305, 0.367]
Vologda	0.431	0.439	0.316	0.322	0.320	0.329	0.308	0.298	0.311	0.330
	[0.358, 0.482]	[0.352, 0.498]	[0.299, 0.335]	[0.302, 0.344]	[0.304, 0.334]	[0.312, 0.344]	[0.293, 0.323]	[0.282, 0.315]	[0.275, 0.363]	[0.304, 0.356]
Voronezh	0.391	0.336	0.357	0.423	0.369	0.382	0.336	0.327	0.361	0.303
	[0.355, 0.422]	[0.317, 0.351]	[0.329, 0.383]	[0.358, 0.474]	[0.340, 0.401]	[0.323, 0.442]	[0.305, 0.374]	[0.303, 0.347]	[0.286, 0.446]	[0.268, 0.343]

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Table B.2.2 – *continued from previous page*

Region	2014	2015	2016	2017	2018	2019	2020	2021	2022	2023
Yaroslavl'	0.430	0.397	0.393	0.412	0.403	0.388	0.347	0.369	0.360	0.398
	[0.381, 0.477]	[0.365, 0.431]	[0.357, 0.427]	[0.378, 0.452]	[0.367, 0.435]	[0.360, 0.413]	[0.322, 0.369]	[0.337, 0.397]	[0.333, 0.387]	[0.358, 0.436]
Yevrey	0.397	0.371	0.378	0.353	0.387	0.370	0.335	0.349	0.295	0.325
	[0.365, 0.426]	[0.344, 0.399]	[0.355, 0.399]	[0.327, 0.379]	[0.338, 0.436]	[0.335, 0.402]	[0.307, 0.364]	[0.312, 0.384]	[0.271, 0.316]	[0.283, 0.372]
Zabaykal'ye	0.362	0.356	0.380	0.389	0.381	0.399	0.382	0.368	0.336	0.355
	[0.344, 0.381]	[0.340, 0.372]	[0.361, 0.400]	[0.367, 0.412]	[0.360, 0.400]	[0.376, 0.425]	[0.358, 0.407]	[0.346, 0.390]	[0.314, 0.359]	[0.314, 0.400]

Notes: The table reports estimates from Rosstat HBS (OBDH) microdata. Brackets = [2.5th percentile, 97.5th percentile] bootstrap CI from 1,000 replications. Income winsorized at 0.05th/99.95th percentiles within each year.

B.3 Urban–Rural Inequality

This subsection presents the full numerical results underlying the urban–rural inequality analysis referenced in Sections 4.2 and 4.3. The regional decomposition in Section 4.2 showed that most national inequality in Russia arises within, rather than between, regions; this subsection asks whether the same pattern holds for a different geographic partition, the divide between urban and rural households. Official Rosstat statistics do not publish inequality estimates separately for urban and rural populations, nor do they decompose total inequality into urban–rural components. HBS (OBDH) microdata allow us to examine both.

Figure B.3.1 documents the evolution of income inequality separately for urban and rural households over 2003–2023. Panel (a) reports the Gini coefficient, while Panel (b) reports the Theil index GE(1), which forms the basis of the decomposition below. Both measures show the same broad pattern. Throughout the period, income inequality is higher in urban than in rural areas, with the urban Gini exceeding the rural Gini in every year by between 0.01 and 0.04 points (the confidence intervals overlap in 2003–2007), a gap that widens, with fluctuations, from about 0.01 in the mid-2000s to about 0.04 in the 2020s. This difference is consistent with the greater dispersion of labor incomes in cities, where returns to skill and occupation are more pronounced and high-income households are more concentrated. Because household surveys such as HBS (OBDH) systematically underrepresent high incomes (Section 4), the observed urban–rural gap may understate the true difference. Inequality declined substantially in both urban and rural areas over the sample period, alongside the decline in national inequality: the national Gini fell from approximately 0.45 in 2003 to 0.38 in 2023. The Theil index in Panel (b) follows the same broad trajectory as the Gini, indicating that the patterns described below are not specific to the choice of inequality measure.

Applying the decomposition in equation (2), with the population partitioned into urban (u) and rural (r) groups, Figure B.3.2 presents the resulting between- and within-group components of total Theil inequality for each year from 2003 to 2023. Inequality within urban and rural areas accounts for the overwhelming majority of total inequality throughout the period, from approximately 90% in 2003–2006 to about 95% by 2023. Differences in mean income between urban and rural areas account for the remaining 5–10%. The urban–rural contribution declined from about 10% in 2003–2006 to about 6–8% over 2010–2016, about 5–6% over 2017–2022, and about 5% in 2023, with small reversals in 2013, 2015–2016, and 2019.

The urban–rural between-group component is substantially smaller than the 15–23% associated with differences in mean income across regions (Section 4.2). Thus, differ-

ences between Russian regions make a substantially larger contribution to aggregate inequality than the average income gap between urban and rural areas. Most inequality instead arises from income dispersion within each settlement type. The urban–rural divide therefore captures only a limited share of overall inequality, while differences in occupation, individual characteristics, and regional economic conditions generate much larger differences within urban and rural populations themselves.

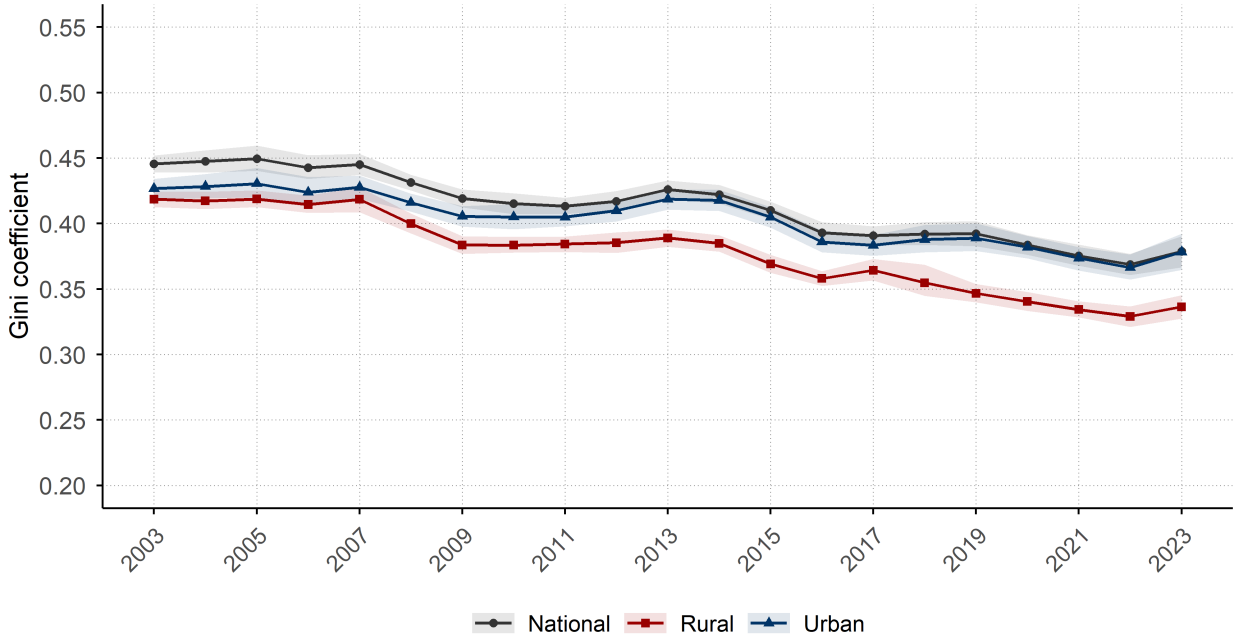
Table B.3.1: Gini Coefficients by Settlement Type

	National		Urban		Rural	
Year	Gini	95% CI	Gini	95% CI	Gini	95% CI
2003	0.446	(0.439, 0.452)	0.427	(0.418, 0.434)	0.419	(0.413, 0.424)
2004	0.448	(0.439, 0.456)	0.428	(0.419, 0.438)	0.417	(0.411, 0.424)
2005	0.449	(0.44, 0.459)	0.43	(0.42, 0.442)	0.419	(0.413, 0.425)
2006	0.443	(0.434, 0.452)	0.424	(0.415, 0.436)	0.414	(0.408, 0.421)
2007	0.445	(0.437, 0.453)	0.428	(0.419, 0.437)	0.419	(0.409, 0.428)
2008	0.431	(0.425, 0.437)	0.416	(0.409, 0.423)	0.4	(0.393, 0.408)
2009	0.419	(0.412, 0.426)	0.406	(0.398, 0.413)	0.384	(0.377, 0.39)
2010	0.415	(0.407, 0.423)	0.405	(0.396, 0.415)	0.384	(0.378, 0.39)
2011	0.413	(0.407, 0.42)	0.405	(0.398, 0.412)	0.384	(0.378, 0.39)
2012	0.417	(0.409, 0.425)	0.41	(0.402, 0.418)	0.385	(0.378, 0.393)
2013	0.426	(0.419, 0.433)	0.419	(0.411, 0.426)	0.389	(0.382, 0.395)
2014	0.422	(0.415, 0.429)	0.418	(0.41, 0.426)	0.385	(0.379, 0.391)
2015	0.41	(0.403, 0.417)	0.405	(0.397, 0.413)	0.369	(0.362, 0.376)
2016	0.393	(0.386, 0.401)	0.386	(0.378, 0.395)	0.358	(0.352, 0.364)
2017	0.391	(0.383, 0.398)	0.383	(0.375, 0.391)	0.364	(0.356, 0.373)
2018	0.392	(0.384, 0.401)	0.388	(0.378, 0.399)	0.355	(0.345, 0.369)
2019	0.392	(0.383, 0.402)	0.389	(0.379, 0.4)	0.347	(0.34, 0.354)
2020	0.384	(0.376, 0.391)	0.382	(0.373, 0.39)	0.34	(0.333, 0.348)
2021	0.375	(0.368, 0.384)	0.374	(0.364, 0.382)	0.334	(0.328, 0.341)
2022	0.369	(0.361, 0.377)	0.366	(0.357, 0.376)	0.329	(0.321, 0.337)
2023	0.379	(0.367, 0.39)	0.378	(0.365, 0.392)	0.336	(0.327, 0.345)

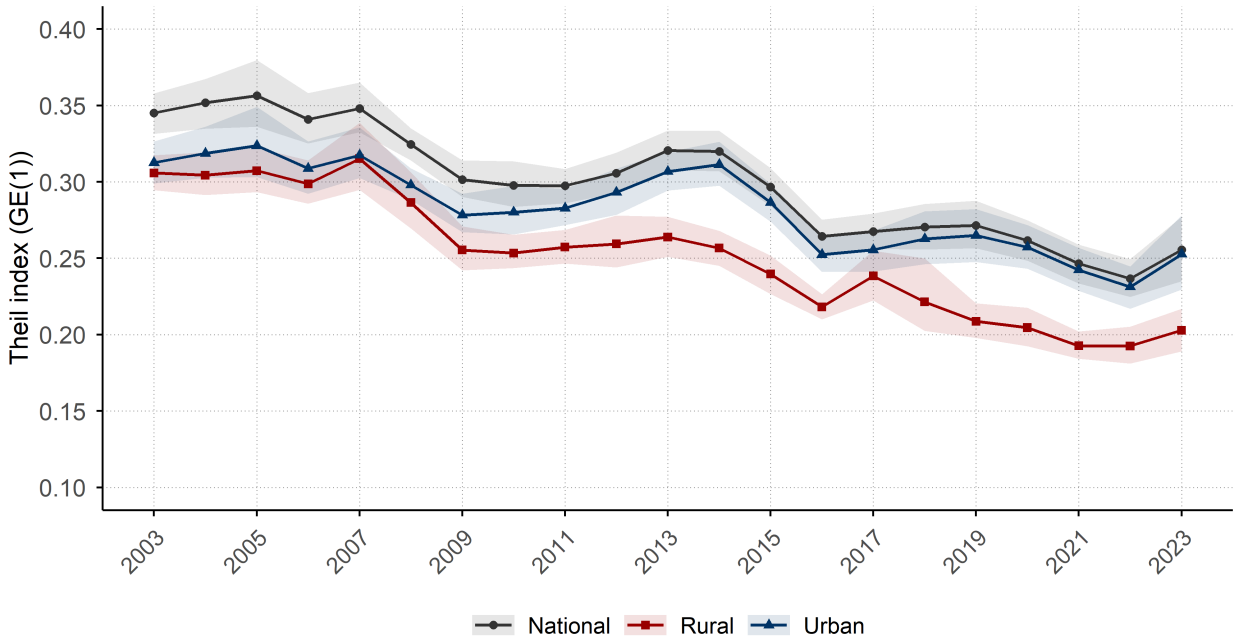
Notes: Gini coefficients for per capita household monetary income estimated from Rosstat HBS (OBDH) microdata. 95% confidence intervals from 1,000 bootstrap replications. Income winsorized at the 0.05th and 99.95th percentiles within each year. Urban: MEST $= 1$; Rural: MEST $= 2$.

Figure B.3.1: Income Inequality by Settlement Type

(a) Gini Coefficient

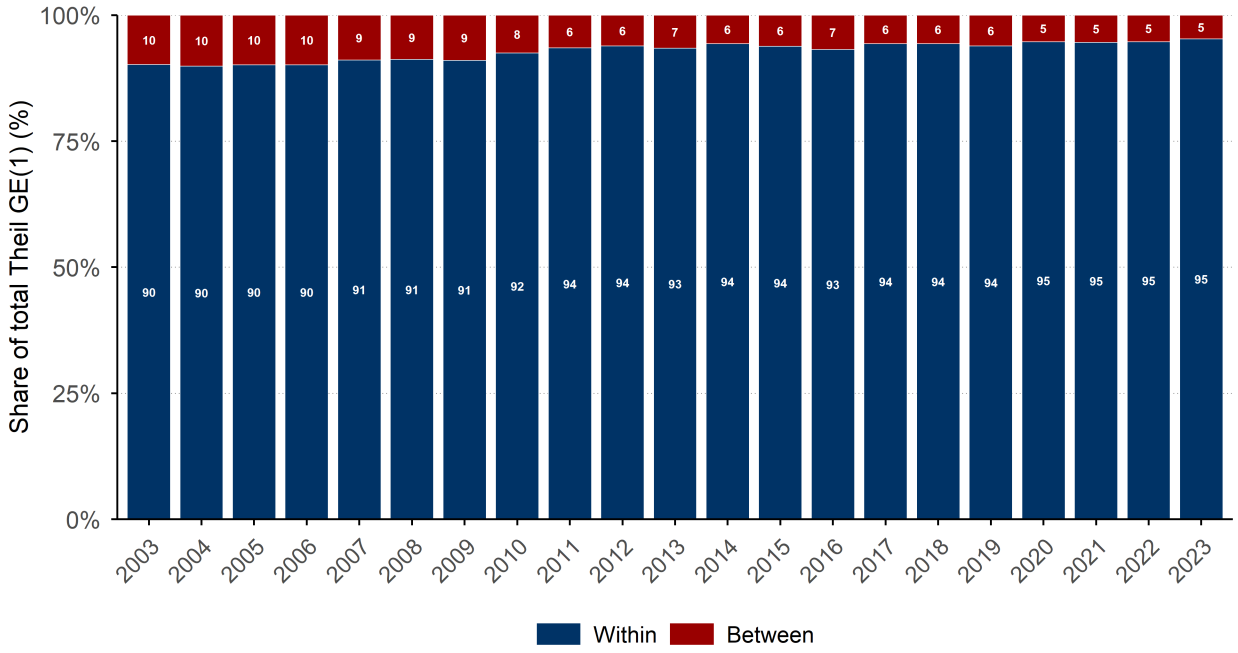


(b) Theil Index (GE(1))



Notes: The figure reports inequality in per capita household income estimated from HBS (OBDH) microdata. Panel (a) shows the Gini coefficient; Panel (b) shows the Theil index GE(1). Shaded areas denote 95% bootstrap confidence intervals constructed from 1,000 bootstrap replications. Urban households are defined as those residing in localities classified as urban (MEST = 1); rural households are those residing in localities classified as rural (MEST = 2). See Table B.3.1 for full numerical results.

Figure B.3.2: Theil Index Decomposition: Urban–Rural



Notes: The figure displays the decomposition of the national Theil GE(1) index into between-group and within-group components for each year from 2003 to 2023, estimated from the HBS (OBDH) microdata. The between-group component (red) captures the share of total inequality associated with differences in mean income between urban and rural households. The within-group component (blue) captures inequality within urban and rural populations, weighted by each group's income share. The two components sum to 100% in each year. See Table B.3.2 for numerical results.

Table B.3.2: Theil Index GE(1) by Settlement Type

	National		Urban		Rural	
Year	Theil	95% CI	Theil	95% CI	Theil	95% CI
2003	0.345	(0.331, 0.358)	0.312	(0.299, 0.326)	0.306	(0.295, 0.317)
2004	0.352	(0.335, 0.367)	0.319	(0.303, 0.336)	0.304	(0.291, 0.319)
2005	0.356	(0.336, 0.38)	0.324	(0.303, 0.349)	0.307	(0.293, 0.322)
2006	0.341	(0.325, 0.358)	0.309	(0.292, 0.326)	0.299	(0.286, 0.314)
2007	0.348	(0.333, 0.365)	0.318	(0.302, 0.336)	0.315	(0.295, 0.338)
2008	0.324	(0.314, 0.335)	0.298	(0.288, 0.309)	0.286	(0.27, 0.306)
2009	0.302	(0.29, 0.314)	0.278	(0.267, 0.292)	0.255	(0.242, 0.271)
2010	0.298	(0.284, 0.313)	0.28	(0.266, 0.297)	0.253	(0.244, 0.265)
2011	0.298	(0.286, 0.308)	0.283	(0.272, 0.295)	0.257	(0.247, 0.268)
2012	0.306	(0.293, 0.319)	0.293	(0.278, 0.309)	0.259	(0.244, 0.278)
2013	0.321	(0.308, 0.334)	0.307	(0.294, 0.32)	0.264	(0.251, 0.277)
2014	0.32	(0.307, 0.333)	0.311	(0.297, 0.326)	0.257	(0.245, 0.268)
2015	0.297	(0.284, 0.309)	0.286	(0.274, 0.299)	0.24	(0.227, 0.252)
2016	0.264	(0.254, 0.275)	0.252	(0.241, 0.265)	0.218	(0.21, 0.226)
2017	0.268	(0.256, 0.279)	0.256	(0.241, 0.268)	0.238	(0.222, 0.255)
2018	0.27	(0.256, 0.286)	0.263	(0.246, 0.281)	0.221	(0.203, 0.25)
2019	0.272	(0.256, 0.288)	0.265	(0.248, 0.282)	0.209	(0.198, 0.221)
2020	0.262	(0.248, 0.275)	0.257	(0.243, 0.272)	0.205	(0.192, 0.218)
2021	0.246	(0.233, 0.259)	0.242	(0.229, 0.257)	0.193	(0.184, 0.202)
2022	0.237	(0.225, 0.249)	0.231	(0.217, 0.245)	0.193	(0.181, 0.205)
2023	0.256	(0.235, 0.277)	0.253	(0.229, 0.278)	0.203	(0.189, 0.217)

Notes: Theil index GE(1) for per capita household monetary income estimated from Rosstat HBS (OBDH) microdata. 95% confidence intervals from 1,000 bootstrap replications. Income winsorized at the 0.05th and 99.95th percentiles within each year. Urban: MEST $= 1$; Rural: MEST $= 2$.

B.4 Heterogeneity in Income Inequality by Education and Occupation

This subsection presents the full numerical results underlying the education- and occupation-specific inequality analysis in Section 4.3.

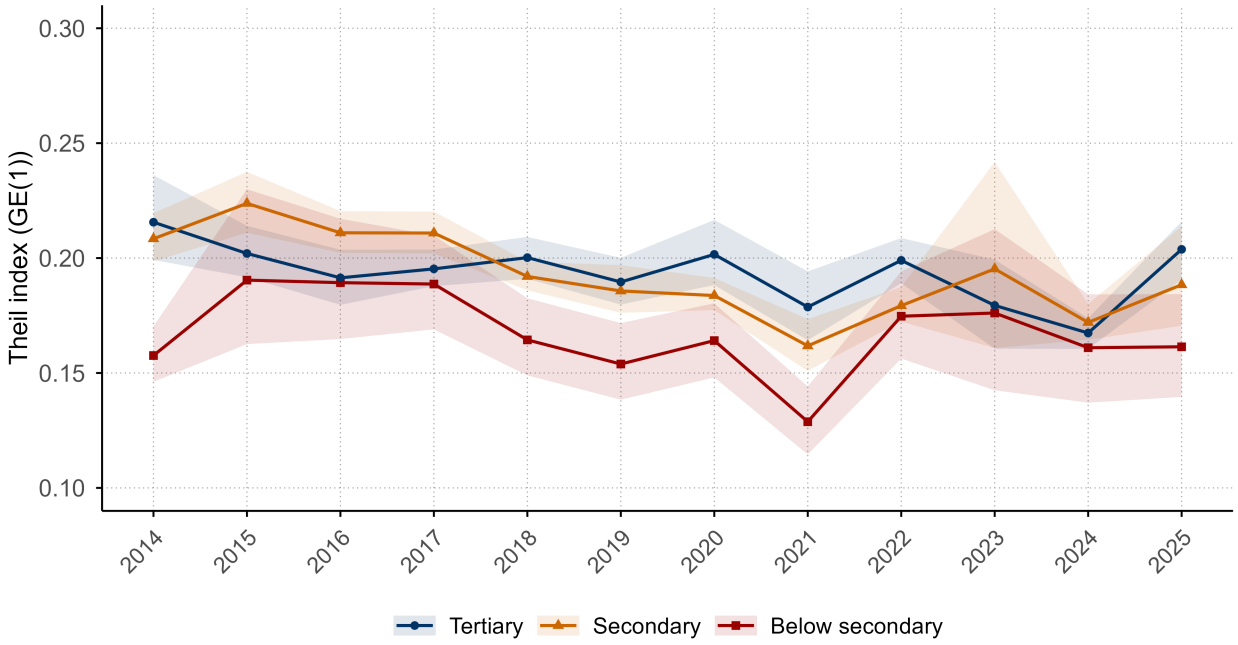
Table B.4.1: Theil Index GE(1) by Education and Occupation Group

	Education			Occupation		
Year	Theil GE(1)	Between (%)	Within (%)	Theil GE(1)	Between (%)	Within (%)
2014	0.247	14.7%	85.3%	0.228	9.8%	90.3%
2015	0.244	13.5%	86.5%	0.222	10%	90%
2016	0.233	14.5%	85.5%	0.219	13%	87.1%
2017	0.235	14.5%	85.6%	0.217	12.4%	87.6%
2018	0.230	14.8%	85.2%	0.215	13.6%	86.4%
2019	0.218	14.2%	85.8%	0.205	13.4%	86.6%
2020	0.225	14.1%	85.9%	0.207	12.2%	87.8%
2021	0.201	15.2%	84.8%	0.180	13.4%	86.7%
2022	0.220	13.4%	86.6%	0.206	11.4%	88.6%
2023	0.203	8.2%	91.8%	0.181	9.6%	90.4%
2024	0.189	10.4%	89.6%	0.174	7.8%	92.2%
2025	0.216	9.2%	90.8%	0.196	7.1%	92.9%

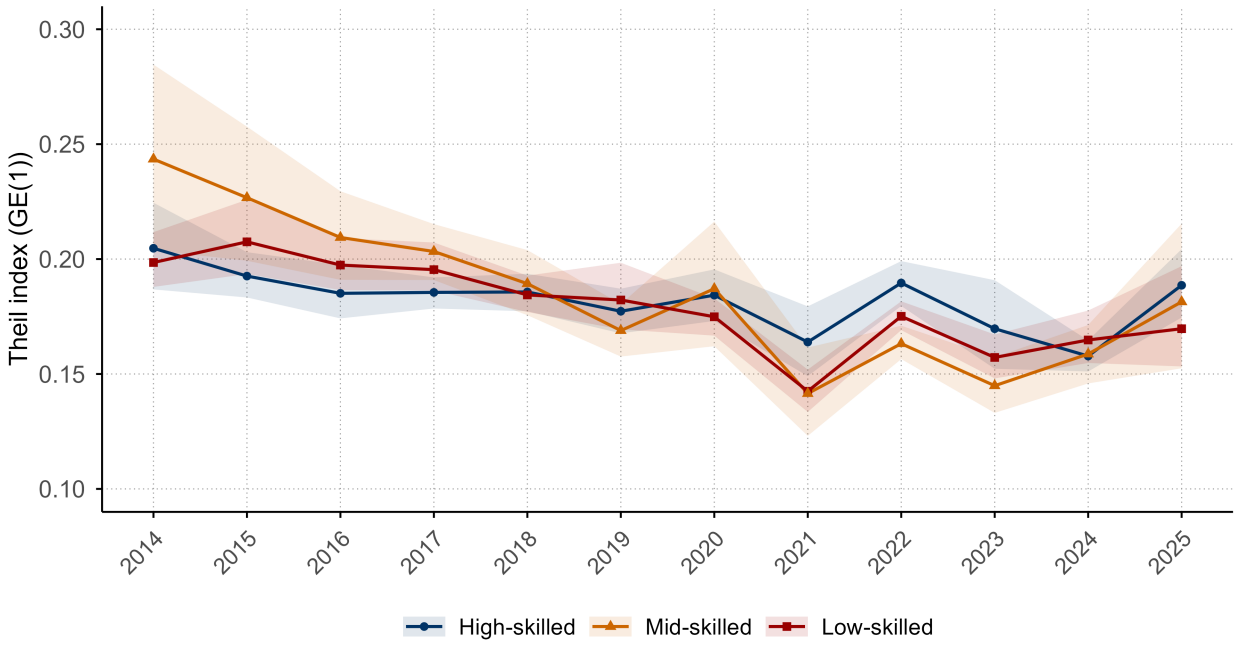
Notes: The table reports Theil index GE(1) decomposed into between- and within-group components, for households grouped by the education (left) and occupation (right) of the household head. Estimated from PIS (VNDN) microdata.

Figure B.4.1: Theil Index (GE(1)) by Education and Occupation Group

(a) Education



(b) Occupation



Notes: The figure reports the Theil index GE(1) for per capita household income estimated from PIS (VNDN) microdata. Panel (a) groups households by the education of the household head (tertiary, secondary, or below secondary); panel (b) groups households by occupation (high-, mid-, or low-skilled). Shaded areas denote 95% bootstrap confidence intervals constructed from 1,000 bootstrap replications. See Figure 17 for the corresponding Gini coefficients, and Appendix B.4 for full numerical results.

B.5 Fields Decomposition of Income Variance

This subsection presents the full year-by-year Fields (2003) shares underlying the decomposition in Section 4.4.

Table B.5.1: Fields (2003) Decomposition of Log Per Capita Income Variance

Variable	2014	2015	2016	2017	2018	2019	2020	2021	2022	2023	2024	2025
Rural settlement	5.1%	4.8%	4.1%	3.8%	3.6%	3.7%	3.1%	2.5%	2.8%	2.4%	2.2%	2.3%
Log household size	5.2%	7.1%	8.1%	8.5%	9.3%	8.4%	9.5%	8.5%	10.2%	8.8%	9.7%	8.5%
Number of children	9.2%	9.5%	11%	10.7%	13%	13.1%	12.3%	7.3%	11.4%	12.6%	10.1%	10.2%
Pensioner household	*-0.2%*	*-0.1%*	0%	*-0.3%*	*-0.2%*	*-0.1%*	0.2%	*-1.9%*	*-0.9%*	*-0.4%*	*-1.2%*	*-1.1%*
Share of workers	13.4%	12%	12.3%	13.1%	13.3%	11.4%	13.1%	22.7%	17.4%	16.7%	18%	18.8%
Tertiary education (head)	5.9%	5.9%	5.9%	5.8%	5.1%	5.3%	4.6%	4.5%	4.4%	3.2%	4.3%	2.8%
High-skilled occupation (head)	2.2%	2.6%	4%	4.1%	4.7%	4%	4.1%	5.2%	3.9%	2.5%	3.2%	3.6%
Female household head	1%	1%	1.1%	1%	0.4%	0.8%	1.2%	0.8%	0.4%	0.3%	0.6%	0.8%
Region fixed effects	13.9%	13.5%	13.6%	12.7%	12.8%	15.5%	14.6%	16.3%	13.6%	15.5%	10.8%	11.9%
Residual (unexplained)	44.4%	43.7%	40%	40.6%	37.9%	37.9%	37.3%	34.1%	36.8%	38.4%	42.2%	42.2%
Total R^2	55.6%	56.3%	60%	59.4%	62.1%	62.1%	62.7%	65.9%	63.2%	61.6%	57.8%	57.8%

Notes: $\hat{s}_z$ = Fields (2003) share of log per capita income variance. Income winsorized at 0.05th/99.95th percentiles within each year. Italic = inequality-reducing ($\hat{s}_z < 0$). Region FE = total R^2 minus the sum of individual variable shares. Estimated from PIS (VNDN) microdata.

B.6 Shorrocks Decomposition of Income Variance

This subsection presents the full year-by-year Shorrocks (1982) factor shares underlying the decomposition in Section 4.5.

Table B.6.1: Shorrocks (1982) Factor Decomposition of Income Variance by Source

Panel A: 2015–2019

Income source	2015		2016		2017		2018		2019	
	Inc.%	S_k%	Inc.%	S_k%	Inc.%	S_k%	Inc.%	S_k%	Inc.%	S_k%
Labor income	70.6%	76.4%	72.1%	84.4%	71.3%	81.5%	72%	84.8%	71.7%	82%
Business income	6.9%	16%	5.8%	8.7%	6%	12.8%	4.5%	9%	5.1%	9.8%
Social transfers	19.7%	2%	19.5%	2.1%	20.3%	2.5%	20.9%	2.5%	20.6%	3.2%
Property income	1%	1.9%	1.1%	3%	1%	1.9%	0.8%	1.6%	1%	2.7%
Other income	1.8%	3.6%	1.5%	1.8%	1.4%	1.3%	1.7%	2.1%	1.6%	2.3%
Total	100%	100%	100%	100%	100%	100%	100%	100%	100%	100%

Panel B: 2020–2025

Income source	2020		2021		2022		2023		2024		2025	
	Inc.%	S_k%	Inc.%	S_k%	Inc.%	S_k%	Inc.%	S_k%	Inc.%	S_k%	Inc.%	S_k%
Labor income	71.7%	81%	69.6%	90.9%	72.9%	89.4%	72.5%	79.6%	73.7%	88.7%	75.2%	89%
Business income	5.9%	13.4%	4.1%	6.5%	5.1%	8.4%	6.6%	16.8%	5.6%	8.3%	5.9%	9.7%
Social transfers	20.2%	2.6%	24.1%	*-1.8%*	19.9%	*-0.9%*	19%	0.8%	18.1%	*-0.8%*	16.1%	*-2.2%*
Property income	0.8%	1.4%	1.3%	3.2%	0.9%	2.1%	0.9%	2%	0.8%	1.7%	0.9%	1.6%
Other income	1.4%	1.6%	1%	1.1%	1.2%	0.9%	1%	0.8%	1.8%	2.1%	1.9%	2%
Total	100%	100%	100%	100%	100%	100%	100%	100%	100%	100%	100%	100%

Notes: Inc.% = weighted income share of component k in total per capita cash income. S_k% = Shorrocks (1982) factor share: $S_k = \widehat{\text{Cov}}(y_k, y)/\widehat{\text{Var}}(y)$. Income winsorized at 0.05th/99.95th percentiles within each year. Estimated from PIS (VNDN) microdata.